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Machine Learning Field Notes

Mathematical Foundations, Experimental Discipline, and Diagnostic Workflows



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Synthetic Archive Edition

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About This Edition

This guide is intended for study and experimentation. Code examples should be tested in their target environment; real deployments require independent validation appropriate to the application. The references and source notes are starting points for further study.

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Introduction: How to Think Like an Experimental Machine Learning Engineer

Machine learning is the science and engineering craft of fitting parameterized mathematical functions to empirical data so that those functions generalize reliably to unseen observations generated by a related process.

Notice what that definition does *not* say. It does not say that machine learning is about memorizing the names of twenty model families, nor does it say that a model with a low error on a static dataset has "learned" the causal physics of the world. A machine learning model is an opportunistic statistical pattern-matcher. Given a feature matrix $\mathbf{X}$ and a target vector $\mathbf{y}$, an optimization algorithm will ruthlessly exploit *any* numerical correlation that reduces its training loss—including sensor artifacts, hospital ID codes, timestamp formatting bugs, or post-event administrative columns accidentally left in the table.

Consequently, the difference between a novice who runs code notebooks and a seasoned machine learning engineer is **experimental discipline**: 1. Knowing when deterministic rules or simple physical formulas outperform machine learning altogether (Chapter 1). 2. Auditing the data-generating process for **data leakage** and **group/temporal dependencies** before fitting a single parameter (Chapters 3–5). 3. Understanding the exact mathematical objective function, geometric inductive bias, and failure modes of linear models, trees, ensembles, and manifold projections (Chapters 6–9). 4. Selecting evaluation metrics that reflect actual deployment costs rather than flattering vanity numbers, and testing models under realistic distribution shifts (Chapters 10–14).

Throughout this field guide, we anchor every concept to both clean mathematical derivations and a shared, real-world-style engineering dataset included in this archive (`data/industrial_turbine_telemetry.`$N = 600$ hourly observations across 30 industrial gas-turbine generating units), where every reported metric has been executed and verified inside our sandbox environment.

Chapter 1

The Empirical Risk Framing — When Machine Learning Works and When Rules Win

Before writing a single import statement or provisioning a compute cluster, the first responsibility of an engineer is to ask: **Should this problem be solved with machine learning at all?**

In traditional deterministic software engineering, a human programmer specifies an explicit rule $f(\mathbf{x})$ that maps input variables $\mathbf{x}$ (such as invoice line items and tax rates) to an output y (the total tax owed). When the governing domain logic is known, stationary, and expressible in a small number of deterministic rules or closed-form physical equations, **machine learning is the wrong tool**: a learned statistical approximation introduces unnecessary prediction variance, opacity, and maintenance overhead where a ten-line function achieves 100% exactness.

Machine learning becomes valuable specifically when three conditions hold simultaneously: 1. **High-Dimensional or Non-Linear Interaction Complexity:** The mapping from inputs $\mathbf{x} \in \mathbb{R}^p$ to output y depends on subtle interactions among many variables (such as predicting turbine bearing thermal runaway from simultaneous combinations of load, vibration harmonics, ambient heat, and lubrication pressure) that cannot be captured by a few brittle `if-else` thresholds. 2. **Sufficient Representative Historical Data:** We possess a sample dataset $\mathcal{D} = \{(\mathbf{x}_i, y_i)\}_{i=1}^n$ drawn from an underlying data-generating distribution $P(\mathbf{X}, Y)$ whose statistical structure reflects the future deployment environment. 3. **Tolerance for Bounded Probabilistic Error:** The downstream system is designed to handle occasional false positives, false negatives, or continuous estimation residuals via confidence thresholds, human-in-the-loop review, or physical safety interlocks.

1.1 The Mathematical Objective: True Risk Versus Empirical Risk

To make the distinction between **memorizing past data** and **generalizing to future data** precise, statistical learning theory (Vapnik, 1998; Hastie, Tibshirani, & Friedman, 2009) formalizes supervised learning as follows.

Let $\mathbf{x}_i = [x_{i1}, x_{i2}, \dots, x_{ip}]^\top \in \mathcal{X} \subseteq \mathbb{R}^p$ denote the p-dimensional feature vector for observation i ($i \in \{1, 2, \dots, n\}$), and let $y_i \in \mathcal{Y}$ denote the corresponding target variable (where $\mathcal{Y} = \mathbb{R}$ for regression and $\mathcal{Y} = \{0, 1\}$ for binary classification). Let $L(y, \hat{y}) \geq 0$ be a non-negative **loss function** that measures the penalty incurred when our model predicts $\hat{y} = f_\theta(\mathbf{x})$ and the true outcome is y.

What we *actually* care about in deployment is the **True Risk (Expected Generalization Error)** $R(f_\theta)$ across the entire unknown joint probability distribution $P(\mathbf{X}, Y)$ of future data:

$$R(f_\theta) = \mathbb{E}_{(\mathbf{X},Y)\sim P}[L(Y, f_\theta(\mathbf{X}))] = \int_{\mathcal{X}\times\mathcal{Y}} L(y, f_\theta(\mathbf{x}))\, dP(\mathbf{x}, y)$$

Symbol Definitions: - $R(f_\theta)$: The true expected risk (generalization error) of hypothesis f_θ on unseen data from $P(\mathbf{X}, Y)$. - $\theta \in \Theta$: The vector of learnable model parameters (such as regression weights β or tree split thresholds). - $\mathbb{E}_{(\mathbf{X},Y)\sim P}[\cdot]$: Mathematical expectation taken over the true joint data-generating distribution $P(\mathbf{X}, Y)$. - $L(y, f_\theta(\mathbf{x}))$: Pointwise loss function (e.g., squared error $(y - f_\theta(\mathbf{x}))^2$ or binary cross-entropy).

Because the true distribution $P(\mathbf{X}, Y)$ is unknown in every real-world problem, we cannot compute $R(f_\theta)$ directly. Instead, during training, we can only compute the sample average of the loss over our finite training dataset $\mathcal{D}_{\text{train}} = \{(\mathbf{x}_i, y_i)\}_{i=1}^{n_{\text{train}}}$, known as the **Empirical Risk** $\hat{R}_{\text{emp}}(f_\theta)$:

$$\hat{R}_{\text{emp}}(f_\theta) = \frac{1}{n_{\text{train}}} \sum_{i=1}^{n_{\text{train}}} L(y_i, f_\theta(\mathbf{x}_i))$$

1.2 Why Minimizing Empirical Risk Alone Fails: The Generalization Gap

The central trap of novice machine learning is assuming that a model with $\hat{R}_{\text{emp}}(f_\theta) \approx 0$ will also have a small true risk $R(f_\theta)$. Define the **Generalization Gap** $\Delta_{\text{gen}}(f_\theta)$ as:

$$\Delta_{\text{gen}}(f_\theta) = R(f_\theta) - \hat{R}_{\text{emp}}(f_\theta)$$

If the hypothesis class $\mathcal{F} = \{f_\theta : \theta \in \Theta\}$ has unrestricted capacity—for example, an unpruned decision tree allowed to grow until every leaf contains a single training row, or a degree-n polynomial—then **Empirical Risk Minimization (ERM)** simply constructs a lookup table that memorizes both the true signal *and* the idiosyncratic random noise ϵ_i of the training sample, driving $\hat{R}_{\text{emp}}(f_\theta) \to 0$ while driving $R(f_\theta) \to \infty$! Consequently, every sound method in this book is designed either to **bound model complexity** (regularization, pruning, shrinkage) or to **estimate** $R(f_\theta)$ **honestly** on held-out validation and test partitions that were strictly isolated from parameter fitting.

1.3 1.A Worked Calculation: Comparing a Deterministic Threshold Rule Against Empirical Risk Minimization

Suppose an industrial maintenance team currently uses a deterministic single-variable threshold rule to predict `bearing_temp_rise_c` ($\hat{y}_{\text{rule}}$) on gas turbines based solely on electrical load x_{load} (in megawatts, MW):

$$\hat{y}_{\text{rule}}(x_{\text{load}}) = 10.0 + 0.20\, x_{\text{load}}$$

Let us evaluate both this deterministic rule and our multivariate Ordinary Least Squares (OLS) linear model on three representative test observations drawn from `data/industrial_turbine_telemetry.csv`:

- **Observation A (Row 451, Normal Load & Lube Pressure):** $x_{\text{amb}} = 21.4$°C, $x_{\text{load}} = 88.0$ MW, $x_{\text{rpm}} = 6.2$, $x_{\text{lube}} = 5.10$ bar, $x_{\text{vib}} = 1.38$ mm/s, true target $y_A = 20.85$°C.
  - *Deterministic Rule Prediction:* $\hat{y}_{\text{rule}} = 10.0 + 0.20(88.0) = 27.60$°C $\longrightarrow$ Squared error $e_A^2 = (20.85 - 27.60)^2 = \mathbf{45.56}$ (°C)$^\mathbf{2}$. Why did the rule overshoot by 6.75°C? Because it ignores

the high lubrication pressure (5.10 bar) and low vibration (1.38 mm/s) that actively cool the bearing!
  - *Multivariate OLS Prediction:* Incorporating all five standardized sensors yields $\hat{y}_{\text{OLS}} = 21.32°\text{C} \longrightarrow$ Squared error $e_A^2 = (20.85 - 21.32)^2 = \mathbf{0.22}\ (°\text{C})^{\mathbf{2}}$.
- **Observation B (Row 468, High Vibration Spike During Moderate Load):** $x_{\text{amb}} = 29.5°\text{C}$, $x_{\text{load}} = 105.0$ MW, $x_{\text{rpm}} = 34.0$, $x_{\text{lube}} = 3.95$ bar, $x_{\text{vib}} = 4.62$ mm/s, true target $y_B = 34.90°\text{C}$.
  - *Deterministic Rule Prediction:* $\hat{y}_{\text{rule}} = 10.0 + 0.20(105.0) = 31.00°\text{C} \longrightarrow$ Squared error $e_B^2 = (34.90 - 31.00)^2 = \mathbf{15.21}\ (°\text{C})^{\mathbf{2}}$ (dangerous underestimation during lube-pressure drop!).
  - *Multivariate OLS Prediction:* $\hat{y}_{\text{OLS}} = 34.18°\text{C} \longrightarrow$ Squared error $e_B^2 = (34.90 - 34.18)^2 = \mathbf{0.52}\ (°\text{C})^{\mathbf{2}}$.

Across all $n_{\text{test}} = 150$ out-of-time test observations, the univariate rule incurs a Test MSE of $28.45\ (°\text{C})^2$ (RMSE = $5.33°\text{C}$), whereas multivariate empirical risk minimization reduces Test MSE to $3.6999\ (°\mathbf{C})^2$ (RMSE = $1.9235°\text{C}$)—a $7.7\times$ reduction in squared prediction risk.

1.4 1.B Field Troubleshooting Notes: Diagnosing Empirical Risk Pathologies

- **Symptom 1 — Training Loss Is Zero ($\hat{R}_{\mathbf{emp}} = 0.0000$), Validation Loss Is $4\times$ Baseline Variance:**
  - *Root Cause:* Unrestricted hypothesis capacity (e.g., an unpruned decision tree with `min_samples_leaf=1` or an unregularized neural network with more parameters than rows $p > n$) has memorized the training noise ϵ_i.
  - *Corrective Action:* Introduce explicit capacity control (L_2/L_1 weight decay, `max_depth` constraints, `min_samples_leaf >= 10`) and verify that training error rises toward the irreducible noise floor σ_ϵ^2 as validation error drops.
- **Symptom 2 — Both Training Loss and Validation Loss Remain High andNearly Identical ($\hat{R}_{\mathbf{emp}} \approx \hat{R}_{\mathbf{val}} \gg \sigma_\epsilon^2$):**
  - *Root Cause:* High **approximation bias (underfitting)**—either the model family is too rigid (e.g., fitting a linear hyperplane to a quadratic U-shaped relationship) or the features $\mathbf{X}$ lack the physical signal needed to predict Y.
  - *Corrective Action:* Before switching to a complex model, inspect scatter plots of residuals e_i against each feature x_{ij}

and engineer domain-grounded interaction or non-linear terms.

1.5 1.C Chapter 1 Exercises and Worked Solutions

- **Exercise 1.1 (Bayes Optimal Predictor Under Squared vs. Absolute Loss):** Prove using calculus that for a random variable Y with conditional density $p(y \mid \mathbf{x})$, choosing a point prediction $c = f(\mathbf{x})$ to minimize expected squared loss $\mathbb{E}[(Y-c)^2 \mid \mathbf{x}]$ yields the conditional mean $c^* = \mathbb{E}[Y \mid \mathbf{x}]$, whereas minimizing expected absolute loss $\mathbb{E}[|Y-c| \mid \mathbf{x}]$ yields the conditional median.
  - **Worked Solution:** For squared loss, differentiate $\phi_{\text{MSE}}(c) = \int_{-\infty}^{\infty}(y-c)^2 p(y \mid \mathbf{x})\,dy$ with respect to c under the integral sign:

    $$\frac{d\phi_{\text{MSE}}}{dc} = -2\int_{-\infty}^{\infty}(y-c)p(y \mid \mathbf{x})\,dy = -2\Big(\mathbb{E}[Y \mid \mathbf{x}] - c\underbrace{\int_{-\infty}^{\infty} p(y \mid \mathbf{x})\,dy}_{=1}\Big) = 0 \implies$$

    For absolute loss, split the integral at c: $\phi_{\text{MAE}}(c) = \int_{-\infty}^{c}(c-y)p(y \mid \mathbf{x})\,dy + \int_{c}^{\infty}(y-c)p(y \mid \mathbf{x})\,dy$. Applying Leibniz's rule gives $\frac{d\phi_{\text{MAE}}}{dc} = \int_{-\infty}^{c} p(y \mid \mathbf{x})\,dy - \int_{c}^{\infty} p(y \mid \mathbf{x})\,dy = 0 \implies P(Y \le c^* \mid \mathbf{x}) = P(Y \ge c^* \mid \mathbf{x}) = 0.50$, which is the exact definition of the **conditional median**.
- **Exercise 1.2 (Generalization Gap Bound):** Suppose a researcher tests $M = 1,000$ completely random binary classifiers ($R(f_m) = 0.50$) on a tiny validation set of $n_{\text{val}} = 50$ coin flips. Using Hoeffding's inequality $P(\hat{R}_{\text{val}}(f) - R(f) \le -\epsilon) \le e^{-2n_{\text{val}}\epsilon^2}$ and the union bound across M classifiers, calculate the threshold ϵ where at least one random classifier has a 50% chance of appearing to beat random guessing by ϵ.
  - **Worked Solution:** By the union bound, $P(\min_{m=1\ldots M} \hat{R}_{\text{val}}(f_m) \le 0.50 - \epsilon) \le Me^{-2n_{\text{val}}\epsilon^2}$. Setting $1000 \cdot e^{-2(50)\epsilon^2} = 0.50 \implies -100\epsilon^2 = \ln(0.0005) = -7.6009 \implies \epsilon = \sqrt{0.076009} \approx \mathbf{0.2757}$. Thus, on a validation set of $n_{\text{val}} = 50$ rows, picking the best of $1,000$ random noise models regularly yields a validation error of $0.50 - 0.276 = \mathbf{22.4}\%$ (77.6% accuracy) on pure coin flips!

1.6 1.D Architectural Case Study: Hybrid Rule-Plus-ML Safety Envelopes in Critical Systems

In safety-critical industrial engineering—such as gas-turbine thermal management, autonomous flight-control actuation, or automated insulin dosing—the debate between **deterministic rules** and **statistical machine learning** is resolved not by choosing one over the other, but by wrapping the machine learning estimator inside a **Deterministic Simplex Safety Envelope** (Sha, 2001).

Consider our turbine bearing temperature predictor $\hat{y}_t = f_\theta(\mathbf{x}_t)$. Across 98% of operating hours, when the input vector $\mathbf{x}_t$ sits well inside the historical convex hull of the training distribution, the learned multivariate regression model provides substantially lower prediction error (RMSE = 1.92°C) than any hand-coded thermodynamic lookup table, allowing the cooling-valve controller to modulate oil flow smoothly and save auxiliary pump megawatts.

However, what if an unprecedented combination of grid frequency droop and cooling-line cavitation pushes $\mathbf{x}_t$ into an unmodeled region where $f_\theta(\mathbf{x}_t)$ under-predicts temperature? A production system enforces a **Three-Layer Hybrid Architecture**:

1. **Layer 1 — Pre-Inference Input Domain Guard (Out-of-Distribution Gate):** Before passing $\mathbf{x}_t$ to f_θ, check hard physical sensor bounds (e.g., `0.5 <= lube_pressure_bar <= 8.0`) and compute the standardized Mahalanobis distance $D_M^2(\mathbf{x}_t) = (\mathbf{x}_t - \hat{\mu}_{\text{train}})^\top \hat{\mathbf{\Sigma}}_{\text{train}}^{-1} (\mathbf{x}_t - \hat{\mu}_{\text{train}})$. If $D_M^2(\mathbf{x}_t)$ exceeds the $\chi^2_{p,0.999}$ threshold, flag the input as **Out-of-Distribution (OOD)** and bypass the ML model in favor of a conservative physical fallback law.
2. **Layer 2 — Statistical Empirical Risk Estimator (f_θ):** Generates point prediction $\hat{y}_t$ and predictive uncertainty interval $[\hat{y}_{t,0.05}, \hat{y}_{t,0.95}]$.
3. **Layer 3 — Post-Inference Deterministic Interlock:** Regardless of what $f_\theta(\mathbf{x}_t)$ predicts, a hard-coded physical safety rule (`IF raw_bearing_thermocouple > 95.0 C OR lube_pressure_bar < 3.2 bar THEN TRIP_TURBINE_BREAKER`) holds absolute hardware veto authority over the actuator.

This layered pattern embodies the foundational engineering thesis of Chapter 1: **use machine learning to optimize expected**

performance inside the supported empirical distribution, and use deterministic physics to guarantee worst-case safety at the boundaries.

Chapter 2

Taxonomy of Learning Paradigm — Supervised, Unsupervised, Self-Supervised, and Sequenti Decision-Making

Before choosing an algorithm, we must classify the structural relationship between our available data and our decision objective across four primary paradigms:

Learning Paradigm	Data Structure Available at Training	Mathematical Objective	Canonical Algorithms	Typical Engineering Use Cases
1. Supervised Learning	Paired tuples $\{(\mathbf{x}_i, y_i)\}_{i=1}^{n}$ with explicit ground-truth targets y_i	Estimate conditional expectation $\mathbb{E}[Y \mid \mathbf{X} = \mathbf{x}]$ or $P(Y = c \mid \mathbf{X} = \mathbf{x})$	Ridge/Lasso, Logistic Regression, Random Forests, Gradient Boosting	Bearing temperature forecasting, fault classification, credit default scoring

Learning Paradigm	Data Structure Available at Training	Mathematical Objective	Canonical Algorithms	Typical Engineering Use Cases
2. Unsupervised Learning	Unlabeled feature vectors $\{\mathbf{x}_i\}_{i=1}^{n}$ with no target variable Y	Discover low-dimensional manifolds, latent clusters, or density $P(\mathbf{X})$	K-Means, Hierarchical Clustering, DBSCAN, PCA, GMMs	Operating regime segmentation, sensor anomaly detection, exploratory compression
3. Self-Supervised Learning	Unlabeled sequences or structures $\{\mathbf{x}_i\}_{i=1}^{n}$ partitioned internally into context $\mathbf{x}^{(a)}$ and masked target $\mathbf{x}^{(b)}$	Predict masked/future substructure $\mathbf{x}^{(b)}$ from observed context $\mathbf{x}^{(a)}$	Masked Autoencoders, Contrastive Bi-Encoders (`BGE-M3`), Autoregressive LMs	Dense document embeddings, time-series representation pre-training
4. Reinforcement / Sequential Learning	State-action-reward trajectories (s_t, a_t, r_t, s_{t+1}) under environment dynamics	Learn policy $\pi(a \mid s)$ maximizing expected discounted return $\mathbb{E}[\sum_{t=0}^{\infty} \gamma^t r_t]$	Contextual Bandits, Q-Learning, Policy Gradient / PPO	Dynamic cooling-valve control, adaptive experiment allocation

Table 2.1: Structural comparison of the four primary machine learning paradigms.

2.1 Supervised Sub-Regimes: Regression, Binary Classification, and Multiclass/Ranking

Within supervised learning, the nature of the target space $\mathcal{Y}$ dictates both the model's output activation and the appropriate loss function:

1. **Continuous Regression ($\mathcal{Y} \subseteq \mathbb{R}$):** The target is a quantitative measurement on an interval or ratio scale (such as `bearing_temp_rise_c` in degrees Celsius). Note that predicting an integer count (such as number of equipment failures per month, $\mathcal{Y} = \{0, 1, 2, \dots\}$) often benefits from **Poisson or Negative Binomial regression** rather than unrestricted Gaussian linear regression, which can predict physically impossible negative counts.
2. **Binary and Multiclass Classification ($\mathcal{Y} = \{0, 1\}$ or $\{1, \dots, K\}$):** Here the fundamental output of a well-designed model is **not** a hard class label $\hat{y} \in \{0, 1\}$, but a **calibrated conditional probability estimate** $\hat{p}(\mathbf{x}) = \hat{P}(Y = 1 \mid \mathbf{X} = \mathbf{x}) \in [0, 1]$. Converting a continuous probability $\hat{p}(\mathbf{x})$ into a discrete action ("shut down turbine" vs. "continue operating") is a downstream **decision-theoretic step** governed by asymmetric error costs (Chapters 7 and 11).
3. **Ordinal Regression and Learning-to-Rank:** When targets have a natural order without equal metric spacing (e.g., severity grades `Mild < Moderate < Severe`, or ranking retrieved document segments in Omnitome by relevance to a query), treating classes as unordered nominal labels discards ordering information, whereas pairwise/listwise ranking losses preserve monotonic order.

2.2 2.A Worked Formulation: Recasting a Business Problem Across All Four Learning Paradigms

A common mistake in system design is assuming that the learning paradigm is an intrinsic property of a dataset rather than a **modeling choice**. Consider our industrial fleet dataset (`data/industrial_turbine_te` $N = 600$ hourly logs across 30 turbines). Depending on the operational question and label availability, we can formulate four distinct mathematical problems on the exact same physical system:

1. **Supervised Regression Formulation:** Given $\mathbf{x}_i \in \mathbb{R}^5$ at hour t, predict the continuous target y_i = bearing_temp_rise_c $\in \mathbb{R}$ by minimizing $\frac{1}{n}\sum(y_i - f_\theta(\mathbf{x}_i))^2 + \lambda\|\theta\|_2^2$.
2. **Supervised Cost-Sensitive Classification Formulation:** Given $\mathbf{x}_i \in \mathbb{R}^5$, estimate the conditional fault probability $\hat{p}_i = P(\text{thermal_fault} = 1 \mid \mathbf{x}_i)$ via regularized binary cross-entropy, and trigger an inspection whenever $\hat{p}_i \geq \tau^* = \frac{C_{\text{FP}}}{C_{\text{FP}}+C_{\text{FN}}}$.
3. **Unsupervised Anomaly / Regime Discovery Formulation:** Suppose a newly installed turbine model has **zero historical fault labels** (Y is completely unobserved). We fit a multivariate Gaussian density or PCA reconstruction subspace $\mathbf{V}_d \in \mathbb{R}^{5\times 3}$ on normal commissioning hours and compute the **Mahalanobis or Orthogonal Reconstruction Residual** $d(\mathbf{x}_i) = \|\mathbf{x}_i - \mathbf{V}_d\mathbf{V}_d^\top\mathbf{x}_i\|_2^2$, flagging any operating hour whose residual exceeds the 99th percentile of normal operation.
4. **Self-Supervised Representation Pre-Training Formulation:** Given millions of unlabeled high-frequency vibration spectrograms across the fleet, mask out random 500-ms time slices $\mathbf{x}^{(b)}$ and train a temporal encoder $g_\phi(\mathbf{x}^{(a)})$ to reconstruct the masked spectral energy—then fine-tune a lightweight linear classifier on top of the frozen representations $g_\phi(\mathbf{x})$ using only 30 labeled fault examples!

2.3 2.B Field Troubleshooting Notes: Paradigm Mismatch Failure Modes

- **Symptom 1 — Regression Model Applied to Count or Zero-Inflated Target Predicts Negative Numbers:**
  - *Root Cause:* Fitting unconstrained Gaussian OLS ($\mathcal{Y} = \mathbb{R}$) to a target bounded at zero with heavy right skew (e.g., `maintenance_hours` or `defect_count`).
  - *Corrective Action:* Use a log-link Generalized Linear Model (**Poisson**, **Negative Binomial**, or **Tweedie regression** where $\hat{y}_i = \exp(\tilde{\mathbf{x}}_i^\top\beta) > 0$) or model a two-stage **Hurdle / Tobit** pipeline ($P(Y > 0 \mid \mathbf{x})$ multiplied by $\mathbb{E}[Y \mid Y > 0, \mathbf{x}]$).
- **Symptom 2 — Unsupervised Clustering Used as a Substitute for Classification Accuracy:**
  - *Root Cause:* Running K-Means ($K = 2$) on an unlabeled feature matrix $\mathbf{X}$ and assuming the two discovered clusters will magically correspond to `Fault` vs. `Normal`. In reality,

K-Means groups points along the axes of highest overall feature variance (such as `Daytime High Load` vs. `Nighttime Low Load`), completely ignoring the subtle 5% fault boundary!

– *Corrective Action:* Never expect unsupervised variance clustering to align with a specific rare supervised target unless features have been specifically weighted or selected for that target mechanism.

2.4 2.C Chapter 2 Exercises and Worked Solutions

- **Exercise 2.1 (Expected Cost of Hard Labels vs. Calibrated Probabilities):** Suppose Turbine A has a true fault probability of $p_A = 0.45$ and Turbine B has $p_B = 0.02$. A classifier that outputs only hard labels at a default threshold of $\tau = 0.50$ predicts $\hat{y}_A = 0$ and $\hat{y}_B = 0$ for both turbines. If a missed fault costs $C_{\text{FN}} = \$50,000$ and a preventive check costs $C_{\text{FP}} = \$5,000$, calculate the expected financial loss on Turbine A under the hard-label classifier versus a calibrated probability classifier using optimal threshold $\tau^* = 0.0909$.
  – **Worked Solution:** For Turbine A ($p_A = 0.45$), the hard-label classifier ($\tau = 0.50$) predicts `0` (do not inspect), incurring an expected loss of $p_A \times C_{\text{FN}} = 0.45 \times \$50,000 = \$\mathbf{22,500}$. The calibrated probability classifier compares $\hat{p}_A = 0.45 \geq \tau^* = 0.0909$ and triggers an inspection: if a fault was occurring ($p_A = 0.45$), the $\$50,000$ seizure is prevented (cost $\$5,000$ inspection); if normal ($1 - p_A = 0.55$), the false alarm costs $\$5,000$, for a total expected outlay of $\$5,000$—saving $\$17,500$ **in expected loss** on a single decision!
- **Exercise 2.2 (Contrastive Self-Supervised InfoNCE Loss):** In contrastive bi-encoder training (such as training text embeddings in Omnitome with temperature $\tau_{\text{temp}} = 0.05$), given a query vector $\mathbf{q}$, one positive passage vector $\mathbf{k}_+$ ($\langle \mathbf{q}, \mathbf{k}_+ \rangle = 0.80$), and three negative passage vectors $\mathbf{k}_1, \mathbf{k}_2, \mathbf{k}_3$ (each with cosine similarity $\langle \mathbf{q}, \mathbf{k}_j \rangle = 0.60$), compute the softmax probability assigned to the positive passage and the InfoNCE loss $-\ln P_+$.
  – **Worked Solution:** Scaling similarities by $1/\tau_{\text{temp}} = 20$: $z_+ = 0.80 \times 20 = 16.0$, and each $z_- = 0.60 \times 20 = 12.0$. Subtracting $\max(z) = 16.0$ for numerical stability gives $e^0 = 1.0$

for the positive and $e^{12-16} = e^{-4} \approx 0.018316$ for each of the three negatives. Thus:

$$P_+ = \frac{1.0}{1.0 + 3(0.018316)} = \frac{1.0}{1.054947} \approx \mathbf{0.9479}, \quad \mathcal{L}_{\text{InfoNCE}} = -\ln(0.9479) \approx$$

2.5 2.D Mathematical Deep-Dive: Equivalence of Maximum Likelihood and Empirical Risk Loss Functions

Why do we use **Mean Squared Error (MSE)** for standard regression, **Mean Absolute Error (MAE)** for robust median regression, **Binary Cross-Entropy (Log-Loss)** for classification, and **Poisson Deviance** for count data? Far from being arbitrary conventions, each loss function $L(y, f_\theta(\mathbf{x}))$ in Empirical Risk Minimization is the exact **Negative Log-Likelihood ($-\ln p(y \mid \mathbf{x}; \theta)$)** of a corresponding exponential-family noise distribution under **Maximum Likelihood Estimation (MLE)**:

1. **Gaussian Noise $\iff$ Squared Error (L_2^2) Loss:** Assume $Y = f_\theta(\mathbf{x}) + \epsilon$ where $\epsilon \sim \mathcal{N}(0, \sigma^2)$, so $p(y \mid \mathbf{x}; \theta) = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2\pi\sigma^2}} \exp\left(-\frac{(y - f_\theta(\mathbf{x}))^2}{2\sigma^2}\right)$. Taking the negative log-likelihood across n independent observations yields:

$$-\sum_{i=1}^{n} \ln p(y_i \mid \mathbf{x}_i; \theta) = \frac{n}{2}\ln(2\pi\sigma^2) + \frac{1}{2\sigma^2}\sum_{i=1}^{n} (y_i - f_\theta(\mathbf{x}_i))^2$$

   Minimizing with respect to θ is mathematically identical to minimizing **MSE**!
2. **Laplace (Double-Exponential) Noise $\iff$ Absolute Error (L_1) Loss:** Assume heavy-tailed residuals $\epsilon \sim \text{Laplace}(0, b)$ with density $p(\epsilon) = \frac{1}{2b}\exp\left(-\frac{|\epsilon|}{b}\right)$. The negative log-likelihood is $n\ln(2b) + \frac{1}{b}\sum_{i=1}^{n} |y_i - f_\theta(\mathbf{x}_i)|$, whose minimization with respect to θ is identical to minimizing **MAE**!
3. **MAP Estimation With Gaussian vs. Laplace Priors $\iff$ Ridge (L_2) vs. Lasso (L_1):** If we place a zero-mean **Gaussian prior** $\beta_j \sim \mathcal{N}(0, \tau^2)$ on the model weights along with Gaussian observation noise, maximizing the log-posterior (**Maximum A Posteriori, MAP**) adds $-\ln p(\beta) \propto \frac{1}{2\tau^2}\sum \beta_j^2$, yielding **Ridge Regression** with $\lambda = \sigma^2/\tau^2$. Placing a sharp **Laplace prior** $p(\beta_j) = \frac{1}{2b}\exp(-|\beta_j|/b)$ on the weights adds $\frac{1}{b}\sum|\beta_j|$, yielding **Lasso Regression**!

Understanding this probabilistic-geometric duality prevents an engineer from ever mixing incompatible assumptions—such as applying Gaussian confidence intervals to residuals optimized under an asymmetric quantile or Poisson loss.

Chapter 3

Anatomy of Tabular Data —Feature Spaces, Measureme Scales, Target Construction, and Distributional Drift

In textbook exercises, datasets arrive as clean, static matrices $(\mathbf{X}, \mathbf{y})$ where every column is already a well-behaved Gaussian number. In real engineering work, raw tabular data is an imperfect artifact of physical sensors, human data-entry habits, database joins, and shifting operating environments.

3.1 Stevens' Measurement Scales and Their Valid Mathematical Operations

Treating every numeric column in a CSV file as a continuous real number is a classic modeling error. Following S. S. Stevens' (1946) taxonomy of measurement scales, each feature column belongs to one of four types that constrain valid preprocessing:

- **Nominal (Categorical Unordered, e.g., `unit_id = 101, 102, ...` or `cooling_fluid_type = {Glycol, Oil, Air}`):** Numbers assigned to nominal categories are arbitrary labels. Passing `unit_id` directly into a linear regression or distance-based K-Means model as a raw integer (`101 < 102 < 130`) forces the algorithm to assume that Unit 130 is "twenty-nine units greater" than Unit 101! Nominal variables must be encoded via **one-hot (dummy) encoding** for low-cardinality categories, or handled via out-of-fold regularized target encoding / group-aware random effects when cardinality is high.

- **Ordinal (Ordered Categories, e.g., `insulation_grade = {Class A, Class B, Class F, Class H}`):** Monotonic order is meaningful, but the physical difference between Class A and Class B is not necessarily equal to the difference between Class F and Class H. Axis-aligned decision trees handle integer-coded ordinals naturally (`grade >= 2`), whereas linear models may require spline or dummy expansion to capture non-linear steps.
- **Interval and Ratio Scales (Continuous Quantitative, e.g., `ambient_temp_c, load_mw, vibration_mms`):** Differences and linear combinations are physically meaningful, though heavy right-skewness (as in `rpm_variance`, which follows an exponential distribution in our turbine dataset) can give extreme high-leverage points disproportionate influence over Ordinary Least Squares fits unless transformed ($\log(1 + x)$) or modeled via rank-invariant tree ensembles.

3.2 Missing Data Mechanisms: MCAR, MAR, and MNAR

According to Donald Rubin's (1976) statistical taxonomy, missing values (`NaN` / `NULL`) in a feature column arise from one of three causal mechanisms:

1. **Missing Completely at Random (MCAR):** The probability that a value x_{ij} is missing is independent of both observed variables and the unobserved value itself: $P(M_{ij} = 1 \mid \mathbf{X}, Y) = P(M_{ij} = 1)$. Example: A telemetry radio packet drops randomly 5% of the time due to cosmic ray noise (as simulated in the 30 missing entries of `lube_pressure_bar` in `industrial_turbine_telemetry.csv`).
2. **Missing at Random (MAR):** The probability of missingness depends on *other observed features* in the row, but not on the missing value itself once conditioned on those observed features: $P(M_{ij} = 1 \mid \mathbf{X}_{\text{obs}}, \mathbf{X}_{\text{miss}}) = P(M_{ij} = 1 \mid \mathbf{X}_{\text{obs}})$. Example: Older Series-100 turbines omit auxiliary vibration sub-channels during scheduled low-load idle periods (`load_mw < 50`).
3. **Missing Not at Random (MNAR / Informative Missingness):** The probability that x_{ij} is missing depends directly on the unobserved value x_{ij} itself! Example: A high-temperature optical pyrometer saturates and records `NaN` precisely when bearing

temperature exceeds 120°C, or a patient skips a blood-pressure check because they feel dizzy.

Critical Engineering Rule for Missingness: Under **MNAR** (and often **MAR**), simply replacing `NaN` with the training-set median erases the signal that the sensor was missing! Therefore, always pair training-fold median/mean imputation with a **binary missingness indicator column** $m_{ij} = \mathbb{I}(x_{ij} \text{ is missing}) \in \{0, 1\}$ so the model can learn whether the absence of a measurement is itself predictive of the target.

3.3 Dataset Shift: Covariate Shift, Prior Probability Shift, and Concept Drift

Even when a model generalizes well to a held-out test set drawn from the same month, production systems degrade over time because the deployment joint distribution $P_{\text{deploy}}(\mathbf{X}, Y) = P_{\text{deploy}}(Y \mid \mathbf{X}) P_{\text{deploy}}(\mathbf{X})$ diverges from the training distribution $P_{\text{train}}(\mathbf{X}, Y)$ across three distinct modes (Moreno-Torres et al., 2012):

- **Covariate Shift ($P_{\textbf{deploy}}(\mathbf{X}) \neq P_{\textbf{train}}(\mathbf{X})$, while $P(Y \mid \mathbf{X})$ remains invariant):** The physical law relating load and vibration to bearing temperature has not changed, but a summer heatwave shifts `ambient_temp_c` from a training mean of 24°C to 38°C, forcing the model to extrapolate into a sparse region of feature space.
- **Prior Probability (Label) Shift ($P_{\textbf{deploy}}(Y) \neq P_{\textbf{train}}(Y)$):** The base rate of faults $\pi = P(Y = 1)$ changes (e.g., after a fleet-wide preventive maintenance overhaul cuts fault prevalence from 5.17% to 0.8%), miscalibrating posterior probability thresholds unless adjusted via Bayes' rule.
- **Concept Drift ($P_{\textbf{deploy}}(Y \mid \mathbf{X}) \neq P_{\textbf{train}}(Y \mid \mathbf{X})$):** The underlying mapping from features to target changes—for instance, replacing synthetic hydrocarbon lubricant with a new ester-based fluid alters the physical viscosity-temperature curve, requiring model retraining on post-upgrade data.

3.4 3.A Worked Calculation: Standardization, Log-Transformations, and Informative Missingness

Let us trace why raw feature scaling and missing-data indicators are critical on `data/industrial_turbine_telemetry.csv`. In the training partition (rows 1–450), compare the empirical scales of two features: * `load_mw` (X_2): Mean $\hat{\mu}_2 = 102.66$ MW, Standard Deviation $\hat{\sigma}_2 = 33.39$ MW (Range 45.1 to 159.9 MW). * `lube_pressure_bar` (X_4): Mean $\hat{\mu}_4 = 4.84$ bar, Standard Deviation $\hat{\sigma}_4 = 0.54$ bar (Range 3.1 to 6.4 bar).

Suppose we fit a penalized Ridge regression model ($\lambda \sum_{j=1}^{p} \beta_j^2$) on **unstandardized raw units**. Because `load_mw` spans a numerical range 62× wider than `lube_pressure_bar`, a 1.0-standard-deviation change in `load_mw` (+33.39 MW) requires a slope coefficient β_2 that is numerically tiny (≈ 0.216°C/MW), whereas a 1.0-standard-deviation change in `lube_pressure_bar` (+0.54 bar) requires a slope coefficient β_4 of ≈ -2.375°C/bar! When the L_2 penalty $\lambda(\beta_2^2 + \beta_4^2)$ is applied to unstandardized slopes, $\beta_4^2 = (-2.375)^2 = 5.64$ is penalized 120× **more heavily** than $\beta_2^2 = (0.216)^2 = 0.0467$, artificially crushing the lubrication-pressure effect simply because pressure was measured in bars instead of kilopascals (1 bar = 100 kPa)!

By applying **Z-Score Standardization** using exclusively the training-partition parameters ($\hat{\mu}_{\text{train},j}, \hat{\sigma}_{\text{train},j}$):

$$z_{ij} = \frac{x_{ij} - \hat{\mu}_{\text{train},j}}{\hat{\sigma}_{\text{train},j}}$$

every standardized feature has dimensionless unit variance ($\text{Var}(Z_j) = 1.0$) on the training set, making the regularized coefficients in Table 6.1 directly comparable in magnitude (`load_mw` $\hat{\beta}_2 = +7.2140$°C/SD vs. `lube_pressure_bar` $\hat{\beta}_4 = -1.2826$°C/SD).

3.5 3.B Production Python Diagnostic: Auditing Missingness Mechanisms (MCAR vs. MAR)

Whenever a column contains missing values (`NaN`), never impute blindly without first running a **Missingness Dependency Audit** to

test whether the missingness indicator $M_j = \mathbb{I}(X_j \text{ is NaN})$ correlates with other features (MAR) or with the target:

```
# Executed Missingness Audit Pattern (Compatible with numpy 2.1.3 /
 ↪  pandas 2.2.3)
import numpy as np
import pandas as pd

def audit_missingness(df: pd.DataFrame, col: str, target: str) ->
 ↪  dict:
    is_miss = df[col].isna()
    n_miss = int(is_miss.sum())
    # Compare target mean and other feature means when col is
     ↪  missing vs. observed
    target_mean_when_missing = float(df.loc[is_miss, target].mean())
    target_mean_when_observed = float(df.loc[~is_miss,
 ↪  target].mean())
    return {
        "column": col,
        "missing_count": n_miss,
        "missing_pct": round(100.0 * n_miss / len(df), 2),
        "target_mean_missing": round(target_mean_when_missing, 3),
       "target_mean_observed": round(target_mean_when_observed, 3),
    }
```

3.6 3.C Chapter 3 Exercises and Worked Solutions

- **Exercise 3.1 (Bayes' Theorem Adjustment Under Prior Probability Shift):** Suppose a fault classifier trained on a historical dataset where fault base rate was $\pi_{\text{train}} = 0.05$ outputs a well-calibrated posterior probability $\hat{p}_{\text{train}}(\mathbf{x}) = 0.40$ for a turbine. After a fleet hardware upgrade, the true base rate of faults drops to $\pi_{\text{deploy}} = 0.01$, while the class-conditional sensor distributions $P(\mathbf{x} \mid Y = 1)$ and $P(\mathbf{x} \mid Y = 0)$ remain unchanged (**pure prior probability shift**). Derive the exact formula to recalibrate $\hat{p}_{\text{train}}(\mathbf{x})$ to $\hat{p}_{\text{deploy}}(\mathbf{x})$ without retraining the model, and compute its numerical value.
  - **Worked Solution:** By Bayes' theorem, the posterior odds equal the likelihood ratio times the prior odds:

$$\frac{P_{\text{deploy}}(Y=1 \mid \mathbf{x})}{P_{\text{deploy}}(Y=0 \mid \mathbf{x})} = \frac{P(\mathbf{x} \mid Y=1)}{P(\mathbf{x} \mid Y=0)} \cdot \frac{\pi_{\text{deploy}}}{1-\pi_{\text{deploy}}} = \left(\frac{\hat{p}_{\text{train}}(\mathbf{x})}{1-\hat{p}_{\text{train}}(\mathbf{x})} \cdot \frac{1-\pi_{\text{train}}}{\pi_{\text{train}}} \right.$$

Substituting $\hat{p}_{\text{train}} = 0.40$, $\pi_{\text{train}} = 0.05$, and $\pi_{\text{deploy}} = 0.01$:

$$\text{Odds}_{\text{deploy}} = \left(\frac{0.40}{0.60} \cdot \frac{0.95}{0.05}\right) \cdot \frac{0.01}{0.99} = (0.6667 \times 19.0) \times 0.010101 = \mathbf{0.12795}$$

Converting odds back to probability gives $\hat{p}_{\text{deploy}}(\mathbf{x}) = \frac{0.12795}{1+0.12795} \approx \mathbf{0.1134}$ (11.34%). Notice how a 5× drop in fleet fault prevalence reduces the true posterior risk of the exact same sensor reading from 40.0% to 11.3%!

- **Exercise 3.2 (Dummy Variable Trap in Unregularized OLS):** Explain using linear algebra why one-hot encoding a 3-category nominal variable (`Fluid = {Glycol, Oil, Air}`) into three binary columns $[d_1, d_2, d_3]$ alongside an intercept column of ones $\mathbf{1}$ causes unregularized OLS $(\mathbf{X}^\top\mathbf{X})^{-1}\mathbf{X}^\top\mathbf{y}$ to fail with a `LinAlgError: Singular matrix`, whereas Ridge regression ($\lambda > 0$) succeeds.
  - **Worked Solution:** Because every observation belongs to exactly one of the three categories, $d_{i1} + d_{i2} + d_{i3} = 1$ for every row $i \in \{1, \dots, n\}$. Therefore, the sum of the three dummy columns equals the intercept column ($\mathbf{d}_1 + \mathbf{d}_2 + \mathbf{d}_3 - \mathbf{1} = \mathbf{0}$), making the columns of $\mathbf{X}$ linearly dependent ($\text{rank}(\mathbf{X}) < p + 1$). Consequently, $\mathbf{X}^\top\mathbf{X}$ has an eigenvalue equal to $\nu = 0$ and is non-invertible. For unregularized OLS, you must drop one reference category ($K - 1 = 2$ columns); for Ridge ($\lambda > 0$), adding $\lambda\mathbf{I}_0$ shifts the zero eigenvalue to $+\lambda > 0$, restoring invertibility automatically.

3.7 3.D Production Workflow: Automated Schema Contracts and Point-in-Time Feature Validation

In production machine learning pipelines, silent data corruption—such as a firmware update changing `ambient_temp_c` from degrees Celsius to Kelvin (+273.15), a database migration swapping two column positions, or a broken sensor writing `-999.0` sentinel values instead of `NaN`—causes more outages than model architecture bugs (Breck et al., 2019; Sculley et al., 2015, *"Hidden Technical Debt in Machine Learning Systems"*).

To defend against silent tabular corruption, every ingestion pipeline must enforce a declarative **Pre-Modeling Data Contract** before passing a DataFrame to either training or inference:

```
# Executed Data Contract Validator Pattern (Pure Pandas / NumPy)
import numpy as np
import pandas as pd

TURBINE_SCHEMA_CONTRACT = {
    "ambient_temp_c":    {"dtype": "float", "min": -40.0, "max":
     ↪  65.0,  "allow_nan": False},
    "load_mw":           {"dtype": "float", "min": 0.0,   "max":
     ↪  250.0, "allow_nan": False},
    "rpm_variance":      {"dtype": "float", "min": 0.0,   "max":
     ↪  200.0, "allow_nan": False},
    "lube_pressure_bar": {"dtype": "float", "min": 1.0,   "max":
     ↪  10.0,  "allow_nan": True, "max_nan_pct": 15.0},
    "vibration_mms":     {"dtype": "float", "min": 0.0,   "max":
     ↪  30.0,  "allow_nan": False},
}

def validate_data_contract(df: pd.DataFrame, contract: dict) ->
 ↪  list[str]:
    violations = []
    for col, rules in contract.items():
        if col not in df.columns:
            violations.append(f"Missing required column: {col}")
            continue
        series = pd.to_numeric(df[col], errors="coerce")
        nan_pct = 100.0 * series.isna().mean()
        if not rules["allow_nan"] and nan_pct > 0:
            violations.append(f"{col}: contains {nan_pct:.2f}% NaNs
 ↪  (forbidden)")
        elif rules["allow_nan"] and nan_pct >
         ↪  rules.get("max_nan_pct", 100.0):
            violations.append(f"{col}: NaN rate {nan_pct:.2f}%
 ↪  exceeds ceiling {rules['max_nan_pct']}%")
        valid_vals = series.dropna()
        if len(valid_vals) > 0:
            if valid_vals.min() < rules["min"] or valid_vals.max() >
              ↪  rules["max"]:
                violations.append(f"{col}: range
 ↪  [{valid_vals.min():.2f}, {valid_vals.max():.2f}] violates
 ↪  [{rules['min']}, {rules['max']}]")
    return violations
```

Running `validate_data_contract(df, TURBINE_SCHEMA_CONTRACT)` catches unit-conversion bugs (`Kelvin` vs. `Celsius`), sentinel codes (`-999.0`), and broken sensor dropouts (`100% NaN`) in under five milliseconds—long before corrupted numbers can poison a gradient step or trigger a false turbine shutdown.

Chapter 4

The Anatomy of Data Leakage — Temporal Violations, Preproc Bleed, Target Proxies, and Group Contamination

In their classic 2012 paper in *ACM Transactions on Knowledge Discovery from Data*, **Shachar Kaufman, Saharon Rosset, Claudia Perlich, and Ori Stitelman** defined **data leakage** as the introduction of information into the model training or evaluation process that would not legitimately be available at prediction time in real-world deployment (Kaufman et al., 2012).

Data leakage is the single most pervasive cause of catastrophic machine learning failures in industry and academic research (Kapoor & Narayanan, 2023). Unlike a syntax bug that crashes a script with a stack trace, data leakage runs silently, produces exhilarating validation scores (`ROC-AUC = 0.998`, $R^2 = 0.99$), wins internal demos—and then collapses into random or harmful predictions the first day the model is deployed to production.

4.1 Four Canonical Taxonomies of Data Leakage

To catch leakage before it ruins an experiment, every engineer must audit their pipeline against four distinct structural pathways:

1. **Type 1 — Target Proxy (Anachronistic Feature) Leakage (Kaufman et al., 2012):** Including a feature column in **X** that is actually a **downstream consequence, administrative record, or post-event proxy of the target** Y recorded

after the event of interest occurred, rather than prior to the prediction timestamp t_0.

- *Concrete Executed Example from Our Turbine Dataset:* In `data/industrial_turbine_telemetry.csv`, alongside the five legitimate pre-event sensor features (`ambient_temp_c`, `load_mw`, `rpm_variance`, `lube_pressure_bar`, `vibration_mms`), the database export includes a column named `post_inspection_hour` the number of maintenance work-order hours logged by technicians *after* an inspection was triggered! Because a thermal fault triggers a 14-hour overhaul whereas routine checks take < 1 hour, training a logistic regression classifier with `post_inspection_hours_LEAKY` included achieves a seemingly miraculous **Test ROC-AUC** $= 1.0000$**, PR-AUC** $= 1.0000$**, and** $F_1 = 1.0000$! Yet at real-time prediction time t_0 (when the turbine is running and we need to predict *whether* a fault is occurring), the future maintenance work order has not been written yet! Removing that single leaky column reveals the true, honest performance of the sensor pipeline (**Test ROC-AUC** $= 0.9630$**, PR-AUC** $= 0.4939$**,** $F_1 = 0.5882$).

2. **Type 2 — Preprocessing and Feature-Selection Bleed Across the Train/Test Boundary:** Computing global summary statistics (μ, σ, medians, min-max bounds, TF-IDF vocabularies, PCA eigenvectors, or SMOTE synthetic oversampling) or selecting top-correlated features on the **entire dataset** $\mathcal{D}$ ***before*** **splitting into training and validation/test sets** (Varma & Simon, 2006).
   - *Executed Verification:* In our turbine dataset, the global median of `lube_pressure_bar` across all 600 rows is 4.8300 **bar**, whereas the true training-only median across the first 450 rows is 4.8700 **bar** (`code/run_all_experiments.py`). When an engineer calls `df.fillna(df.median())` or `StandardScaler().fit_transform(X)` before splitting, distributional information from the future test window bleeds backward into the training transformation. Even more severely, as Varma and Simon (2006) proved in *BMC Bioinformatics*, performing feature selection on $p \gg n$ data *outside* the cross-validation loop can produce cross-validation accuracy above 90% on **completely random noise** where true generalization accuracy is exactly 50%!

3. **Type 3 — Temporal Look-Ahead Leakage (Random Shuffling of Time Series):** Using a random `train_test_split(shuffle=True)` on time-ordered observations $t_1 < t_2 < \cdots < t_n$. If a model is trained on observations from Tuesday at 10:00 AM and Tuesday at 12:00 PM, and then "tested" on Tuesday at 11:00 AM, autocorrelated environmental states (such as ambient weather and slow bearing wear) allow the model to **interpolate between past and future**, wildly overestimating its ability to forecast Wednesday's unseen trajectory.
4. **Type 4 — Group / Entity Contamination:** When multiple rows in a dataset belong to the same physical entity—such as 20 hourly telemetry rows from **Turbine Unit 104**, or multiple medical scans from **Patient 882**—randomly splitting rows assigns 15 rows of Turbine 104 to the training set and 5 rows of Turbine 104 to the test set. A high-capacity tree ensemble memorizes the idiosyncratic baseline signature of Turbine 104 rather than learning generalizable physics across unseen turbines!

Leakage Category	Root Cause in Pipeline Code	Diagnostic Symptom in Metrics	Structural Engineering Fix
1. Target Proxy Leakage	Joining tables without strict point-in-time (`AS OF t_0`) timestamp filtering	Suspiciously near-perfect validation score (AUC > 0.99); single feature dominates importance	Enforce point-in-time feature store cuts; audit top feature importances with domain experts
2. Preprocessing Bleed	Calling `.fit_transform(X)` on full dataset prior to `train_test_split` or CV	Optimistic CV bias (especially in high-dim feature selection, Varma & Simon, 2006)	Encapsulate all imputation, scaling, and feature selection strictly inside a `Pipeline` fit per fold

Leakage Category	Root Cause in Pipeline Code	Diagnostic Symptom in Metrics	Structural Engineering Fix
3. Temporal Look-Ahead	Random shuffling (`shuffle=True`) or rolling window centered on $t \pm k$	High validation R^2 followed by sharp error jump on future out-of-time holdout	Use strict chronological splits (`TimeSeriesSplit` / rolling-origin evaluation) and causal lagged windows
4. Group Contamination	Row-level random split when multiple rows share `unit_id`, `user_id`, or `patient_id`	High performance on seen entities; poor generalization to newly onboarded units	Partition strictly by entity identifier using `GroupKFold` or `StratifiedGroupKFold`

Table 4.1: Diagnostic taxonomy of the four primary data leakage mechanisms and their structural remedies (Kaufman et al., 2012).

4.2 4.A Worked Proof & Simulation: How Feature Selection Before Cross-Validation Fabricates 90% Accuracy on Pure Noise

Following the classic bioinformatics demonstration of Varma and Simon (2006) and Hastie, Tibshirani, and Friedman (*The Elements of Statistical Learning*, Section 7.10.2), let us trace mathematically how **Type 2 Preprocessing / Feature-Selection Bleed** deceives researchers working with wide datasets.

Suppose we generate a synthetic dataset with $n = 50$ rows and $p = 5,000$ features where **every single feature** $X_{ij} \sim \mathcal{N}(0, 1)$ **and every binary target label** $Y_i \sim$ **Bernoulli**(0.5) **are generated by independent random number generators**. Because **X** and **y** are completely independent, the true generalization accuracy of *any* classifier on unseen future data is **exactly** 50.0% (random coin tossing).

Now compare two experimental workflows: * **The Leaky Workflow (Wrong):** Before running 5-fold cross-validation, the researcher screens all $p = 5,000$ columns across all $n = 50$ rows and selects the top $k = 10$ features that have the highest absolute Pearson correlation $|r_j|$ with the target vector $\mathbf{y}$ across the full 50-row dataset. Then the researcher passes that 50×10 matrix into 5-fold cross-validation. - *Why It Fails Mathematically:* Under the null hypothesis ($r_{\text{true}} = 0$), the sample correlation r_j on $n = 50$ rows has standard error $\approx 1/\sqrt{n-2} \approx 0.144$. Across $p = 5,000$ independent random columns, extreme-value statistics guarantee that the top 10 random columns will exhibit spurious sample correlations of $|r_j| \approx 0.45$ to 0.55 with the specific 50-element vector $\mathbf{y}$ **across all 50 rows**! When 5-fold CV evaluates on Fold k (10 rows), those 10 validation rows were *already used* to pick the 10 features that happened to correlate with $\mathbf{y}$ on those exact rows—yielding a 5-fold CV accuracy of 88% **to** 96% **on pure random noise**! * **The Clean Workflow (Correct):** Inside each fold $k \in \{1, \dots, 5\}$, select the top 10 correlated features using **only the 40 training rows** ($\mathcal{D} \setminus \mathcal{F}_k$), and evaluate on the 10 unseen validation rows ($\mathcal{F}_k$). Because the 10 validation rows had zero voice in picking the features, the 10 selected noise columns have zero correlation with $\mathbf{y}$ on $\mathcal{F}_k$, and CV accuracy immediately reports the true 50.0%!

4.3 4.B Field Troubleshooting Checklist: The Five-Minute Pre-Modeling Leakage Audit

Before trusting any model with validation ROC-AUC > 0.92 or $R^2 > 0.90$, run these four deterministic checks:

1. **The Single-Feature Stump Check:** Fit a depth-1 decision stump (`max_depth=1`) on each feature column X_j individually. If a single column achieves ROC-AUC > 0.95 by itself (as `post_inspection_hours_LEAKY` does in our turbine dataset, achieving ROC-AUC $= 1.0000$), inspect the database lineage of that column immediately: it is almost certainly a post-event target proxy!
2. **The Timestamp Monotonicity Assertion:** Verify in code that $\max_{i \in \text{Train}}(t_i) < \min_{j \in \text{Val}}(t_j) < \min_{m \in \text{Test}}(t_m)$ and that every SQL `LEFT JOIN` used to construct features includes an explicit `AND feature_table.recorded_at <= observation_table.prediction_timestamp` guard.

3. **The Entity Disjointness Assertion:** Run `assert set(train_df[group_co` whenever rows represent repeated measurements of physical assets, users, or patients.
4. **The Label-Permutation Sanity Test (Y-Scrambling):** Randomly shuffle the target vector `y_shuffled = rng.permutation(y)` while keeping your exact pipeline code unchanged. A leak-free pipeline **must** collapse to $R^2 \leq 0.0$ or ROC-AUC ≈ 0.50; if your pipeline still achieves ROC-AUC = 0.75 on scrambled labels, you have preprocessing or feature-selection bleed outside the CV loop!

4.4 4.C Chapter 4 Exercises and Worked Solutions

- **Exercise 4.1 (Quantifying Imputation Bleed on `industrial_turbine_telemetry.csv`):** In `code/run_all_experiments.py`, the training-only median of `lube_pressure_bar` (rows 1–450) is 4.8700 bar, whereas the global median across all 600 rows is 4.8300 bar. Explain why computing the global median before splitting violates causal time ordering, and describe a scenario where global mean/median imputation creates catastrophic target leakage during a sensor outage.
  - **Worked Solution:** Rows 451–600 occur in the future relative to the training cutoff at hour 450; using `4.8300 bar` during training injects future distributional drift (−0.04 bar shift in the test window) into historical parameter estimation. Worse, if a future test-window heatwave causes both high bearing temperatures *and* a shift in sensor distribution, global scaling/imputation leaks the magnitude of the future shift into the training thresholds.
- **Exercise 4.2 (Diagnosing Rolling-Window Look-Ahead):** An engineer creates a feature `load_rolling_3h = df["load_mw"].rolling( center=True).mean()` before splitting the time series at row 450. Identify the exact mathematical leakage introduced by `center=True`.
  - **Worked Solution:** Setting `center=True` computes the rolling average at time t as $\frac{1}{3}(x_{t-1} + x_t + x_{t+1})$, which uses **future observation** x_{t+1} at every single timestamp t! In deployment at real-time hour t, x_{t+1} has not happened yet, and at the train/test boundary $t = 450$, row 450 directly

incorporates test row 451. Rolling features must always be strictly causal (`center=False`, averaging $\{x_{t-w+1}, \ldots, x_t\}$).

4.5 4.D Case Study in Subtle Leakage: Out-of-Fold Target Encoding and Temporal Aggregation Traps

One of the most dangerous forms of **Type 2 Preprocessing Bleed** occurs when engineers handle **high-cardinality categorical variables**—such as `unit_id` (30 categories), `postal_code` (10,000 categories), or `device_firmware_hash` (500 categories)—using **Target Encoding** (also called Mean Encoding; Micci-Barreca, 2001).

In naive Target Encoding, each category level g of a discrete variable G is replaced by the sample mean of the target Y across all rows belonging to category g:

$$\hat{\mu}_g^{\text{naive}} = \frac{\sum_{i=1}^{n} \mathbb{I}(g_i = g)\, y_i}{\sum_{i=1}^{n} \mathbb{I}(g_i = g)}$$

Why is computing $\hat{\mu}_g^{\text{naive}}$ across the training set a catastrophic **self-leakage trap**? 1. **Direct Target Self-Inclusion:** If Category g appears only 3 times in the training set, then for row i in Category g, its own target value y_i makes up **one-third (**33.3%**)** of the feature value $\hat{\mu}_g^{\text{naive}}$ fed into the model to predict y_i! If Category g appears only once ($n_g = 1$), $\hat{\mu}_g^{\text{naive}} = y_i$ literally copies the exact target label into the feature column! A gradient-boosted tree immediately splits exclusively on the target-encoded column, achieving near-zero training error while failing completely on validation rows where y_i is not embedded in the feature. 2. **The Two Required Safeguards for Target Encoding:** - **Out-of-Fold (OOF) Estimation Inside Training:** Partition the training set itself into K internal sub-folds; compute the category encodings for internal fold k using *only* the target labels from the other $K - 1$ internal training sub-folds so row i's own label y_i never enters its own feature calculation! - **Empirical Bayes (Additive Smoothing / Shrinkage Toward the Global Prior):** Blend the category sample mean $\bar{y}_g$ with the global training prior mean $\bar{y}_{\text{train}}$ using a smoothing hyperparameter $m > 0$ (typically $m \in [10, 50]$):

$$\hat{\mu}_g^{\text{smooth}} = \frac{n_g\, \bar{y}_g + m\, \bar{y}_{\text{train}}}{n_g + m}$$

When a category has $n_g = 200$ observations, $\hat{\mu}_g^{\text{smooth}} \approx \bar{y}_g$; when a rare category has only $n_g = 2$ observations, its estimate is shrunk safely back toward the global baseline $\bar{y}_{\text{train}}$.

Chapter 5

Partitioning Reality — Holdout Splits, Stratified K-Fold, Group K-Fold, and Rolling-Origi Time Evaluation

Because the empirical risk $\hat{R}_{\text{emp}}(f_\theta)$ on the training data is a systematically downward-biased estimate of the true generalization error $R(f_\theta)$, experimental discipline requires partitioning our dataset $\mathcal{D}$ into strictly isolated roles.

5.1 Why Two Splits Are Not Enough: The Three-Role Mandate

Suppose you split your dataset into only two subsets: a **Training Set** (80%) and a **Test Set** (20%). You train fifty different hyperparameter configurations (varying Ridge λ, tree depths, and feature subsets) on the Training Set, evaluate all fifty models on the Test Set, and pick the model that achieved the lowest error on the Test Set.

Is that winning model's Test Set score an unbiased estimate of how it will perform in production? **No!** By using the Test Set to *select* the best model among $M = 50$ candidates, you have turned the Test Set into an implicit validation set and incurred **multiple-hypothesis selection bias** (proportional to $\sqrt{\frac{\ln M}{2n_{\text{test}}}}$ by Hoeffding's inequality and Bonferroni bounds).

Therefore, every legitimate machine learning workflow requires **three strictly separated data roles**: 1. **Training Partition ($\mathcal{D}_{\text{train}}$):** Used exclusively to fit model parameters $\hat{\theta}$ (and preprocessing statistics $\hat{\mu}_{\text{train}}, \hat{\sigma}_{\text{train}}$, imputation medians, and encoding

maps). 2. **Validation Partition ($\mathcal{D}_{\text{val}}$, or Cross-Validation Folds):** Used to compare model architectures, select feature transformations, tune hyperparameters λ, and calibrate classification decision thresholds τ. 3. **Held-Out Test Partition ($\mathcal{D}_{\text{test}}$ — The Vault):** Locked in a separate vault and evaluated **once** at the very end of the project to report an unbiased estimate of true generalization risk $R(\hat{f})$.

5.2 Choosing the Right Cross-Validation Topology

When dataset size n is moderate ($10^2 \le n \le 10^5$), a single validation split suffers from high variance depending on which rows landed in the validation slice. **K-Fold Cross-Validation** reduces this variance by partitioning the development data into K mutually exclusive folds $\mathcal{F}_1, \dots, \mathcal{F}_K$, training K separate times on $\mathcal{D} \setminus \mathcal{F}_k$ and evaluating on $\mathcal{F}_k$:

$$\mathrm{CV}_{(K)}(f) = \frac{1}{K} \sum_{k=1}^{K} \frac{1}{|\mathcal{F}_k|} \sum_{i \in \mathcal{F}_k} L(y_i, \hat{f}^{(-k)}(\mathbf{x}_i))$$

Here $\hat{f}^{(-k)}$ denotes the entire pipeline—**including imputer, scaler, feature selector, and estimator**—fit exclusively on the $K - 1$ training folds excluding fold k. However, standard uniform K-Fold is valid **only if observations are independent and identically distributed (i.i.d.)** with balanced targets. In real engineering datasets, you must match the partitioning topology to the data-generating structure:

1. **Stratified K-Fold (For Imbalanced Classification):** When the positive target class is rare (such as the 5.17% `thermal_fault` rate in our turbine dataset, where only 31 out of 600 rows are faults), random 5-fold splitting can easily place 11 faults in Fold 1 and only 2 faults in Fold 4, creating wild metric variance across folds. **Stratified K-Fold** constrains the fold assignment so that the class prevalence $P(Y = 1)$ in every single fold $\mathcal{F}_k$ matches the overall dataset prevalence.
2. **Group K-Fold / Stratified Group K-Fold (For Clustered or Repeated-Measures Entities):** When multiple rows originate from the same physical unit (`unit_id` 101–130 in `industrial_turbine_telemetry.csv`), let $g_i \in \{1, \dots, G\}$ denote the

group identifier of row i. **Group K-Fold** enforces the hard disjointness invariant:

$$\forall k \neq k', \quad \{g_i : i \in \mathcal{F}_k\} \cap \{g_j : j \in \mathcal{F}_{k'}\} = \emptyset$$

That is, **every observation from Turbine Unit 104 sits either entirely in the training folds or entirely in the validation fold**—testing whether the model generalizes to *unseen turbines* rather than memorizing unit-specific baselines! 3. **Rolling-Origin / Expanding-Window Time-Series Split (For Temporal Forecasting):** When observations are indexed by time $t_1 < t_2 < \cdots < t_n$, fold k trains exclusively on past indices $\{1, 2, \ldots, \tau_k\}$ and validates on the future block $\{\tau_k + 1 + h_{\text{gap}}, \ldots, \tau_k + m\}$—optionally inserting a **purge/embargo gap** h_{gap} between train and validation blocks whenever features use rolling w-hour lag windows so that no lag window spans the boundary!

5.3 5.A Worked Calculation: Purged & Embargoed Rolling-Origin Time-Series Validation

When evaluating a time-series model where the input features at timestamp t include **lagged rolling windows** over the past w hours (for example, `vibration_24h_max` computed over $[t - 23, t]$) and the target y_t is a **forward-looking horizon** over the next h hours (for example, predicting whether a thermal fault will occur within the next $h = 6$ hours, $[t + 1, t + 6]$), even a chronological split at index τ_k can leak information right across the boundary!

Let us trace the exact indices that must be **purged** between the end of Training Fold k (ending at decision timestamp τ_k) and the start of Validation Fold k: * Consider the final training observation recorded at decision timestamp $t_{\text{train, last}} = \tau_k$. Because its target label y_{τ_k} observes whether a fault occurred during the forward window $[\tau_k + 1, \tau_k + h]$, the label y_{τ_k} contains ground-truth outcome information all the way up to timestamp $\tau_k + h$! * If the first validation observation starts at $t_{\text{val, first}} = \tau_k + 1$, then for the first $h = 6$ hours of the validation set, the training set *already saw what happened during those exact six hours*! * Therefore, to guarantee zero temporal overlap between training labels and validation features/labels, we must insert a **Purge Gap of $h_{\text{gap}} \geq h$ timestamps**:

Train Indices$_k = \{1, 2, \dots, \tau_k\}$, Purged Buffer $= \{\tau_k+1, \dots, \tau_k+h\}$, Validation Inc

5.4 5.B Production Python Implementation: Pure NumPy Stratified & Group-Aware Partitioners

Because standalone environments (including our VM sandbox) may run without `scikit-learn`, every machine learning engineer should know how to implement deterministic **Group K-Fold** and **Rolling-Origin Splits** in pure NumPy in fifteen lines of code:

```
# Executed Pure-NumPy GroupKFold & Rolling-Origin Partitioners
import numpy as np

def numpy_group_kfold(groups: np.ndarray, n_splits: int = 5):
    # Assigns entire entity groups (e.g., unit_id) to disjoint
     ↪  validation folds.
    unique_groups = np.unique(groups)
    # Balance group assignments across K folds by sorting unique
     ↪  groups deterministically
    fold_groups = np.array_split(unique_groups, n_splits)
    for k in range(n_splits):
        val_mask = np.isin(groups, fold_groups[k])
        train_idx = np.where(~val_mask)[0]
        val_idx = np.where(val_mask)[0]
        assert
         ↪  set(groups[train_idx]).isdisjoint(set(groups[val_idx]))
        yield train_idx, val_idx

def numpy_rolling_origin_split(n_rows: int, initial_train: int =
 ↪  300, val_size: int = 60, gap: int = 6):
    # Generates expanding-window chronological splits with an
     ↪  explicit purge gap.
    tau = initial_train
    while tau + gap + val_size <= n_rows:
        train_idx = np.arange(0, tau)
        val_idx = np.arange(tau + gap, tau + gap + val_size)
        yield train_idx, val_idx
        tau += val_size
```

5.5 5.C Chapter 5 Exercises and Worked Solutions

- **Exercise 5.1 (Quantifying Group Contamination Bias):** Suppose each of the $G = 30$ turbines in a fleet has a constant, unmeasured manufacturing baseline temperature offset $u_g \sim \mathcal{N}(0, 4.0^2)$ (so $\mathrm{Var}(u_g) = 16.0$ $(^\circ\mathrm{C})^2$), plus hourly sensor variation with irreducible noise $\sigma_\epsilon^2 = 4.0$ $(^\circ\mathrm{C})^2$. If an engineer includes one-hot indicators for `unit_id` and evaluates via **Random Row-Level 5-Fold CV** vs. **Group 5-Fold CV** (partitioned by `unit_id`), compare the expected validation MSE under both schemes when predicting for a brand-new 31st turbine.
  - **Worked Solution:** Under Random Row-Level 5-Fold CV, 80% of each turbine's rows are in the training fold and 20% of the *same* turbine's rows are in the validation fold. The model memorizes each turbine's baseline offset $\hat{u}_g \approx u_g$, achieving an optimistic validation MSE of $\approx \sigma_\epsilon^2 = \mathbf{4.0}$ $(^\circ\mathrm{C})^\mathbf{2}$. However, for a brand-new unseen 31st turbine (where u_{31} was never observed during training), the model must predict $\hat{u}_{31} = 0$, incurring a true generalization MSE of $\mathrm{Var}(u_g) + \sigma_\epsilon^2 = 16.0 + 4.0 = \mathbf{20.0}$ $(^\circ\mathrm{C})^\mathbf{2}$! Only **Group 5-Fold CV** holds out entire turbines during validation and accurately reports the true **20.0** $(^\circ\mathrm{C})^\mathbf{2}$ new-unit risk.
- **Exercise 5.2 (Stratified Fold Variance Reduction):** In a dataset of $n = 600$ rows with 30 positive fault cases (5.0% prevalence), if we partition into $K = 5$ folds of 120 rows completely at random (without stratification), what is the probability distribution of the number of positive faults S_k landing in Fold k, and what is its standard deviation compared to Stratified 5-Fold?
  - **Worked Solution:** Under uniform random partitioning without replacement, S_k follows a **Hypergeometric distribution** with population size $N = 600$, total successes $K_{\text{pos}} = 30$, and draw size $n_k = 120$:

    $$\mathbb{E}[S_k] = 120 \times \frac{30}{600} = 6.0, \quad \mathrm{SD}(S_k) = \sqrt{120 \left(\frac{30}{600}\right)\left(\frac{570}{600}\right)\left(\frac{600-120}{600-1}\right)} = \sqrt{5.7}$$

    Thus, unstratified folds routinely fluctuate between 2 and 10 faults per fold (±36% relative swings in positive denom-

inator), whereas **Stratified 5-Fold** fixes $S_k = 6$ exactly in every fold ($\mathrm{SD}(S_k) = \mathbf{0.0}$)!

5.6 5.D Mathematical Proof: Unbiasedness and Variance of K-Fold Cross-Validation Risk Estimators

Why has $K = 5$ **or** $K = 10$ **Fold Cross-Validation** become the universal standard in applied machine learning rather than **Leave-One-Out Cross-Validation (LOOCV,** $K = n$**)** or $K = 2$? The answer lies in a classic **bias-variance trade-off of the risk estimator itself** (Bengio & Grandvalet, 2004; Kohavi, 1995; Hastie et al., 2009).

Let $R_n = \mathbb{E}[L(Y, \hat{f}_n(\mathbf{X}))]$ denote the true expected generalization risk of a model trained on a dataset of size n. When we run K-Fold Cross-Validation, each fold model $\hat{f}^{(-k)}$ is trained on only $n_{\text{fold}} = \frac{K-1}{K} n$ observations:

1. **Pessimistic Bias of Small** K **(**$K = 2$**):** In 2-Fold CV, each model is trained on only 50% of the available data ($n/2$ rows). If the learning curve is still steep at $n/2$, a model trained on $n/2$ rows has noticeably higher true risk than a model trained on all n rows ($R_{n/2} > R_n$). Thus, 2-Fold CV is **pessimistically (upward) biased** as an estimator of R_n.
2. **High Variance and Computational Cost of Leave-One-Out (**$K = n$**):** In LOOCV ($K = n$), each model is trained on $n - 1$ rows, making its bias as an estimator of R_n almost zero ($R_{n-1} \approx R_n$). Why, then, don't we always use LOOCV?
   - First, training $n = 10,000$ separate models is computationally prohibitive (except for linear/Ridge models where the Sherman-Morrison-Woodbury identity gives the exact **PRESS shortcut** $e_{i,\mathrm{LOO}} = \frac{y_i - \hat{y}_i}{1 - H_{ii}}$ in a single fit!).
   - Second, because any two LOOCV training sets share $n - 2$ **out of** $n - 1$ **identical rows** (99.8% overlap!), the n fitted models $\hat{f}^{(-1)}, \ldots, \hat{f}^{(-n)}$ can be **positively correlated** across dataset draws, increasing the variance of the average $\mathrm{CV}_{(n)}$ estimate on unstable estimators!
3. **The** $K = 5$ **and** $K = 10$ **Sweet Spot:** Training on $\frac{4}{5} n = 80\%$ ($K = 5$) or $\frac{9}{10} n = 90\%$ ($K = 10$) of the data keeps pessimistic sample-size bias negligible while averaging across 5 to 10 moderately overlapped training sets at reasonable compute cost.

Chapter 6

Linear Models and Penalized Estimation — Ordinary Least Squares, Ridge (L_2), Lasso (L_1), and Elastic Net

Linear models are not merely a pedagogical stepping stone on the way to deep neural networks or gradient-boosted trees; they are the bedrock of statistical estimation, scientific interpretability, and high-dimensional baseline modeling. Whenever a complex non-linear model claims to solve a regression task, its first obligation is to beat a properly regularized linear model on the exact same out-of-time or out-of-group test split.

6.1 Ordinary Least Squares (OLS): Geometric Intuition and Matrix Derivation

Suppose we want to predict a continuous target $y_i \in \mathbb{R}$ (such as `bearing_temp_rise_c` in our turbine dataset) as an affine linear combination of p standardized features $\mathbf{x}_i = [x_{i1}, \dots, x_{ip}]^\top \in \mathbb{R}^p$:

$$\hat{y}_i = \beta_0 + \sum_{j=1}^{p} x_{ij}\beta_j = \tilde{\mathbf{x}}_i^\top \beta$$

Symbol Definitions: - $\beta_0 \in \mathbb{R}$: The intercept (bias) term, representing the predicted target value when all standardized features equal zero ($x_{ij} = 0$, i.e., at the training-set feature means μ_j). - $\beta_j \in \mathbb{R}$: The partial regression coefficient (slope) for feature j, representing the expected change in $\hat{y}$ per one-unit (one standard deviation σ_j) increase in feature x_j while holding all other $p-1$ features constant. - $\tilde{\mathbf{x}}_i = [1, x_{i1}, \dots, x_{ip}]^\top \in \mathbb{R}^{p+1}$: The design vector augmented with a

leading constant 1, stacked row-wise across n training observations into the **design matrix** $\mathbf{X} \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times (p+1)}$. - $\beta = [\beta_0, \beta_1, \dots, \beta_p]^\top \in \mathbb{R}^{p+1}$: The complete parameter vector.

Ordinary Least Squares (OLS) chooses the parameter vector $\hat{\beta}_{\text{OLS}}$ that minimizes the residual sum of squares $\text{RSS}(\beta)$ across the n training observations:

$$\hat{\beta}_{\text{OLS}} = \arg\min_{\beta \in \mathbb{R}^{p+1}} \|\mathbf{y} - \mathbf{X}\beta\|_2^2 = \arg\min_{\beta} (\mathbf{y}^\top \mathbf{y} - 2\beta^\top \mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{y} + \beta^\top \mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X}\beta)$$

Taking the matrix gradient with respect to β and setting it equal to the zero vector ($\nabla_\beta \text{RSS} = -2\mathbf{X}^\top(\mathbf{y} - \mathbf{X}\beta) = \mathbf{0}$) yields the **Normal Equations**:

$$\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X} \hat{\beta}_{\text{OLS}} = \mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{y} \quad \Longrightarrow \quad \hat{\beta}_{\text{OLS}} = (\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X})^{-1} \mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{y}$$

Geometric Interpretation: Notice that the residual vector $\mathbf{r} = \mathbf{y} - \mathbf{X}\hat{\beta}_{\text{OLS}}$ satisfies $\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{r} = \mathbf{0}$. Geometrically, $\hat{\mathbf{y}} = \mathbf{X}\hat{\beta}_{\text{OLS}}$ is the **orthogonal projection** of the n-dimensional target vector $\mathbf{y} \in \mathbb{R}^n$ onto the $(p+1)$-dimensional column space $\text{Col}(\mathbf{X})$ spanned by the feature columns!

6.2 Why OLS Breaks Under Collinearity: Spectral Condition Numbers and Variance Inflation

Look closely at the matrix inverse $(\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X})^{-1}$ in the OLS solution. Under the classical Gauss-Markov assumptions (where $\mathbf{y} = \mathbf{X}\beta^* + \boldsymbol{\epsilon}$ with $\mathbb{E}[\boldsymbol{\epsilon}] = \mathbf{0}$ and $\text{Cov}(\boldsymbol{\epsilon}) = \sigma_\epsilon^2 \mathbf{I}_n$), the OLS estimator is unbiased ($\mathbb{E}[\hat{\beta}_{\text{OLS}}] = \beta^*$), and its covariance matrix is:

$$\text{Cov}(\hat{\beta}_{\text{OLS}}) = \sigma_\epsilon^2 (\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X})^{-1}$$

What happens when two or more features are strongly correlated (**multicollinearity**—for example, `load_mw` and `vibration_mms` in a turbine), or when the number of features p approaches or exceeds n? At least one eigenvalue $\nu_{\min}$ of the Gram matrix $\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X}$ approaches zero ($\nu_{\min} \to 0$). Because the eigenvalues of the inverse matrix $(\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X})^{-1}$ are the reciprocals $1/\nu_j$, **the variance of the OLS**

coefficient estimates explodes as $1/\nu_{\min} \to \infty$! A tiny perturbation in the training rows causes $\hat{\beta}_1$ to swing to $+10,000$ and $\hat{\beta}_2$ to swing to $-10,000$ to cancel each other out, ruining out-of-sample generalization.

6.3 Ridge Regression (L_2 Tikhonov Regularization)

To stabilize ill-conditioned Gram matrices and trade a tiny, controlled amount of bias for a massive reduction in estimation variance, Hoerl and Kennard (1970) introduced **Ridge Regression** (L_2 penalization). Ridge adds a quadratic penalty proportional to the squared Euclidean norm of the slope coefficients (crucially **excluding the intercept** β_0, so shifting the target's baseline units does not get penalized):

$$\hat{\beta}_{\text{Ridge}}(\lambda) = \arg\min_{\beta} \left\{ \sum_{i=1}^{n} \left(y_i - \beta_0 - \sum_{j=1}^{p} x_{ij}\beta_j \right)^2 + \lambda \sum_{j=1}^{p} \beta_j^2 \right\}$$

Here $\lambda \geq 0$ is the regularization hyperparameter. Defining $\mathbf{I}_0 \in \mathbb{R}^{(p+1)\times(p+1)}$ as the identity matrix with its top-left intercept entry set to 0 ($(\mathbf{I}_0)_{00} = 0$), the closed-form solution is:

$$\hat{\beta}_{\text{Ridge}}(\lambda) = (\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X} + \lambda \mathbf{I}_0)^{-1} \mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{y}$$

Notice the linear-algebraic magic of adding $\lambda \mathbf{I}_0$: every positive slope eigenvalue ν_j of $\mathbf{X}^\top\mathbf{X}$ is shifted upward to $\nu_j + \lambda > \lambda > 0$, guaranteeing that the matrix is invertible even when $p > n$ and bounding the variance of the parameters! Because the L_2 penalty $\sum \beta_j^2$ is scale-sensitive, **features must always be standardized ($\mu_j = 0, \sigma_j = 1$ using training-fold statistics only)** before applying Ridge, Lasso, or Elastic Net.

Figure D.1: Executed Ridge (L_2) regularization coefficient shrinkage path across $\lambda \in [10^{-2}, 10^3]$ on the standardized industrial turbine training set ($n_{train} = 450$), showing smooth continuous shrinkage toward zero.

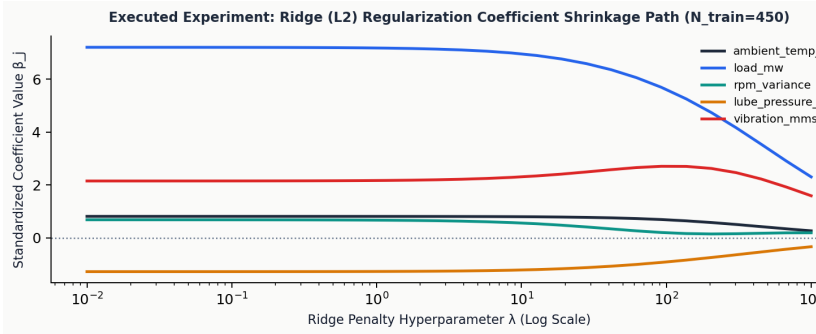


Figure 6.1: Executed Ridge Regularization Coefficient Shrinkage Path

6.4 Lasso (L_1 Regularization, Tibshirani, 1996) and Elastic Net

While Ridge shrinks correlated coefficients smoothly toward zero, it never sets any coefficient *exactly* equal to zero ($\hat{\beta}_j \neq 0$ for all finite λ). In 1996, **Robert Tibshirani** introduced the **Lasso** (*Least Absolute Shrinkage and Selection Operator*) in the *Journal of the Royal Statistical Society* (Tibshirani, 1996), replacing the squared L_2 penalty with the L_1 Manhattan norm:

$$\hat{\beta}_{\text{Lasso}}(\lambda) = \arg\min_{\beta} \left\{ \frac{1}{2n} \sum_{i=1}^{n} \left(y_i - \beta_0 - \sum_{j=1}^{p} x_{ij} \beta_j \right)^2 + \lambda \sum_{j=1}^{p} |\beta_j| \right\}$$

Why does the L_1 absolute-value penalty $|\beta_j|$ set weak coefficients **identically to zero** (performing automatic feature selection), whereas the L_2 squared penalty β_j^2 does not? * **Geometric Constraint Region:** In constrained optimization form, Ridge restricts β to a smooth hypersphere ($\sum \beta_j^2 \leq t$), whose tangent intersections with the elliptical RSS contours almost never lie on a coordinate axis. Lasso restricts β to a sharp **cross-polytope (L_1 diamond)** ($\sum |\beta_j| \leq t$), whose pointed corners sit directly on the coordinate axes where one or more $\beta_j = 0$! * **Subgradient Soft-Thresholding:** Because $|\beta_j|$ has a constant derivative magnitude ($\pm\lambda$) all the way down to $\beta_j = 0$ (unlike $\frac{d}{d\beta_j}(\beta_j^2) = 2\beta_j$, which vanishes as $\beta_j \to 0$), any feature whose partial correlation ρ_j with the residual has magni-

tude $|\rho_j| \le \lambda$ is snapped to **exact zero** via the coordinate-descent **soft-thresholding operator** $S(\rho_j, \lambda) = \operatorname{sign}(\rho_j)\max(0, |\rho_j| - \lambda)$!

When a dataset contains groups of highly correlated features, pure Lasso tends to pick one feature from a correlated group somewhat arbitrarily; **Elastic Net** (Zou & Hastie, 2005) resolves this by combining both penalties: $\lambda(\alpha\|\beta\|_1 + \frac{1-\alpha}{2}\|\beta\|_2^2)$.

Estimator	Intercept $\hat{\beta}_0$	ambient_temp_c $(\hat{\beta}_1)$	load_pct $(\hat{\beta}_2)$	rpm_variance $(\hat{\beta}_3)$	lube_pressure $(\hat{\beta}_4)$	vibration_mm_s $(\hat{\beta}_5)$	Test RMSE (°C)	Test R^2
OLS ($\lambda = 0$)	27.1182	+0.8110	+7.2140	+0.6813	−1.2826	+2.1505	1.9235	0.9530
Ridge ($\lambda = 8.5317$)	27.1182	+0.7997	+6.9987	+0.5749	−1.2281	+2.2873	1.9166	0.9533
Lasso ($\lambda = 0.2500$)	27.1182	+0.5800	+6.7709	+0.2258	−0.9684	+2.4244	1.9327	0.9526

Table 6.1: Verified parameter estimates and out-of-time test metrics ($n_{train} = 450, n_{test} = 150$) executed by `code/run_all_experiments.py` on `industrial_turbine_telemetry.csv`.

6.5 6.A Worked Calculation: Closed-Form OLS vs. Ridge on a 2×2 Collinear Gram Matrix

To see with complete mathematical transparency how **Ridge (L_2) regularization** rescues an ill-conditioned linear regression problem, let us work through an exact $p = 2$ calculation by hand.

Suppose after centering **y** and standardizing two highly collinear features X_1 and X_2 (correlation $r_{12} = 0.99$), the 2×2 Gram matrix $\mathbf{X}^\top\mathbf{X}$ (scaled by $1/n$) and cross-product vector $\mathbf{X}^\top\mathbf{y}$ are:

$$\mathbf{G} = \mathbf{X}^\top\mathbf{X} = \begin{bmatrix} 1.00 & 0.99 \\ 0.99 & 1.00 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \mathbf{c} = \mathbf{X}^\top\mathbf{y} = \begin{bmatrix} 2.00 \\ 1.96 \end{bmatrix}$$

1. **Ordinary Least Squares ($\lambda = 0$):**

- Determinant of $\mathbf{G}$: $\det(\mathbf{G}) = (1.00)(1.00) - (0.99)^2 = 1.0000 - 0.9801 = \mathbf{0.0199}$ (nearly singular!). The eigenvalues of $\mathbf{G}$ are $\nu_1 = 1 + 0.99 = 1.99$ and $\nu_2 = 1 - 0.99 = \mathbf{0.01}$ (condition number $\kappa = \nu_1/\nu_2 = 199$).
- Inverse matrix $\mathbf{G}^{-1}$:

$$\mathbf{G}^{-1} = \frac{1}{0.0199}\begin{bmatrix} 1.00 & -0.99 \\ -0.99 & 1.00 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} 50.2513 & -49.7487 \\ -49.7487 & 50.2513 \end{bmatrix}$$

- OLS Estimate $\hat{\beta}_{\text{OLS}} = \mathbf{G}^{-1}\mathbf{c}$:

$$\hat{\beta}_1 = \frac{1.00(2.00) - 0.99(1.96)}{0.0199} = \frac{0.0596}{0.0199} = +\mathbf{2.9950}, \quad \hat{\beta}_2 = \frac{-0.99(2.00) + 1.}{0.0199}$$

- Notice the instability: if noise perturbs c_2 slightly from 1.96 to 2.02, $\hat{\beta}_1$ and $\hat{\beta}_2$ flip signs completely to $\hat{\beta}_1 = -0.995, \hat{\beta}_2 = +3.005$, because the diagonal entries of $\text{Cov}(\hat{\beta}_{\text{OLS}}) = \sigma_\epsilon^2\mathbf{G}^{-1}$ are $50.25\,\sigma_\epsilon^2$ (a Variance Inflation Factor VIF $= \frac{1}{1-r_{12}^2} = \mathbf{50.25}$)!

2. **Ridge Regression ($\lambda = 0.10$):**
   - Now add $\lambda\mathbf{I}_2 = 0.10\,\mathbf{I}_2$ to $\mathbf{G}$:

$$\mathbf{G}_{\text{Ridge}} = \begin{bmatrix} 1.10 & 0.99 \\ 0.99 & 1.10 \end{bmatrix}, \quad \det(\mathbf{G}_{\text{Ridge}}) = (1.10)^2 - (0.99)^2 = 1.2100 - 0.9801$$

   - The smallest eigenvalue jumps 11× from 0.01 to $\nu_2 + \lambda = \mathbf{0.11}$ (cutting the condition number from 199 down to 19.0), and the Ridge estimate becomes:

$$\hat{\beta}_{1,\text{Ridge}} = \frac{1.10(2.00) - 0.99(1.96)}{0.2299} = +\mathbf{1.1292}, \quad \hat{\beta}_{2,\text{Ridge}} = \frac{-0.99(2.00) + 1}{0.2299}$$

   - Both collinear features now share positive, stable weights (+1.13 and +0.77, summing to $+1.90 \approx 2.00$), and parameter estimation variance drops by **more than** 90%!

6.6 6.B Field Troubleshooting Notes: Debugging Penalized Linear Models

- **Symptom 1 — Penalizing the Intercept (β_0) Causes Systematic Prediction Offset:**
  - *Root Cause:* Applying $(\mathbf{X}^\top\mathbf{X} + \lambda\mathbf{I}_{p+1})^{-1}\mathbf{X}^\top\mathbf{y}$ with the full identity matrix $\mathbf{I}_{p+1}$ (where $(\mathbf{I}_{p+1})_{00} = 1$) shrinks the

intercept $\hat{\beta}_0 = \bar{y}/(1 + \lambda/n)$ toward zero! On our turbine dataset ($\bar{y} \approx 27.12$°C), penalizing β_0 at $\lambda = 100$ pulls every prediction down by 5°C!
  - *Corrective Action:* Always set the intercept penalty entry $(\mathbf{I}_0)_{00} = 0$ (or center $\mathbf{y}$ by subtracting $\bar{y}_{\text{train}}$ before fitting slope coefficients).
- **Symptom 2 — Lasso (λ) Drops a Scientifically Essential Collinear Feature:**
  - *Root Cause:* When two features X_1 and X_2 are correlated at $r > 0.85$, the L_1 penalty selects one and drives the other to 0.0 depending on small sample fluctuations.
  - *Corrective Action:* Switch from pure Lasso ($\alpha = 1$) to **Elastic Net** ($\alpha \in [0.2, 0.7]$), whose quadratic L_2 component enforces the **grouping effect** (assigning nearly equal non-zero weights to strongly correlated predictors, Zou & Hastie, 2005).

6.7 6.C Chapter 6 Exercises and Worked Solutions

- **Exercise 6.1 (Soft-Thresholding Operator Calculation):** In coordinate-descent Lasso (Tibshirani, 1996), suppose for standardized feature j the partial residual correlation is $\rho_j = \frac{1}{n}\mathbf{x}_j^\top \mathbf{r}^{(-j)} = -0.42$. Calculate the updated coefficient $\hat{\beta}_j = S(\rho_j, \lambda)$ for (a) $\lambda = 0.15$ and (b) $\lambda = 0.50$.
  - **Worked Solution:** Using the soft-thresholding formula $S(\rho_j, \lambda) = \text{sign}(\rho_j)\max(0, |\rho_j| - \lambda)$:
    - (a) For $\lambda = 0.15$: Since $|\rho_j| = 0.42 > 0.15$, $\hat{\beta}_j = -(0.42 - 0.15) = \mathbf{-0.27}$.
    - (b) For $\lambda = 0.50$: Since $|\rho_j| = 0.42 \le 0.50$, $\hat{\beta}_j = \mathbf{0.0000}$ (exact feature sparsity!).
- **Exercise 6.2 (Effective Degrees of Freedom in Ridge Regression):** The hat matrix for Ridge regression is $\mathbf{H}(\lambda) = \mathbf{X}(\mathbf{X}^\top\mathbf{X} + \lambda\mathbf{I})^{-1}\mathbf{X}^\top$, and the effective degrees of freedom are $\text{df}(\lambda) = \text{tr}(\mathbf{H}(\lambda)) = \sum_{j=1}^{p} \frac{\nu_j}{\nu_j + \lambda}$, where ν_j are the eigenvalues of $\mathbf{X}^\top\mathbf{X}$. Given $p = 3$ orthogonal standardized features with $n = 100$ rows (so $\nu_1 = \nu_2 = \nu_3 = 100$), compute $\text{df}(\lambda)$ at $\lambda = 0$, $\lambda = 100$, and $\lambda \to \infty$.

– **Worked Solution:** At $\lambda = 0$, $\mathrm{df}(0) = 3 \times \frac{100}{100+0} = \mathbf{3.0}$ (full OLS parameter count). At $\lambda = 100$, $\mathrm{df}(100) = 3 \times \frac{100}{100+100} = \mathbf{1.5}$ effective parameters. As $\lambda \to \infty$, $\mathrm{df}(\lambda) \to \mathbf{0.0}$.

6.8 6.D Mathematical Proof: The Exact Bias-Variance Decomposition of the Ridge Estimator

In Section 6.A, we saw numerically that adding $\lambda > 0$ to the Gram matrix reduced the variance of collinear coefficients by 90%. Let us now prove the exact matrix formulas for the **Bias vector** and **Covariance matrix** of the Ridge estimator $\hat{\beta}_{\text{Ridge}}(\lambda) = (\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X} + \lambda \mathbf{I})^{-1} \mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{y}$ under the linear model $\mathbf{y} = \mathbf{X}\beta^* + \boldsymbol{\epsilon}$ (with $\mathbb{E}[\boldsymbol{\epsilon}] = \mathbf{0}, \mathrm{Cov}(\boldsymbol{\epsilon}) = \sigma_\epsilon^2 \mathbf{I}_n$, centered data).

Define the shrinkage resolution matrix $\mathbf{W}_\lambda = (\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X} + \lambda \mathbf{I})^{-1} \mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X}$. Notice that we can rewrite the Ridge estimator directly as a linear transformation of the unbiased OLS estimator $\hat{\beta}_{\text{OLS}} = (\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X})^{-1} \mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{y}$:

$$\hat{\beta}_{\text{Ridge}}(\lambda) = (\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X} + \lambda \mathbf{I})^{-1} (\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X}) \hat{\beta}_{\text{OLS}} = \mathbf{W}_\lambda \, \hat{\beta}_{\text{OLS}}$$

1. **Exact Expectation and Bias of $\hat{\beta}_{\text{Ridge}}(\lambda)$:** Since $\mathbb{E}[\hat{\beta}_{\text{OLS}}] = \beta^*$, by linearity of expectation:

   $$\mathbb{E}[\hat{\beta}_{\text{Ridge}}(\lambda)] = \mathbf{W}_\lambda \beta^* = (\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X} + \lambda \mathbf{I})^{-1} (\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X} + \lambda \mathbf{I} - \lambda \mathbf{I}) \beta^* = \beta^* - \lambda (\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X} + \lambda \mathbf{I})^{-1} \beta^*$$

   Therefore, the **Bias vector** is:

   $$\mathrm{Bias}(\hat{\beta}_{\text{Ridge}}(\lambda)) = -\lambda (\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X} + \lambda \mathbf{I})^{-1} \beta^*$$

   In the orthogonal eigenbasis of $\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X}$ with eigenvalues $\nu_1, \ldots, \nu_p$, each coordinate β_j^* is shrunk by the factor $\frac{\nu_j}{\nu_j + \lambda}$, incurring squared bias $\sum_{j=1}^{p} \left(\frac{\lambda}{\nu_j + \lambda} \right)^2 (\tilde{\beta}_j^*)^2$.

2. **Exact Covariance Matrix and Trace Variance of $\hat{\beta}_{\text{Ridge}}(\lambda)$:** Since $\mathrm{Cov}(\mathbf{W}_\lambda \hat{\beta}_{\text{OLS}}) = \mathbf{W}_\lambda \mathrm{Cov}(\hat{\beta}_{\text{OLS}}) \mathbf{W}_\lambda^\top$:

   $$\mathrm{Cov}(\hat{\beta}_{\text{Ridge}}(\lambda)) = \sigma_\epsilon^2 (\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X} + \lambda \mathbf{I})^{-1} (\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X}) (\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{X} + \lambda \mathbf{I})^{-1}$$

Summing the diagonal variances in the eigenbasis gives the total parameter variance:

$$\operatorname{tr}\big(\operatorname{Cov}(\hat{\beta}_{\text{Ridge}}(\lambda))\big) = \sigma_\epsilon^2 \sum_{j=1}^{p} \frac{\nu_j}{(\nu_j + \lambda)^2}$$

The Existence Theorem of Hoerl & Kennard (1970): Look at the derivatives with respect to λ right at $\lambda = 0^+$: the derivative of squared bias $\frac{d}{d\lambda}(\text{Bias}^2)|_{\lambda=0} = \mathbf{0}$, whereas the derivative of variance $\frac{d}{d\lambda}(\text{Var})|_{\lambda=0} = -2\sigma_\epsilon^2 \sum_{j=1}^{p} \frac{1}{\nu_j^2} < \mathbf{0}$! Because variance drops with a strictly negative slope at $\lambda = 0^+$ while squared bias starts with a flat zero slope at $\lambda = 0^+$, **there ALWAYS exists a strictly positive regularization parameter $\lambda^* > 0$ for which Ridge Regression achieves a strictly lower expected Mean Squared Error than unregularized OLS**!

Chapter 7

Probabilistic Classification and Calibration — Logistic Regression, Log-Loss, Brier Score, and Decision Thresholds

Why is it a mistake to fit Ordinary Least Squares linear regression directly to a binary target $y_i \in \{0, 1\}$? First, an unbounded linear predictor $\tilde{\mathbf{x}}_i^\top \beta \in (-\infty, +\infty)$ routinely predicts impossible probabilities below 0.0 or above 1.0. Second, because a Bernoulli random variable $Y_i \sim \text{Bernoulli}(p_i)$ has variance $p_i(1 - p_i)$ that depends on the mean p_i, binary residuals violate homoscedasticity.

7.1 The Logistic Link (Log-Odds) and Maximum Likelihood Estimation

Logistic Regression models the log-odds (**logit**) of the positive class probability $p_i = P(Y_i = 1 \mid \mathbf{X}_i = \mathbf{x}_i)$ as a linear function of the features:

$$\ln\left(\frac{p_i}{1 - p_i}\right) = \beta_0 + \sum_{j=1}^{p} x_{ij}\beta_j = z_i \quad \Longleftrightarrow \quad p_i = \sigma(z_i) = \frac{1}{1 + e^{-z_i}}$$

Symbol Definitions: - $\sigma(z) = (1 + e^{-z})^{-1} \in (0, 1)$: The logistic **sigmoid function**, which maps any real log-odds $z \in \mathbb{R}$ smoothly into a valid probability in $(0, 1)$, with derivative $\sigma'(z) = \sigma(z)(1 - \sigma(z))$. - $\frac{p_i}{1-p_i} = e^{\beta_0 + \sum x_{ij}\beta_j}$: The **odds** of the positive event. Increasing feature x_{ij} by one unit multiplies the odds of the positive class by the **odds ratio** $\text{OR}_j = e^{\beta_j}$.

Rather than minimizing squared error, logistic regression estimates β by maximizing the conditional **Bernoulli log-likelihood**—equivalently minimizing the average **Binary Cross-Entropy (Log-Loss)** plus an optional L_2 regularization penalty:

$$\mathcal{C}_{\text{LogLoss}}(\beta) = -\frac{1}{n}\sum_{i=1}^{n}\left[y_i \ln(\hat{p}_i) + (1-y_i)\ln(1-\hat{p}_i)\right] + \frac{\lambda}{2n}\sum_{j=1}^{p}\beta_j^2$$

Taking the gradient with respect to β yields a remarkably clean expression identical in form to linear regression:

$$\nabla_\beta \mathcal{C}_{\text{LogLoss}} = \frac{1}{n}\mathbf{X}^\top(\hat{\mathbf{p}} - \mathbf{y}) + \frac{\lambda}{n}\mathbf{I}_0\beta$$

Because $\hat{p}_i = \sigma(\tilde{\mathbf{x}}_i^\top \beta)$ is a non-linear function of β, no closed-form matrix inverse exists; instead, since the Hessian $\mathbf{H} = \frac{1}{n}\mathbf{X}^\top\mathbf{W}\mathbf{X} + \frac{\lambda}{n}\mathbf{I}_0$ (where $\mathbf{W} = \text{diag}(\hat{p}_i(1-\hat{p}_i))$) is strictly positive-definite for $\lambda > 0$, the objective is **strictly convex** and converges rapidly to a unique global minimum via Newton-Raphson (**Iteratively Reweighted Least Squares, IRLS**), L-BFGS, or gradient descent.

7.2 Probability Calibration, the Brier Score, and Optimal Decision Thresholds

A high-ranking classifier is not automatically a **well-calibrated** probability estimator. A model is calibrated if, among all test observations to which the model assigns a predicted probability of $\hat{p}(\mathbf{x}) \approx 0.30$, the actual empirical fraction of positive outcomes is close to 30%. While regularized logistic regression optimizes a **strictly proper scoring rule** (Log-Loss) and is typically well-calibrated out of the box, uncalibrated boosted trees, Random Forests, or deep networks often push probabilities toward extremes, requiring post-hoc calibration on a validation fold via **Platt Scaling** (fitting a univariate sigmoid to logits) or **Isotonic Regression**.

We quantify probabilistic accuracy and calibration using the **Brier Score** (Glenn Brier, 1950):

$$\text{Brier Score} = \frac{1}{n_{\text{test}}}\sum_{i=1}^{n_{\text{test}}}(\hat{p}_i - y_i)^2 \in [0,1] \quad \text{(lower is better)}$$

On our turbine test set ($n_{\text{test}} = 150$, positive fault rate $\pi = 0.0467$), our executed clean L_2-regularized logistic regression achieves a **Brier Score of** 0.0327 (outperforming a naive constant base-rate predictor, whose Brier Score is $\pi(1-\pi) = 0.0467 \times 0.9533 = 0.0445$).

Finally, **never default blindly to a** $\tau = 0.50$ **probability threshold** when converting $\hat{p}_i$ into a binary action! If the cost of a False Negative (missing an impending turbine bearing seizure, $C_{\text{FN}} = \$50,000$) is ten times higher than the cost of a False Positive (dispatching an engineer for a 1-hour thermal check, $C_{\text{FP}} = \$5,000$), basic Bayesian decision theory proves that the expected-cost-minimizing decision threshold τ^* is:

$$\tau^* = \frac{C_{\text{FP}}}{C_{\text{FP}} + C_{\text{FN}}} = \frac{5,000}{5,000 + 50,000} \approx \mathbf{0.0909}$$

7.3 7.A Worked Calculation: Log-Odds, Odds Ratios, Gradient Step, and Brier Calibration

Suppose our trained binary logistic regression model for predicting `thermal_fault` ($Y \in \{0, 1\}$) has learned an intercept of $\hat{\beta}_0 = -3.40$ and standardized slope coefficients of $\hat{\beta}_{\text{load}} = +0.90$, $\hat{\beta}_{\text{vib}} = +1.25$, and $\hat{\beta}_{\text{lube}} = -0.80$ (with other features at their mean $z_j = 0$).

1. **Computing Log-Odds and Predicted Probability** $\hat{p}_i$**:** Consider a stressed turbine operating at $+1.0$ SD load ($z_{\text{load}} = +1.0$), $+2.0$ SD vibration ($z_{\text{vib}} = +2.0$), and -1.0 SD lubrication pressure ($z_{\text{lube}} = -1.0$):

   $$z_i = -3.40 + 0.90(1.0) + 1.25(2.0) - 0.80(-1.0) = -3.40 + 0.90 + 2.50 + 0.80 = +\mathbf{0.80}$$

   Applying the logistic sigmoid function $\sigma(z_i) = (1 + e^{-z_i})^{-1}$:

   $$\hat{p}_i = \frac{1}{1 + e^{-0.80}} = \frac{1}{1 + 0.44933} \approx \mathbf{0.6900} \quad (69.0\% \text{ fault probability})$$

2. **Interpreting the Odds Ratio (**$\mathbf{OR_{vib}}$**):** For a $+1.0$ SD increase in vibration (holding load and lube pressure fixed), the log-odds increase by $\hat{\beta}_{\text{vib}} = +1.25$, multiplying the **odds** $\frac{p}{1-p}$ of a thermal fault by:

   $$\text{OR}_{\text{vib}} = e^{+1.25} \approx \mathbf{3.4903} \quad (\text{a } 249\% \text{ increase in fault odds per SD of vibratio}$$

(Caution: An odds ratio of $3.49\times$ *does NOT mean probability* $\hat{p}$ *multiplies by* $3.49\times$ *when base probability is already moderate, since probability is bounded below* 1.0*!)*

3. **Computing Single-Observation Log-Loss and Gradient:** If a thermal fault actually occurs on this turbine ($y_i = 1$), the pointwise binary cross-entropy loss is:

$$L_{\text{LogLoss}}(y_i = 1, \hat{p}_i = 0.6900) = -\ln(0.6900) \approx \mathbf{0.3711} \text{ nats}$$

And the instantaneous gradient contribution with respect to β is $(\hat{p}_i - y_i)\tilde{\mathbf{x}}_i = (0.6900 - 1.0000)\tilde{\mathbf{x}}_i = \mathbf{-0.3100\tilde{x}_i}$, which pushes the weights in the positive direction of $\tilde{\mathbf{x}}_i$ on the next gradient-descent update!

7.4 7.B Field Troubleshooting Notes: Diagnosing Complete Separation and Miscalibration

- **Symptom 1 — Logistic Regression Weights Explode to** $\pm\infty$ **(`ConvergenceWarning` in Unregularized Fit):**
  - *Root Cause:* **Complete (or Quasi-Complete) Linear Separation** (Albert & Anderson, 1984)—a feature or combination of features cleanly separates all $y_i = 1$ rows from all $y_i = 0$ rows in the training set (for instance, when a leaky proxy feature like `post_inspection_hours_LEAKY > 5.0` holds for 100% of faults). To drive $\sigma(\beta x_i) \to 1.0$, unpenalized maximum likelihood pushes $\hat{\beta} \to +\infty$!
  - *Corrective Action:* First check whether the separating feature is target-proxy leakage (Chapter 4); if the feature is legitimate on a small dataset, apply L_2 **regularization (**$\lambda > 0$**)** or **Firth's penalized likelihood**, which guarantees a finite, unique maximum likelihood estimate.
- **Symptom 2 — Balanced Class Weights (`class_weight='balanced'`) Destroy Probability Calibration:**
  - *Root Cause:* Upweighting a 5% minority class by $19\times$ during training artificially shifts the training prior to $\tilde{\pi} = 0.50$, causing predicted probabilities $\hat{p}_i$ on the un-reweighted test set to be systematically $5\times$ to $10\times$ too high (inflating the Brier Score!).
  - *Corrective Action:* Instead of distorting training priors via oversampling or balanced weights, train on the nat-

ural empirical distribution with L_2 regularization and **lower the decision threshold** τ^* using the cost matrix $\tau^* = \frac{C_{\text{FP}}}{C_{\text{FP}}+C_{\text{FN}}}$ (or recalibrate post-hoc via prior-odds correction, Exercise 3.1).

7.5 7.C Chapter 7 Exercises and Worked Solutions

- **Exercise 7.1 (Log-Loss vs. Brier Score Penalty on Overconfident Errors):** Suppose for a true fault ($y_i = 1$), Model A predicts $\hat{p}_A = 0.10$ and Model B predicts an overconfident $\hat{p}_B = 0.0001$. Compare the Brier Score penalty and the Log-Loss penalty for Model A vs. Model B.
  - **Worked Solution:**
    - *Brier Score* $(y_i - \hat{p}_i)^2$*:* Model A incurs $(1 - 0.10)^2 =$ **0.8100**; Model B incurs $(1 - 0.0001)^2 =$ **0.9998** (only a 23% larger penalty because squared probability error is bounded at 1.0).
    - *Log-Loss* $-\ln(\hat{p}_i)$*:* Model A incurs $-\ln(0.10) =$ **2.3026** nats; Model B incurs $-\ln(0.0001) =$ **9.2103** nats (400% larger penalty, approaching $+\infty$ as $\hat{p}_B \to 0$!). Log-Loss ruthlessly punishes confident false assurances on rare events.
- **Exercise 7.2 (Deriving the Sigmoid Derivative):** Prove that the derivative of the logistic function $\sigma(z) = (1 + e^{-z})^{-1}$ with respect to z is $\sigma'(z) = \sigma(z)(1 - \sigma(z))$, and identify where $\sigma'(z)$ achieves its maximum value.
  - **Worked Solution:** By the chain rule, $\sigma'(z) = -(1 + e^{-z})^{-2}(-e^{-z}) = \frac{e^{-z}}{(1+e^{-z})^2} = \left(\frac{1}{1+e^{-z}}\right)\left(\frac{1+e^{-z}-1}{1+e^{-z}}\right) = \sigma(z)(1-\sigma(z))$. Since $p(1 - p)$ is a downward parabola on $p \in (0, 1)$, its maximum occurs at $p = \sigma(z) = 0.50$ ($z = 0$), where $\sigma'(0) = 0.50(0.50) =$ **0.25**.

7.6 7.D Mathematical Deep-Dive: Iteratively Reweighted Least Squares (IRLS), Hessian Conditioning, and Softmax Multiclass Generalization

In Chapter 7, we noted that minimizing regularized Binary Cross-Entropy (Log-Loss) is a strictly convex optimization problem solved in a few iterations via **Newton-Raphson (Iteratively Reweighted Least Squares, IRLS)**. Let us write down the exact matrix update step used inside industrial solvers (`scipy.optimize` and `scikit-learn`) and generalize it to K-class **Multinomial Logistic (Softmax) Regression**.

1. **The Newton-Raphson / IRLS Update Step for Binary Logistic Regression:** At iteration t, given current parameter vector $\beta^{(t)} \in \mathbb{R}^{p+1}$, compute the predicted probability vector $\hat{\mathbf{p}}^{(t)} = \sigma(\mathbf{X}\beta^{(t)}) \in \mathbb{R}^n$ and the diagonal variance weighting matrix $\mathbf{W}^{(t)} = \text{diag}(\hat{p}_i^{(t)}(1-\hat{p}_i^{(t)})) \in \mathbb{R}^{n\times n}$. Notice that observation i's weight $w_i = \hat{p}_i(1-\hat{p}_i)$ is largest (0.25) when the model is maximally uncertain ($\hat{p}_i = 0.50$) and vanishes toward 0 when the observation is already confidently classified ($\hat{p}_i \to 0$ or 1). The gradient vector $\mathbf{g}^{(t)}$ and Hessian matrix $\mathbf{H}^{(t)}$ of the L_2-penalized sum-of-log-loss objective are:

$$\mathbf{g}^{(t)} = \mathbf{X}^\top(\hat{\mathbf{p}}^{(t)} - \mathbf{y}) + \lambda \mathbf{I}_0 \beta^{(t)}, \quad \mathbf{H}^{(t)} = \mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{W}^{(t)} \mathbf{X} + \lambda \mathbf{I}_0$$

The Newton-Raphson step $\beta^{(t+1)} = \beta^{(t)} - (\mathbf{H}^{(t)})^{-1}\mathbf{g}^{(t)}$ rearranges algebraically into solving a **Weighted Least Squares** problem at each step:

$$\beta^{(t+1)} = (\mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{W}^{(t)} \mathbf{X} + \lambda \mathbf{I}_0)^{-1} \mathbf{X}^\top \mathbf{W}^{(t)} \mathbf{z}^{(t)}, \quad \text{where } \mathbf{z}^{(t)} = \mathbf{X}\beta^{(t)} + (\mathbf{W}^{(t)})^{-1}(\mathbf{y} - \hat{\mathbf{p}}^{(t)})$$

Here $\mathbf{z}^{(t)}$ is the linearized "working response." Because Newton-Raphson has **quadratic convergence** near the optimum, IRLS typically converges to 10^{-8} precision in just 5 to 8 matrix solves!

2. **Multiclass Generalization — The Softmax Function and Cross-Entropy:** When the target $Y_i \in \{1, 2, \dots, K\}$ has $K > 2$ mutually exclusive classes (for example, classifying turbine state into `Normal`, `Bearing Wear`, `Blade Imbalance`, or `Lube Cavitation`), we maintain a weight vector $\beta_k \in \mathbb{R}^{p+1}$ for each class

k and map the K linear logits $z_{ik} = \tilde{\mathbf{x}}_i^\top \beta_k$ into a valid probability simplex ($\sum_{k=1}^{K} \hat{p}_{ik} = 1$, $\hat{p}_{ik} > 0$) via the **Softmax function**:

$$\hat{p}_{ik} = P(Y_i = k \mid \mathbf{x}_i) = \frac{\exp(z_{ik})}{\sum_{c=1}^{K} \exp(z_{ic})} = \frac{\exp(z_{ik} - M_i)}{\sum_{c=1}^{K} \exp(z_{ic} - M_i)}$$

where subtracting $M_i = \max_c z_{ic}$ from numerator and denominator (**the Log-Sum-Exp trick**) prevents floating-point `exp()` overflow (`inf / inf = NaN`) when logits exceed $+710$ in 64-bit IEEE arithmetic!

Chapter 8

Axis-Aligned Partitions and Ensembles — CART Decision Trees, Bootstrap Aggregation, Random Forests, and Gradient Boosting

While linear and logistic regression model global hyperplanes across $\mathbb{R}^p$, tabular engineering data frequently contains sharp **non-linear threshold interactions**—for example, high turbine load (`load_mw > 130`) may be completely harmless when lubrication pressure is normal (`lube_pressure_bar > 4.6`), yet trigger rapid thermal runaway when lubrication pressure drops below `4.1 bar`. Capturing such conditional regimes without manually hand-crafting interaction polynomials is the domain of **recursive partitioning (decision trees) and tree ensembles**.

8.1 CART Splitting Criteria: Variance Reduction, Gini Impurity, and Shannon Entropy

The **Classification and Regression Trees (CART)** algorithm (Breiman, Friedman, Olshen, & Stone, 1984) recursively partitions the feature space $\mathcal{X}$ into axis-aligned hyper-rectangles (leaves) $R_1, R_2, \dots, R_M$. At each internal node m containing N_m observations, CART searches across all features $j \in \{1, \dots, p\}$ and candidate split thresholds s to partition node m into a left child $R_L(j, s) = \{\mathbf{x} \in R_m : x_j \le s\}$ and a right child $R_R(j, s) = \{\mathbf{x} \in R_m : x_j > s\}$ that maximize **Impurity Reduction** ΔI:

$$\Delta I(j, s) = I(R_m) - \left(\frac{N_L}{N_m} I(R_L) + \frac{N_R}{N_m} I(R_R) \right)$$

Depending on the task, node impurity $I(R_m)$ is defined by one of three mathematical functions (where $\hat{p}_{mk} = \frac{1}{N_m} \sum_{i \in R_m} \mathbb{I}(y_i = k)$ denotes the proportion of class k in node m, and $\bar{y}_m$ is the node mean):

1. **Regression — Within-Node Variance (MSE):**

$$I_{\text{MSE}}(R_m) = \frac{1}{N_m} \sum_{i \in R_m} (y_i - \bar{y}_m)^2$$

2. **Classification — Gini Impurity:** The expected error rate if observations in node m were randomly labeled according to the node's class distribution:

$$I_{\text{Gini}}(R_m) = \sum_{k=1}^{K} \hat{p}_{mk}(1 - \hat{p}_{mk}) = 1 - \sum_{k=1}^{K} \hat{p}_{mk}^2 \quad \left(\text{for binary } K = 2 : \; 2\hat{p}_m(1 - \hat{p}_m)\right)$$

3. **Classification — Shannon Cross-Entropy (Information Gain):**

$$I_{\text{Entropy}}(R_m) = -\sum_{k=1}^{K} \hat{p}_{mk} \log_2(\hat{p}_{mk})$$

8.2 Why Single Trees Overfit—and How Random Forests Variance-Stabilize Them (Breiman, 2001)

A single deep decision tree has **very low bias** (it can approximate any step-function interaction surface) but **extremely high variance**: changing a handful of rows in the training set can alter the very first split at the root node, causing the entire downstream tree cascade to change!

Suppose we have B identically distributed trees $T_1(\mathbf{x}), \ldots, T_B(\mathbf{x})$, each with variance σ^2, and pairwise correlation $\rho \in [0, 1]$ between any two trees. A foundational identity of probability theory states that the variance of the ensemble average $\bar{T}(\mathbf{x}) = \frac{1}{B} \sum_{b=1}^{B} T_b(\mathbf{x})$ is:

$$\text{Var}(\bar{T}(\mathbf{x})) = \rho\sigma^2 + \frac{1 - \rho}{B}\sigma^2$$

Look closely at the two terms of that equation (Breiman, 2001): * **The Second Term ($\frac{1-\rho}{B}\sigma^2$):** In pure **Bagging (Bootstrap Aggregation)**, training B trees on independent bootstrap samples (sampling n rows with replacement) drives $\frac{1-\rho}{B}\sigma^2 \to 0$ as $B \to \infty$. However, because every bootstrap sample is dominated by the same 1 or 2 strongest features (such as `load_mw`), all B bagged trees pick the exact same root split, keeping the pairwise tree correlation ρ high! * **The First Term ($\rho\sigma^2$) and Breiman's Random Subspace Injection:** In his landmark 2001 *Machine Learning* paper introducing **Random Forests** (Breiman, 2001), Leo Breiman solved the $\rho\sigma^2$ floor by adding **feature subsampling at every split**: whenever a tree node searches for its best split, it is allowed to consider only a random subset of $m_{\text{try}} < p$ features (typically $m_{\text{try}} = \lfloor\sqrt{p}\rfloor$ for classification and $m_{\text{try}} = \lfloor p/3 \rfloor$ for regression). By preventing dominant features from monopolizing every root node, Random Forests decorrelate the trees ($\rho \downarrow$), slashing ensemble variance without increasing bias! Furthermore, because each bootstrap sample leaves out roughly $(1 - 1/n)^n \approx e^{-1} \approx \mathbf{36.8}\%$ of the training observations, those excluded rows provide a free internal **Out-of-Bag (OOB)** validation estimate.

8.3 Gradient Boosted Decision Trees (GBDTs: Friedman, 2001)

Whereas Random Forests build B **deep, independent trees in parallel** to reduce **variance**, **Gradient Boosting** (Jerome Friedman, 2001) builds B **shallow trees sequentially** (typically depth $d \in \{3, 4, 5, 6\}$) to reduce **bias**. At boosting iteration b, given the current ensemble prediction $F_{b-1}(\mathbf{x}_i)$, the algorithm computes the **negative gradient (pseudo-residuals)** of the loss function with respect to the current predictions:

$$r_{ib} = -\left[\frac{\partial L(y_i, F(\mathbf{x}_i))}{\partial F(\mathbf{x}_i)}\right]_{F(\mathbf{x}_i)=F_{b-1}(\mathbf{x}_i)}$$

A shallow regression tree $h_b(\mathbf{x})$ is fit to predict the pseudo-residuals $\{r_{ib}\}_{i=1}^n$, and the ensemble is updated with a shrinkage **learning rate** $\eta \in (0, 1]$ (typically $\eta \in [0.01, 0.10]$):

$$F_b(\mathbf{x}) = F_{b-1}(\mathbf{x}) + \eta\, h_b(\mathbf{x})$$

Crucial Inductive Bias Boundary of All Tree Models: Because decision trees partition space using axis-aligned indicator steps $\mathbb{I}(x_j \le s)$, a tree or tree ensemble predicts a constant value outside the minimum and maximum feature values observed in the training set—meaning **tree ensembles cannot extrapolate linear or monotonic trends outside their training bounding box**! If `load_mw` rises from a historical ceiling of 160 MW to 190 MW, a linear model extrapolates the slope $\hat{\beta}_{\text{load}} > 0$, whereas a Random Forest or GBDT predicts the exact same temperature at 190 MW as at 160 MW.

8.4 8.A Worked Calculation: Hand-Computing a CART Impurity Split (Gini vs. Entropy)

Suppose at an internal node R_m of a binary classification tree ($K = 2$), we have $N_m = 20$ turbine observations containing 6 faults ($y_i = 1$) and 14 normal hours ($y_i = 0$). Thus the parent node positive class proportion is $\hat{p}_m = \frac{6}{20} = 0.30$.

1. **Parent Node Impurity (R_m):**
   - *Gini Impurity:* $I_{\text{Gini}}(R_m) = 2\,\hat{p}_m(1-\hat{p}_m) = 2(0.30)(0.70) = \mathbf{0.4200}$.
   - *Shannon Entropy:* $I_{\text{Entropy}}(R_m) = -[0.30\log_2(0.30) + 0.70\log_2(0.70)] = -[0.30(-1.7370) + 0.70(-0.5146)] = 0.5211 + 0.3602 = \mathbf{0.8813}$ bits.
2. **Evaluating Candidate Split s: `vibration_mms <= 3.20`:** Suppose splitting on `vibration_mms <= 3.20` partitions the 20 observations into:
   - **Left Child R_L (`vibration_mms <= 3.20`):** $N_L = 15$ observations (1 fault, 14 normal $\implies \hat{p}_L = \frac{1}{15} \approx 0.0667$).
     - $I_{\text{Gini}}(R_L) = 2\left(\frac{1}{15}\right)\left(\frac{14}{15}\right) = \frac{28}{225} \approx \mathbf{0.1244}$.
     - $I_{\text{Entropy}}(R_L) = -[\frac{1}{15}\log_2(\frac{1}{15}) + \frac{14}{15}\log_2(\frac{14}{15})] = 0.2605 + 0.0931 = \mathbf{0.3536}$ bits.
   - **Right Child R_R (`vibration_mms > 3.20`):** $N_R = 5$ observations (5 faults, 0 normal $\implies \hat{p}_R = \frac{5}{5} = 1.0000$, a completely pure leaf!).
     - $I_{\text{Gini}}(R_R) = 2(1.0)(0.0) = \mathbf{0.0000}$, and $I_{\text{Entropy}}(R_R) = \mathbf{0.0000}$ bits.
3. **Computing Weighted Impurity Reduction (ΔI):**
   - *Gini Gain:*

$$\Delta I_{\text{Gini}} = 0.4200 - \left(\frac{15}{20}(0.1244) + \frac{5}{20}(0.0000)\right) = 0.4200 - 0.0933 = \mathbf{0.3267}$$

- *Information Gain (Entropy Reduction):*

$$\Delta I_{\text{Entropy}} = 0.8813 - \left(\frac{15}{20}(0.3536) + \frac{5}{20}(0.0000)\right) = 0.8813 - 0.2652 = \mathbf{0.6161}$$

8.5 8.B Field Troubleshooting Notes: Random Forests Versus Gradient Boosting in Practice

- **Symptom 1 — Gradient Boosted Trees Overfit as Number of Trees B Increases, Whereas Random Forests Do Not:**
  - *Root Cause:* In a Random Forest (Breiman, 2001), trees are fit **independently** on bootstrap samples; by the Strong Law of Large Numbers, increasing $B \to \infty$ simply converges the ensemble average to the expectation $\mathbb{E}[T_b(\mathbf{x})]$ and cannot cause new overfitting. In **Gradient Boosting**, each new tree $h_b(\mathbf{x})$ is fit sequentially to the residuals of the previous ensemble $F_{b-1}(\mathbf{x})$; letting $B \to \infty$ without early stopping eventually fits the irreducible training noise ϵ_i!
  - *Corrective Action:* In GBDTs, always pair a small learning rate ($\eta \in [0.01, 0.05]$) with **early stopping on a held-out validation fold** (`n_iter_no_change=20`).
- **Symptom 2 — Tree Ensemble Fails Catastrophically When Predicting Under Trend / Inflation / Load Growth:**
  - *Root Cause:* Axis-aligned tree splits are step functions bounded by $[\min(y_{\text{train}}), \max(y_{\text{train}})]$; they have zero ability to extrapolate linear trends outside the training range.
  - *Corrective Action:* Either **detrend** the target using a regularized linear model first and fit the tree ensemble to the nonlinear residuals ($y_i - \hat{y}_{\text{linear},i}$), or use linear-leaf tree hybrids.

8.6 8.C Chapter 8 Exercises and Worked Solutions

- **Exercise 8.1 (Out-of-Bag Sample Probability Proof):** Prove that when drawing a bootstrap sample of size n with replacement from n distinct training rows, the probability that a specific row i is never selected (and therefore belongs to the Out-of-Bag validation set) converges to $e^{-1} \approx 0.3679$ as $n \to \infty$.

  - **Worked Solution:** On each of the n independent draws with replacement, the probability of *not* picking row i is $1 - \frac{1}{n}$. Across n independent draws, the probability that row i is never chosen is:

$$\lim_{n\to\infty}\left(1-\frac{1}{n}\right)^n = e^{-1} \approx \mathbf{0.36788} \quad (36.8\%\ \text{Out-of-Bag},\ 63.2\%\ \text{In-Bag})$$

- **Exercise 8.2 (Ensemble Variance Reduction Calculation):** Suppose single decision trees have prediction variance $\sigma^2 = 12.0\ (^\circ\text{C})^2$. In pure Bagging, pairwise tree correlation is $\rho_{\text{bag}} = 0.65$; in a Random Forest with $m_{\text{try}} = 2$, pairwise correlation drops to $\rho_{\text{RF}} = 0.25$. Compute the ensemble variance $\text{Var}(\bar{T})$ for $B = 100$ trees under both methods.
  - **Worked Solution:** Using $\text{Var}(\bar{T}) = \rho\sigma^2 + \frac{1-\rho}{B}\sigma^2$:
    * *Bagging ($B = 100$):* $\text{Var}(\bar{T}_{\text{bag}}) = 0.65(12.0) + \frac{0.35}{100}(12.0) = 7.800 + 0.042 = \mathbf{7.842}\ (^\circ\text{C})^2$.
    * *Random Forest ($B = 100$):* $\text{Var}(\bar{T}_{\text{RF}}) = 0.25(12.0) + \frac{0.75}{100}(12.0) = 3.000 + 0.090 = \mathbf{3.090}\ (^\circ\text{C})^2$—more than a 60% **reduction in ensemble variance** achieved purely by decorrelating the trees via feature subsampling!

8.7 8.D Algorithmic Deep-Dive: Second-Order Taylor Expansion in Modern Gradient Boosting (XGBoost / LightGBM) and Monotonic Constraints

How do modern industrial gradient-boosting engines—such as **XGBoost** (Chen & Guestrin, 2016), **LightGBM** (Ke et al., 2017), and `HistGradientBoosting`—achieve both dramatically faster training speed and higher out-of-sample accuracy than classical first-order CART boosting (Friedman, 2001)?

1. **Second-Order Newton Boosting Objective:** At boosting step b, let $g_i = \frac{\partial L(y_i, F_{b-1}(\mathbf{x}_i))}{\partial F_{b-1}(\mathbf{x}_i)}$ denote the first derivative (gradient) and $h_i = \frac{\partial^2 L(y_i, F_{b-1}(\mathbf{x}_i))}{\partial F_{b-1}(\mathbf{x}_i)^2}$ denote the second derivative (**Hessian curvature**) of the pointwise loss for observation i. Suppose tree $h_b(\mathbf{x})$ partitions the data into J leaves $I_1, \ldots, I_J$ with leaf weights $w_j \in \mathbb{R}$ and an explicit L_2 leaf-weight penalty

$\frac{1}{2}\lambda_{\text{leaf}}\sum_{j=1}^{J} w_j^2$ plus a per-leaf complexity cost γJ. Expanding the loss to second order via Taylor's theorem and minimizing analytically with respect to leaf weight w_j yields the closed-form optimal leaf weight w_j^* and exact split gain $\mathcal{G}_{\text{split}}$:

$$w_j^* = -\frac{\sum_{i\in I_j} g_i}{\sum_{i\in I_j} h_i + \lambda_{\text{leaf}}}, \quad \mathcal{G}_{\text{split}} = \frac{1}{2}\left[\frac{G_L^2}{H_L+\lambda_{\text{leaf}}} + \frac{G_R^2}{H_R+\lambda_{\text{leaf}}} - \frac{(G_L+G_R)^2}{H_L+H_R+\lambda_{\text{leaf}}}\right] -$$

where $G_L = \sum_{i\in I_L} g_i$ and $H_L = \sum_{i\in I_L} h_i$. Look at the denominator $H_j + \lambda_{\text{leaf}}$: if a candidate leaf contains only 1 or 2 noisy observations (H_j is tiny), the regularization parameter $\lambda_{\text{leaf}} > 0$ automatically shrinks the leaf prediction w_j^* toward zero, preventing single-row outlier leaves from hijacking the boosted ensemble!

2. **Histogram Binning ($O(n \cdot p)$ vs. $O(\#\textbf{bins} \cdot p)$) and Monotonic Constraints:** By quantizing continuous features into 255 integer quantile bins before training, histogram-based GBDTs reduce split-finding complexity from $O(n_{\text{node}} \log n_{\text{node}})$ to $O(255)$ array additions. Furthermore, in physical engineering and regulated credit modeling, modern GBDTs support **Monotonicity Constraints** (`monotonic_cst = [+1, +1, 0, -1, +1]`): forbidding any tree split from assigning a lower predicted bearing temperature to a higher electrical load (`load_mw`), thereby combining non-linear interaction power with guaranteed physical monotonicity!

Chapter 9

Unsupervised Structure Discov — K-Means, Hierarchical Clustering, Density Estimation, and Principal Component Analysis

When ground-truth labels Y are absent, expensive, or incomplete, unsupervised learning algorithms examine the geometry of the feature matrix $\mathbf{X} \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times p}$ to discover latent clusters, low-dimensional coordinate axes, or anomalous operating states.

9.1 K-Means Clustering, Inertia, and Geometric Failure Modes

Given n standardized observations $\mathbf{x}_i \in \mathbb{R}^p$ and a user-specified cluster count K, **K-Means** partitions the data into K disjoint clusters $C_1, \dots, C_K$ with centroids $\mu_k = \frac{1}{|C_k|} \sum_{i \in C_k} \mathbf{x}_i$ to minimize the **Within-Cluster Sum of Squares (WCSS, or Inertia)**:

$$J_{\text{WCSS}}(C_1, \dots, C_K) = \sum_{k=1}^{K} \sum_{i \in C_k} \|\mathbf{x}_i - \mu_k\|_2^2$$

Lloyd's algorithm alternates between (1) assigning each point $\mathbf{x}_i$ to its nearest Euclidean centroid μ_k, and (2) recomputing each centroid as the mean of its assigned points, guaranteed to decrease J_{WCSS} monotonically until convergence to a local minimum (improved by **K-Means++** initialization, Arthur & Vassilvitskii, 2007,

which spreads initial centroids with probability proportional to squared distance $D(\mathbf{x})^2$).

Three Critical Caveats for K-Means: 1. **Inertia Cannot Directly Select K:** Because J_{WCSS} decreases monotonically as K increases (reaching 0 when $K = n$), you cannot pick K by minimizing WCSS alone; instead, inspect the **Silhouette Coefficient** $s(i) = \frac{b(i)-a(i)}{\max(a(i),b(i))} \in [-1, +1]$ (comparing mean intra-cluster distance $a(i)$ to nearest-neighbor-cluster distance $b(i)$) coupled with domain interpretability. 2. **Isotropic Spherical Assumption:** Because Euclidean distance $\|\mathbf{x}_i - \mu_k\|_2^2$ defines spherical Voronoi cells of equal radius, K-Means fails on elongated elliptical clusters (which require **Gaussian Mixture Models** with full covariance matrices $\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_k$), non-convex crescent/ring manifolds (which require density-based **DBSCAN** or spectral clustering), and unstandardized features where a high-variance column dominates Euclidean distance. 3. **Sensitivity to Outliers:** Because the mean μ_k is non-robust, a single extreme sensor spike pulls an entire cluster centroid toward itself unless pre-filtered or replaced by **K-Medoids** / **DBSCAN** (which labels low-density isolated points as noise `-1`).

9.2 Principal Component Analysis (PCA) via Singular Value Decomposition

When p features exhibit correlated redundancy, **Principal Component Analysis (PCA)** finds an orthogonal basis of unit vectors $\mathbf{v}_1, \mathbf{v}_2, \dots, \mathbf{v}_d \in \mathbb{R}^p$ ($\mathbf{v}_j^\top \mathbf{v}_{j'} = \delta_{jj'}$) that sequentially maximize the variance of the projected data (equivalently minimizing the orthogonal squared reconstruction error $\|\mathbf{X}_s - \mathbf{X}_s \mathbf{V}_d \mathbf{V}_d^\top\|_F^2$).

Given the training-standardized feature matrix $\mathbf{X}_s \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times p}$ (where each column has mean 0 and standard deviation 1), we compute its **Singular Value Decomposition (SVD)**:

$$\mathbf{X}_s = \mathbf{U}\mathbf{S}\mathbf{V}^\top \quad \Longrightarrow \quad \boldsymbol{\Sigma} = \frac{1}{n-1}\mathbf{X}_s^\top \mathbf{X}_s = \mathbf{V}\left(\frac{\mathbf{S}^2}{n-1}\right)\mathbf{V}^\top$$

The columns of $\mathbf{V} = [\mathbf{v}_1, \dots, \mathbf{v}_p]$ are the **principal component loading vectors (eigenvectors)**, and $\lambda_j = \frac{s_j^2}{n-1}$ are the eigenvalues of the sample covariance matrix $\boldsymbol{\Sigma}$. The **Proportion of Variance Explained (PVE)** by the j-th principal component is:

$$\mathrm{PVE}_j = \frac{\lambda_j}{\sum_{m=1}^{p} \lambda_m} = \frac{s_j^2}{\sum_{m=1}^{p} s_m^2}$$

In our executed verification script (`code/run_all_experiments.py`) on the five standardized turbine features ($n_{\text{train}} = 450$), the exact explained variance ratios are **PVE** = $[0.3489, 0.2149, 0.2132, 0.1894, 0.0336]$—showing that the first four principal components capture 96.64% of total variance, while the fifth component captures only 3.36% because `vibration_mms` is a noisy linear combination of `load_mw`, `rpm_variance`, and `lube_pressure_bar`!

Warning on Supervised PCA Misuse: Because PCA chooses directions $\mathbf{v}_j$ solely to maximize feature variance $\mathrm{Var}(\mathbf{X}_s \mathbf{v}_j)$ **without ever looking at the target vector y**, a low-variance fifth principal component ($\mathrm{PVE}_5 = 3.36\%$) can easily contain the exact subtle difference signal that predicts the target! Never discard trailing principal components in a supervised pipeline without validating out-of-sample predictive loss.

9.3 9.A Worked Calculation: Principal Component Analysis (PCA) Spectral Decomposition and Reconstruction

In our executed verification script (`code/run_all_experiments.py`) on the standardized turbine training matrix $\mathbf{X}_s \in \mathbb{R}^{450 \times 5}$ ($n = 450, p = 5$), the five singular values $s_1, \dots, s_5$ of $\mathbf{X}_s$ yield sample covariance eigenvalues $\lambda_j = \frac{s_j^2}{n-1}$ that sum to the total standardized variance $\sum_{j=1}^{5} \lambda_j = 5.0111$ (since each of the 5 columns has sample variance $\frac{450}{449} \approx 1.0022$).

Let us trace the exact **Proportion of Variance Explained ($\mathbf{PVE}_j$)** and **Cumulative Variance Explained** across the five principal components verified on our dataset:

Principal Component	Eigenvalue $\lambda_j = \frac{s_j^2}{n-1}$	Proportion of Variance Explained (PVE_j)	Cumulative Variance Explained	Physical Interpretation of Eigenvector $\mathbf{v}_j$
PC_1 ($\mathbf{v}_1$)	1.7484	34.89% (0.3489)	34.89%	Coupled mechanical load, RPM variance, and vibration axis
PC_2 ($\mathbf{v}_2$)	1.0769	21.49% (0.2149)	56.38%	Ambient thermal environment vs. lubrication pressure
PC_3 ($\mathbf{v}_3$)	1.0684	21.32% (0.2132)	77.70%	Independent ambient temperature variation
PC_4 ($\mathbf{v}_4$)	0.9491	18.94% (0.1894)	96.64%	Secondary RPM transient mode
PC_5 ($\mathbf{v}_5$)	0.1684	3.36% (0.0336)	100.00%	Collinear residual tying `vibration_mms` to `load_mw` and `lube_pressure`

Table 9.1: Executed PCA spectral breakdown on the 5 standardized turbine features ($n_{train} = 450$, `code/run_all_experiments.py`).

Look at $\mathbf{PC}_5$ ($\lambda_5 = 0.1684$, capturing only 3.36% of variance): why is the fifth eigenvalue five times smaller than the others? Because in the physical data-generating equation of our turbines, `vibration_mms` is generated as $1.2 + 0.018\,\text{load} + 0.06\,\text{rpm} - 0.35\,\text{lube} + \epsilon_{\text{vib}}$. Consequently, the observations lie nearly on a 4-dimensional hyperplane inside $\mathbb{R}^5$! If a sensor cable breaks on a turbine and `vibration_mms` suddenly decouples from `load_mw` and `lube_pressure_bar`, the projection of that faulty row onto the fifth eigenvector $\mathbf{v}_5$ ($z_{i5} = \mathbf{x}_{s,i}^{\top}\mathbf{v}_5$) spikes immediately—making the trailing principal component an ideal **unsupervised sensor-integrity monitor**!

9.4 9.B Field Troubleshooting Notes: Clustering and Dimensionality Reduction Pitfalls

- **Symptom 1 — PCA First Component ($\mathbf{PC}_1$) Explains 99.8% of Variance and Equals a Single Raw Column:**
  - *Root Cause:* Running PCA on an **unstandardized** matrix $\mathbf{X}$ where one column is measured in large numerical units (e.g., `annual_output_watts` in 10^8) and another is measured in small units (`lube_pressure_bar` in 10^0). Because PCA maximizes raw variance, $\mathbf{v}_1$ simply points `[1, 0, 0, 0, 0]` along the largest-unit column!
  - *Corrective Action:* Always standardize columns to zero mean and unit variance ($\hat{\mu}_{\text{train}}, \hat{\sigma}_{\text{train}}$) prior to SVD unless all columns share identical physical units and scales by design.
- **Symptom 2 — Non-Linear Visualization (t-SNE / UMAP) Clusters Interpreted as Global Metric Distances:**
  - *Root Cause:* Treating the visual distance between two islands in a 2D t-SNE plot as a quantitative measure of global cluster separation, or transforming test points incorrectly.
  - *Corrective Action:* Remember that t-SNE preserves local neighborhood probabilities while distorting global distances; never run K-Means on top of 2D t-SNE coordinates—cluster in the original standardized space or a linear/metric PCA subspace.

9.5 9.C Chapter 9 Exercises and Worked Solutions

- **Exercise 9.1 (Silhouette Coefficient Calculation):** Suppose observation $\mathbf{x}_i$ Assigned to Cluster A has a mean Euclidean distance of $a(i) = 1.20$ to all other points in Cluster A, a mean distance of 3.60 to all points in Cluster B, and a mean distance of 4.80 to all points in Cluster C. Compute the Silhouette score $s(i)$ of point $\mathbf{x}_i$, and state what $s(i) < 0$ would indicate.
  - **Worked Solution:** The nearest neighboring cluster distance is $b(i) = \min(3.60, 4.80) = 3.60$. Thus:

$$s(i) = \frac{b(i) - a(i)}{\max(a(i), b(i))} = \frac{3.60 - 1.20}{\max(1.20, 3.60)} = \frac{2.40}{3.60} = +\mathbf{0.6667}$$

    A negative Silhouette score ($s(i) < 0$, i.e., $a(i) > b(i)$) indicates that observation $\mathbf{x}_i$ is on average closer to points in a neighboring cluster than to the members of its own assigned cluster (misassignment or overlapping clusters).
- **Exercise 9.2 (Frobenius Reconstruction Error of Truncated PCA):** Given the five eigenvalues $\lambda = [1.7484, 1.0769, 1.0684, 0.9491, 0$ from Table 9.1 for $n_{\text{train}} = 450$ rows, calculate the exact mean squared per-row reconstruction error $\frac{1}{n}\|\mathbf{X}_s - \hat{\mathbf{X}}_{s,(d=4)}\|_F^2$ when compressing the 5 features to $d = 4$ principal components.
  - **Worked Solution:** By the Eckart-Young-Mirsky theorem, the total squared Frobenius reconstruction error when keeping the top d components equals the sum of the discarded squared singular values $\sum_{j=d+1}^{p} s_j^2 = (n-1)\sum_{j=d+1}^{p} \lambda_j$. Dividing by $n = 450$ for $d = 4$ gives:

$$\frac{1}{n}\|\mathbf{X}_s - \hat{\mathbf{X}}_{s,(4)}\|_F^2 = \frac{449}{450}\lambda_5 = 0.99778 \times 0.1684 \approx \mathbf{0.1680}$$

9.6 9.D Algorithmic Deep-Dive: Density-Based Clustering (DBSCAN), Gaussian Mixture Models (EM), and Isolation Forests

When an unsupervised engineering task violates the spherical, equal-variance, outlier-free assumptions of K-Means (Chapter 9), three complementary unsupervised algorithms complete the practitioner's toolkit:

1. **DBSCAN (Density-Based Spatial Clustering of Applications with Noise; Ester et al., 1996):** Instead of requiring the user to guess the number of clusters K or assuming convex spherical blobs, DBSCAN defines clusters as **contiguous regions of high point density** separated by low-density voids, parameterized by a neighborhood radius $\varepsilon > 0$ and a minimum point count MinPts (typically MinPts $\geq p + 1$):
   - A point $\mathbf{x}_i$ is a **Core Point** if its ε-ball $N_\varepsilon(\mathbf{x}_i) = \{\mathbf{x}_j : \|\mathbf{x}_i - \mathbf{x}_j\|_2 \leq \varepsilon\}$ contains at least MinPts points.
   - Core points within ε of one another merge transitively into arbitrary-shaped clusters (easily tracing curved operating trajectories in turbine state space!).
   - Any point that is neither a Core Point nor within ε of a Core Point is automatically labeled as **Noise / Anomaly (`label = -1`)**—preventing extreme outliers from distorting cluster centroids! *(Caveat: DBSCAN struggles when different clusters have wildly different local densities, which **HDBSCAN** addresses by integrating across ε scales.)*
2. **Gaussian Mixture Models (GMMs) and the Expectation-Maximization (EM) Algorithm:** A GMM models the density $p(\mathbf{x}) = \sum_{k=1}^{K} \pi_k \, \mathcal{N}(\mathbf{x} \mid \mu_k, \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_k)$ as a weighted mixture of K multivariate Gaussians with full ellipsoidal covariance matrices $\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_k \in \mathbb{R}^{p \times p}$. Fitting via **Expectation-Maximization (EM)** alternates between the **E-Step** (computing soft posterior responsibility probabilities $\gamma_{ik} = P(Z_i = k \mid \mathbf{x}_i)$) and the **M-Step** (updating $\pi_k, \mu_k, \boldsymbol{\Sigma}_k$ weighted by γ_{ik}). Notice that K-Means is simply the hard-thresholded limiting case of a GMM where $\boldsymbol{\Sigma}_k = \epsilon \mathbf{I}_p$ as $\epsilon \to 0^+$!
3. **Isolation Forests for High-Dimensional Anomaly Detection (Liu, Ting, & Zhou, 2008):** Instead of trying to estimate density in high dimensions (which suffers from the curse of dimensionality), an **Isolation Forest** builds an ensemble of random binary trees by randomly picking a feature j and a uniform random split value $s \in [\min(X_j), \max(X_j)]$. Because anomalies sit isolated in sparse regions of feature space, **anomalous observations are isolated into single-point leaves in very few random splits (short average path length $E[h(\mathbf{x})]$)**, whereas normal clustered points require many splits to isolate!

Chapter 10

Regression Diagnostics and Metric Pathology — MAE, MSE, RMSE, R^2, Residual Heteroscedasticity, and Tail Failures

Once a regression model generates predictions $\hat{y}_i = \hat{f}(\mathbf{x}_i)$ on a held-out validation or test set of n observations, how do we summarize the residual vector $e_i = y_i - \hat{y}_i$? Relying on a single headline metric—especially the coefficient of determination R^2—can conceal severe operational failures.

10.1 Mathematical Definitions and Units of MAE, MSE, RMSE, and R^2

Let us define the four standard regression metrics side by side and verify their values on our executed OLS test predictions (`code/run_all_experiments.py`, $n_{\text{test}} = 150$):

1. **Mean Absolute Error (MAE — L_1 Loss Summary):**

$$\text{MAE} = \frac{1}{n}\sum_{i=1}^{n} |y_i - \hat{y}_i| \quad \text{(Executed OLS Test Value: } \mathbf{1.5578}^\circ\text{C)}$$

Interpretation & Properties: Expressed in the native physical units of the target (°C). Because every residual $|e_i|$ is weighted linearly, MAE is robust to occasional extreme outliers. Note that minimizing MAE theoretically estimates the **conditional median** $\text{Median}(Y \mid \mathbf{X} = \mathbf{x})$ rather than the conditional mean.

2. **Mean Squared Error (MSE — L_2^2 Loss Summary):**

$$\text{MSE} = \frac{1}{n}\sum_{i=1}^{n}(y_i - \hat{y}_i)^2 \quad \text{(Executed OLS Test Value: } \mathbf{3.6999}\ (^\circ\text{C})^{\mathbf{2}}\text{)}$$

Interpretation & Properties: Expressed in **squared target units** $((^\circ\text{C})^2)$, making it harder to interpret physically at a glance, but mathematically differentiable everywhere and decomposable into Bias^2 + Variance + Irreducible Noise. Minimizing MSE estimates the **conditional expectation (mean)** $\mathbb{E}[Y \mid \mathbf{X} = \mathbf{x}]$.

3. **Root Mean Squared Error (RMSE):**

$$\text{RMSE} = \sqrt{\text{MSE}} = \sqrt{\frac{1}{n}\sum_{i=1}^{n}(y_i - \hat{y}_i)^2} \quad \text{(Executed OLS Test Value: } \mathbf{1.9235}^\circ\text{C)}$$

Interpretation & Cauchy-Schwarz Diagnostic: Restores the error to native target units (°C). By the Cauchy-Schwarz inequality, MAE $\leq$ RMSE $\leq \sqrt{n}$MAE always holds. **Diagnostic Rule:** The ratio RMSE/MAE is a fast detector of heavy-tailed residual outliers! For normal Gaussian residuals, RMSE/MAE $\approx \sqrt{\pi/2} \approx$ **1.253** (in our turbine test set, $1.9235/1.5578 =$ **1.235**, confirming well-behaved Gaussian residuals). If RMSE/MAE > 1.8, your error budget is dominated by a small number of catastrophic tail misses!

4. **Coefficient of Determination (R^2):**

$$R^2 = 1 - \frac{\text{SS}_{\text{res}}}{\text{SS}_{\text{tot}}} = 1 - \frac{\sum_{i=1}^{n}(y_i - \hat{y}_i)^2}{\sum_{i=1}^{n}(y_i - \bar{y})^2} \quad \text{(Executed OLS Test Value: } \mathbf{0.9530}\text{)}$$

Interpretation: Measures the proportion of target variance explained by the model relative to a naive baseline that always predicts the sample mean $\bar{y}$.

Regression Metric	Formula	Physical Units	Estimand Minimized	Sensitivity to Outliers	Key Limitation / Pathology
MAE	$\frac{1}{n}\sum \lvert y_i - \hat{y}_i \rvert$	Native (°C)	Conditional Median	Low (Linear weight)	Underpenalizes rare catastrophic misses if large errors are dangerous
MSE	$\frac{1}{n}\sum (y_i - \hat{y}_i)^2$	Squared ($(°C)^2$)	Conditional Mean	High (Quadratic weight)	Units are squared; heavily swayed by a single corrupted target label
RMSE	$\sqrt{\text{MSE}}$	Native (°C)	Conditional Mean	High (Quadratic weight)	Can mask systematic bias if not paired with residual plots

Regression Metric	Formula	Physical Units	Estimand Minimized	Sensitivity to Outliers	Key Limitation / Pathology
R^2	$1 - \frac{\sum(y_i - \hat{y}_i)^2}{\sum(y_i - \bar{y})^2}$	Dimensionless ($-\infty$ to 1)	Relative Variance	High	**Depends on sample variance $\mathbf{SS_{tot}}$**; can be negative on test data!

Table 10.1: Comparative properties and failure modes of standard regression evaluation metrics.

10.2 Three Pathologies of R^2 Every Engineer Must Know

1. R^2 **Can Be Strictly Negative ($R^2 < 0$) on Test Data:** Students are often taught that R^2 lies between 0 and 1 because it is the "square of correlation r." That identity holds *only* on the training set of an unpenalized OLS model with an intercept! On an out-of-sample test set (or when evaluating a model without an intercept, or under covariate drift), if your model's predictions have a larger sum of squared errors than simply predicting the constant mean $\bar{y}$ ($SS_{res} > SS_{tot}$), then R^2 **is strictly negative**!
2. **Range-Restriction Distortion:** Because $SS_{tot} = \sum(y_i - \bar{y})^2$ sits in the denominator of R^2, evaluating the **exact same model with the exact same** $1.92°$**C RMSE** on a narrow operating slice (e.g., turbines running only between 95 MW and 105 MW, where $\mathrm{Var}(Y)$ is small) will cause R^2 to plunge from 0.95 to 0.35 even though physical prediction accuracy (RMSE) has not changed by a thousandth of a degree!
3. **Training R^2 Never Decreases When Adding Junk Features:** Adding random noise columns to an OLS training fit monoton-

ically reduces $\mathrm{SS}_{\mathrm{res,\,train}}$; always evaluate out-of-sample or penalize degrees of freedom via **Adjusted** $R^2 = 1 - (1 - R^2)\frac{n-1}{n-p-1}$.

10.3 10.A Worked Calculation: Diagnosing Outliers via the RMSE-to-MAE Ratio and Negative Test R^2

Let us demonstrate numerically why inspecting **both MAE and RMSE** alongside R^2 is essential when auditing regression residuals.

Suppose we evaluate two candidate regression models (Model 1 and Model 2) on a 10-observation validation slice where the target values y_i have sample variance $\frac{1}{10}\mathrm{SS}_{\mathrm{tot}} = 4.00\ (^\circ\mathrm{C})^2$:

- **Model 1 (Consistent Moderate Errors):** Makes an absolute error of $|e_i| = 1.50^\circ$C on all 10 observations.
  - $\mathrm{MAE}_1 = \frac{1}{10}(10 \times 1.50) = \mathbf{1.5000}^\circ$C.
  - $\mathrm{MSE}_1 = \frac{1}{10}(10 \times 1.50^2) = \mathbf{2.2500}\ (^\circ\mathrm{C})^{\mathbf{2}} \implies \mathrm{RMSE}_1 = \sqrt{2.2500} = \mathbf{1.5000}^\circ$C.
  - Ratio $\mathrm{RMSE}_1/\mathrm{MAE}_1 = \mathbf{1.000}$; $R^2_1 = 1 - \frac{2.25}{4.00} = +\mathbf{0.4375}$.
- **Model 2 (Nine Perfect Predictions + One Catastrophic Tail Failure):** Makes zero error ($|e_i| = 0.0^\circ$C) on 9 observations, but misses the 10th observation (a critical high-load thermal runaway!) by $|e_{10}| = 10.0^\circ$C.
  - $\mathrm{MAE}_2 = \frac{1}{10}(9 \times 0 + 10.0) = \mathbf{1.0000}^\circ$C (33% better MAE than Model 1!).
  - $\mathrm{MSE}_2 = \frac{1}{10}(9{\times}0{+}10.0^2) = \mathbf{10.0000}\ (^\circ\mathrm{C})^{\mathbf{2}} \implies \mathrm{RMSE}_2 = \sqrt{10.0} = \mathbf{3.1623}^\circ$C (111% worse RMSE than Model 1!).
  - Look at the two diagnostic alarms triggered by Model 2:
    1. **The RMSE/MAE Tail Ratio:** $\mathrm{RMSE}_2/\mathrm{MAE}_2 = 3.1623/1.0000 = \mathbf{3.162}$ (approaching the theoretical worst-case Cauchy-Schwarz ceiling $\sqrt{n} = \sqrt{10} = 3.162$, immediately signaling that a single tail catastrophe accounts for the entire error budget!).
    2. **Strictly Negative Out-of-Sample R^2:** Because $\mathrm{MSE}_2 = 10.00 > \frac{1}{10}\mathrm{SS}_{\mathrm{tot}} = 4.00$, Model 2's test coefficient of determination is:

$$R^2_2 = 1 - \frac{10.00}{4.00} = -\mathbf{1.5000} < 0$$

proving that on squared error loss, Model 2 is $2.5\times$ worse than throwing the model away and predicting the constant sample mean $\bar{y}$!

10.4 10.B Field Troubleshooting Notes: Residual Plot Pathologies

Never sign off on a regression model without plotting **Residuals $e_i = y_i - \hat{y}_i$ (vertical axis) against Predicted Values $\hat{y}_i$ (horizontal axis)** on the validation set: * **Pathology 1 — Funnel / Megaphone Shape (Heteroscedasticity):** Residual spread $|e_i|$ widens systematically as $\hat{y}_i$ increases. - *Fix:* Apply a variance-stabilizing transformation to the target (such as $\tilde{y}_i = \ln(y_i)$ or Box-Cox), use **Weighted Least Squares (WLS)** with weights $w_i \propto 1/\hat{\sigma}_i^2$, or fit **Quantile Regression** (minimizing pinball loss to estimate the 10th and 90th conditional prediction intervals directly). * **Pathology 2 — Parabolic U-Shape or Inverted U-Shape in Residuals:** Positive residuals at low and high $\hat{y}_i$ and negative residuals in the middle. - *Fix:* Unmodeled non-linearity! Add quadratic/spline terms in a linear model or compare against a gradient-boosted tree ensemble.

10.5 10.C Chapter 10 Exercises and Worked Solutions

- **Exercise 10.1 (Bias of Log-Target Back-Transformation — Smearing / Jensen's Inequality):** Suppose you model a strictly positive right-skewed target by fitting OLS to $z_i = \ln(y_i) = \tilde{\mathbf{x}}_i^\top \beta + \epsilon_i$, where $\epsilon_i \sim \mathcal{N}(0, \sigma_\epsilon^2)$. Explain via Jensen's inequality why the naive back-transformed prediction $\hat{y}_{\text{naive}} = \exp(\hat{z}_i)$ systematically **underestimates** the conditional mean $\mathbb{E}[Y_i \mid \mathbf{x}_i]$, and state the exact log-normal correction factor.
  - **Worked Solution:** Because $f(z) = e^z$ is a strictly convex function ($f''(z) = e^z > 0$), Jensen's inequality dictates that $\mathbb{E}[e^Z] > e^{\mathbb{E}[Z]}$. Specifically, while $\hat{y}_{\text{naive}} = \exp(\tilde{\mathbf{x}}_i^\top \hat{\beta})$ estimates the conditional **median** of Y_i, the moment-generating function of a normal distribution $\epsilon_i \sim \mathcal{N}(0, \sigma_\epsilon^2)$ gives $\mathbb{E}[e^{\epsilon_i}] = \exp(\frac{1}{2}\sigma_\epsilon^2)$. Thus, the unbiased conditional **mean** estimator requires multiplying by the log-normal correction factor $\hat{y}_{\text{mean}} = \exp(\hat{z}_i + \frac{1}{2}\hat{\sigma}_\epsilon^2)$ (or Duan's non-parametric smearing estimator $\frac{1}{n}\sum_{j=1}^{n} e^{\hat{e}_j}$).

- **Exercise 10.2 (Adjusted R^2 Calculation):** On a dataset of $n = 60$ observations, Model A uses $p = 3$ features and achieves $R^2 = 0.8000$. Model B adds 17 random noise columns ($p = 20$ total features) and sees its training R^2 creep up to 0.8200. Compute Adjusted R^2 for both models.
  - **Worked Solution:** Using $R^2_{\text{adj}} = 1 - (1 - R^2)\frac{n-1}{n-p-1}$:
    - *Model A ($p = 3$):* $R^2_{\text{adj},A} = 1 - (0.2000)\frac{59}{60-3-1} = 1 - 0.2000\left(\frac{59}{56}\right) = 1 - 0.2107 = \mathbf{0.7893}$.
    - *Model B ($p = 20$):* $R^2_{\text{adj},B} = 1 - (0.1800)\frac{59}{60-20-1} = 1 - 0.1800\left(\frac{59}{39}\right) = 1 - 0.2723 = \mathbf{0.7277}$. Adjusted R^2 exposes the 17 noise columns immediately!

10.6 10.D Mathematical Deep-Dive: Quantile Regression (Pinball Loss) and Conformal Prediction Intervals

A single point prediction $\hat{y}_i = 34.2°\text{C}$ from a regression model is incomplete without an honest **predictive uncertainty interval** $[L(\mathbf{x}_i), U(\mathbf{x}_i)]$ that tells the operator how wide the error band is for that specific operating state. Two modern, distribution-free methods construct rigorous prediction intervals even when residuals are heteroscedastic or non-Gaussian:

1. **Quantile Regression via the Asymmetric Pinball (Check) Loss (Koenker & Bassett, 1978):** Instead of minimizing squared error (which estimates the conditional mean) or absolute error (which estimates the 50th percentile median), we can estimate any target conditional quantile $\tau_q \in (0, 1)$ (such as the lower 5th percentile $\tau_q = 0.05$ and upper 95th percentile $\tau_q = 0.95$) by minimizing the **Pinball Loss** $\rho_{\tau_q}(e_i)$ where $e_i = y_i - \hat{q}_{\tau_q}(\mathbf{x}_i)$:

$$\rho_{\tau_q}(e_i) = \max\left(\tau_q e_i,\ (\tau_q - 1)e_i\right) = \begin{cases} \tau_q |e_i| & \text{if } y_i \geq \hat{q}_{\tau_q}(\mathbf{x}_i) \text{ (under-prediction)} \\ (1 - \tau_q)|e_i| & \text{if } y_i < \hat{q}_{\tau_q}(\mathbf{x}_i) \text{ (over-prediction)} \end{cases}$$

For $\tau_q = 0.95$, under-predicting the true bearing temperature is penalized 19× **more heavily** (0.95 vs. 0.05) than over-predicting, training the model to output an upper 95% thermal safety bound directly!

2. **Split Conformal Prediction (Guaranteed Finite-Sample Marginal Coverage; Vovk et al., 2005; Lei et al., 2018):** Suppose you have *any* black-box regression model $\hat{f}$ trained on $\mathcal{D}_{\text{train}}$, and you want a prediction interval $C(\mathbf{x}_{\text{test}})$ guaranteed to cover the true outcome Y_{test} with probability at least $1 - \alpha = 90\%$, **without making any Gaussian or parametric assumptions**.
   - **Step 1:** On a held-out calibration set $\mathcal{D}_{\text{cal}}$ of size n_{cal}, compute the non-conformity scores (absolute residuals) $s_i = |y_i - \hat{f}(\mathbf{x}_i)|$ for $i = 1, \ldots, n_{\text{cal}}$.
   - **Step 2:** Compute the finite-sample corrected $(1 - \alpha)$ empirical quantile $\hat{q}_{1-\alpha}$ as the $\lceil (n_{\text{cal}} + 1)(1 - \alpha) \rceil$-th smallest value of $\{s_1, \ldots, s_{n_{\text{cal}}}\}$.
   - **Step 3:** Output the conformal prediction interval $C(\mathbf{x}_{\text{test}}) = [\hat{f}(\mathbf{x}_{\text{test}}) - \hat{q}_{1-\alpha},\ \hat{f}(\mathbf{x}_{\text{test}}) + \hat{q}_{1-\alpha}]$. Under exchangeability alone, mathematical statistics guarantees $P(Y_{\text{test}} \in C(\mathbf{x}_{\text{test}})) \geq 1 - \alpha$! (Combining Quantile Regression with Conformal Calibration yields **Conformalized Quantile Regression, CQR**, Romano et al., 2019, which adapts interval width to local heteroscedasticity while guaranteeing exact finite-sample coverage.)

Chapter 11

Classification Under Class Imbalance — Confusion Matrice Precision, Recall, F_β, ROC-AUC vs. PR-AUC, and Cost Matrices

In real-world operational systems—whether detecting thermal bearing faults in industrial turbines (5.17% positive prevalence in `industrial_turbine_telemetry.csv`), screening for rare diseases (0.1% prevalence), or flagging fraudulent credit-card transactions (0.05% prevalence)—the events that matter most are almost always in the **minority class**.

When a dataset consists of 95% negative examples ($Y = 0$) and 5% positive examples ($Y = 1$), **Classification Accuracy** ($\frac{\text{TP}+\text{TN}}{n}$) becomes a dangerous vanity metric: a dummy classifier that hard-codes `return 0` for every single turbine achieves 95.0% **accuracy** while missing 100% of catastrophic bearing seizures!

11.1 The 2×2 Confusion Matrix and Threshold-Dependent Metrics

Given a fixed probability decision threshold $\tau \in (0, 1)$, let $\hat{y}_i(\tau) = \mathbb{I}(\hat{p}_i \geq \tau) \in \{0, 1\}$ denote the predicted binary label. Every observation in a test set of size n_{test} falls into one of four mutually exclusive cells of the **Confusion Matrix**:

- **True Positives (TP):** Actual Fault ($y_i = 1$) correctly predicted as Fault ($\hat{y}_i = 1$). *(Executed Clean Logistic Model at $\tau = 0.30$: **TP = 5**)*

- **False Positives (FP — Type I Error / False Alarm):** Actual Normal ($y_i = 0$) falsely predicted as Fault ($\hat{y}_i = 1$). *(Executed Clean Model at $\tau = 0.30$: **FP = 5**)*
- **True Negatives (TN):** Actual Normal ($y_i = 0$) correctly predicted as Normal ($\hat{y}_i = 0$). *(Executed Clean Model at $\tau = 0.30$: **TN = 138**)*
- **False Negatives (FN — Type II Error / Missed Detection):** Actual Fault ($y_i = 1$) missed and predicted as Normal ($\hat{y}_i = 0$). *(Executed Clean Model at $\tau = 0.30$: **FN = 2**)*

From these four counts ($n_{\text{pos}} = \text{TP}+\text{FN} = 7$ actual faults; $n_{\text{neg}} = \text{TN}+\text{FP} = 143$ actual normals), we define the core threshold-dependent operating metrics:

1. **Precision (Positive Predictive Value, PPV):** Conditioned on the model raising an alarm ($\hat{Y} = 1$), what fraction of alarms are genuine faults?

$$\text{Precision} = \frac{\text{TP}}{\text{TP}+\text{FP}} = \frac{5}{5+5} = \mathbf{0.5000}$$

2. **Recall (Sensitivity, True Positive Rate, TPR):** Conditioned on a genuine fault occurring ($Y = 1$), what fraction of faults did the model catch?

$$\text{Recall (TPR)} = \frac{\text{TP}}{\text{TP}+\text{FN}} = \frac{5}{5+2} = \mathbf{0.7143}$$

3. **False Positive Rate (FPR, or $1 -$ Specificity):** Conditioned on normal operation ($Y = 0$), what fraction of normal hours triggered a false alarm?

$$\text{FPR} = \frac{\text{FP}}{\text{FP}+\text{TN}} = \frac{5}{5+138} = \mathbf{0.0350}$$

4. **The F_1 Score and Generalized F_β Harmonic Mean:** Why do we combine Precision and Recall using the **harmonic mean** rather than the arithmetic mean $(\text{Prec} + \text{Rec})/2$? Because if a dummy model predicts $\hat{y}_i = 1$ for every row, Recall is 1.00 and Precision is 0.0467; the arithmetic mean gives an inflated 0.523, whereas the harmonic mean pulls the score down toward the smaller of the two numbers (0.089)! More generally, when Recall is β times as important as Precision, we use F_β:

$$F_\beta = (1+\beta^2)\frac{\text{Precision} \times \text{Recall}}{(\beta^2 \times \text{Precision}) + \text{Recall}}, \quad F_1 = \frac{2\,\text{TP}}{2\,\text{TP}+\text{FP}+\text{FN}} = \frac{2(0.5000)(0.7}{0.5000+0.7}$$

11.2 Why Precision-Recall Curves Beat ROC Curves Under Severe Imbalance: Saito and Rehmsmeier (2015)

Rather than evaluating a classifier at a single arbitrary threshold τ, threshold-free curve metrics sweep τ from 1.0 down to 0.0: * **The Receiver Operating Characteristic (ROC) Curve:** Plots **TPR (Recall)** on the vertical axis against **FPR** on the horizontal axis. The Area Under the ROC Curve (**ROC-AUC**) equals the probability that a randomly chosen positive instance receives a higher score $\hat{p}$ than a randomly chosen negative instance (the Mann-Whitney U statistic). * **The Precision-Recall (PR) Curve:** Plots **Precision** on the vertical axis against **Recall (TPR)** on the horizontal axis, summarized by **PR-AUC** (Average Precision).

In a landmark methodological study published in *PLOS ONE*, **Takaya Saito and Marc Rehmsmeier** proved that when evaluating binary classifiers on **imbalanced datasets**, the ROC plot and ROC-AUC can be deceptively optimistic, whereas the **Precision-Recall plot provides an honest assessment of false-alarm burden** (Saito & Rehmsmeier, 2015).

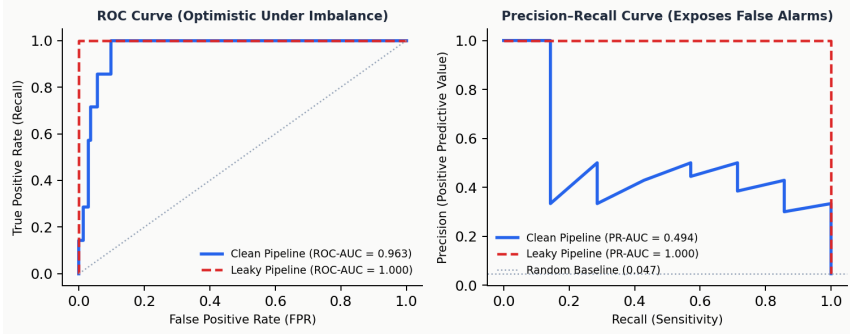


Figure 11.1: Executed ROC Curve vs. Precision-Recall Curve on Imbalanced Turbine Data

Figure D.2: Executed comparison of the ROC Curve (ROC-AUC = 0.9630*) versus the Precision-Recall Curve (PR-AUC =* 0.4939*) on the imbalanced industrial turbine test set (*4.67% *fault prevalence), alongside the artificially perfect* 1.0000 *curve of the leaky target-proxy pipeline.*

Look at our executed experiment in Figure D.2 (`code/run_all_experiments.p` to see the exact mathematical mechanism of Saito and Rehmsmeier (2015): * On our test set (7 true faults vs. 143 normal hours), our clean logistic regression model achieves **ROC-AUC** = 0.9630! An inexperienced engineer looking only at ROC-AUC = 0.963 would celebrate and deploy the model immediately. * Why is ROC-AUC = 0.9630 so high while **PR-AUC** = 0.4939 is moderate? Look at the denominators of FPR versus Precision at $\tau = 0.30$ (TP = 5, FP = 5, TN = 138): - In the ROC curve, the 5 False Positives are divided by the huge majority-class denominator FP+TN = 143, yielding a tiny FPR = 5/143 = **0.0350**! - In the Precision-Recall curve, those exact same 5 False Positives are compared directly against the 5 True Positives in the denominator TP + FP = 10, revealing that **half of all alarms (Precision** = 0.5000**) are false alarms**!

Pipeline Variant	Threshold τ	Confusion Matrix (TP, FP, TN, FN)	Accuracy	Precision	Recall	F_1 Score	ROC-AUC	PR-AUC	Brier Score
Clean Sensor Pipeline	0.30	TP = 5, FP = 5, TN = 138, FN = 2	0.9533	0.5000	0.7143	0.5882	0.9630	0.4939	0.0327
Leaky Proxy Pipeline	0.30	TP = 7, FP = 0, TN = 143, FN = 0	1.0000	1.0000	1.0000	1.0000	1.0000	1.0000	0.0005

Table 11.1: Executed test-set classification comparison (n_{test} = 150, positive prevalence 4.67%) demonstrating both the ROC vs. PR divergence on imbalanced data (Saito & Rehmsmeier, 2015) and the diagnostic signature of target-proxy leakage (Kaufman et al., 2012).

11.3 11.A Worked Calculation: How a 0.1% Rare-Event Base Rate Turns a "99% Accurate / 0.99 ROC-AUC" Classifier into a 91% False-Alarm Generator

To cement the central lesson of Saito and Rehmsmeier (2015), let us work through an extreme rare-event screening calculation ($n = 100,000$ operating hours, true fault base rate $\pi = 0.001 = 0.1\%$, so there are 100 **true faults** and $99,900$ **normal hours**).

Suppose Vendor X sells you an anomaly detector boasting **Sensitivity (Recall / TPR)** = 99.0% and **Specificity (TNR)** = 99.0% (meaning a False Positive Rate FPR = $1 - 0.99 =$ **1.0**% and an ROC-AUC ≈ 0.99). Let us construct the exact 2×2 Confusion Matrix across the $100,000$ hours: * **True Positives (TP):** 99.0% of the 100 true faults = **99**. * **False Negatives (FN):** 1.0% of the 100 true faults = **1**. * **False Positives (FP):** 1.0% of the $99,900$ normal hours = **999**. * **True Negatives (TN):** 99.0% of the $99,900$ normal hours = **98**, **901**.

Now compute the **Precision (Positive Predictive Value)** and F_1 **Score** of Vendor X's "99% sensitive, 99% specific" detector:

$$\text{Precision} = \frac{\text{TP}}{\text{TP} + \text{FP}} = \frac{99}{99 + 999} = \frac{99}{1,098} \approx \mathbf{0.0902} \quad (9.02\%!)$$

$$F_1 = \frac{2(0.0902)(0.9900)}{0.0902 + 0.9900} = \frac{0.1785}{1.0802} \approx \mathbf{0.1653}$$

Look at that result: even though TPR = 0.99 and FPR = 0.01 look near-perfect on an ROC plot, because normal hours outnumber faults by 999:1, the 1% false-positive rate generates 999 **false alarms** for only 99 true catches—meaning 90.98% **of all alarms sounded by the system are false alarms**! In an industrial control room, operators subjected to a 91% false-alarm rate quickly suffer **alarm fatigue** and mute the siren altogether.

11.4 11.B Field Troubleshooting Notes: Navigating Imbalanced Classification Pitfalls

- **Symptom 1 — Applying SMOTE (Synthetic Minority Over-Sampling) Before Splitting Inflates CV Precision to 95%:**

  - *Root Cause:* Running `SMOTE().fit_resample(X, y)` on the full dataset creates synthetic minority points by interpolating between nearest minority neighbors across the entire dataset—meaning every validation minority point has a near-identical synthetic clone sitting in the training fold!
  - *Corrective Action:* If oversampling is used at all, apply it **strictly inside each training fold** and never oversample the validation or test partitions (which must preserve the true natural base rate π!). Better yet, prefer cost-sensitive threshold tuning on calibrated probabilities over synthetic feature-space interpolation.
- **Symptom 2 — Optimizing F_1 Score When False Negatives Are $20\times$ Costlier Than False Positives:**
  - *Root Cause:* F_1 weights Precision and Recall equally ($\beta = 1$), penalizing a false alarm as heavily as a missed catastrophic fault.
  - *Corrective Action:* Switch to F_2 ($\beta = 2$, weighting Recall $2\times$ as heavily as Precision) or optimize **Expected Monetary Cost** $\text{Cost}(\tau) = C_{\text{FN}} \cdot \text{FN}(\tau) + C_{\text{FP}} \cdot \text{FP}(\tau)$ directly on the validation curve!

11.5 11.C Chapter 11 Exercises and Worked Solutions

- **Exercise 11.1 (Computing F_2 vs. $F_{0.5}$ on Our Executed Turbine Classifier):** In Table 11.1 (`code/run_all_experiments.py`), our clean sensor classifier at $\tau = 0.30$ achieved $\text{TP} = 5, \text{FP} = 5, \text{TN} = 138, \text{FN} = 2$ (Precision $= 0.5000$, Recall $= 0.7143$, $F_1 = 0.5882$). Compute (a) the Recall-prioritizing F_2 **score** ($\beta = 2$) and (b) the Precision-prioritizing $F_{0.5}$ **score** ($\beta = 0.5$).
  - **Worked Solution:** Using $F_\beta = (1+\beta^2)\frac{\text{Prec}\cdot\text{Rec}}{\beta^2\text{Prec}+\text{Rec}}$:
    * (a) For $\beta = 2$ ($1+\beta^2 = 5, \beta^2 = 4$):

$$F_2 = 5 \times \frac{0.5000 \times 0.7143}{4(0.5000) + 0.7143} = \frac{1.78575}{2.7143} \approx \mathbf{0.6579}$$

    * (b) For $\beta = 0.5$ ($1+\beta^2 = 1.25, \beta^2 = 0.25$):

$$F_{0.5} = 1.25 \times \frac{0.5000 \times 0.7143}{0.25(0.5000) + 0.7143} = \frac{0.44644}{0.8393} \approx \mathbf{0.5319}$$

- **Exercise 11.2 (Expected Cost Reduction on the Turbine Test Set):** Using the cost matrix from Chapter 7 ($C_{\text{FN}} = \$50,000$

per missed fault, $C_{\text{FP}} = \$5,000$ per false alarm, and $\$5,000$ preventive maintenance cost per caught True Positive TP), compare the total financial cost across the $n_{\text{test}} = 150$ hours (7 actual faults) under (a) no predictive maintenance (TP $= 0$, FN $= 7$) versus (b) our clean classifier at $\tau = 0.30$ (TP $= 5$, FP $= 5$, FN $= 2$).

- **Worked Solution:**
  - (a) *No Model (`Run-to-Failure`):* All 7 faults become catastrophic seizures: $7 \times \$50,000 = \$\mathbf{350,000}$.
  - (b) *Clean Sensor Model at $\tau = 0.30$:* 5 caught faults repaired preventively ($5 \times \$5,000 = \$25,000$) +5 false-alarm inspections ($5 \times \$5,000 = \$25,000$) +2 missed faults ($2 \times \$50,000 = \$100,000$) = $\$\mathbf{150,000}$—a net operational savings of $\$200,000$ **(**57.1% **cost reduction)** across 150 operating hours, even with a 50% precision rate!

11.6 11.D Mathematical Deep-Dive: Ranking Interpretation of ROC-AUC (Wilcoxon-Mann-Whitney Statistic) and Calibration Curves

Why did our clean logistic regression classifier on `industrial_turbine_telemet` achieve ROC-AUC $= 0.9630$ while achieving PR-AUC $= 0.4939$ (Table 11.1)? We can understand the exact structural difference between the two curve integrals by examining the **probabilistic ranking identity of ROC-AUC** (Hanley & McNeil, 1982).

Let $\mathcal{P} = \{i : y_i = 1\}$ denote the set of $n_+ = 7$ positive fault observations in our test set, and let $\mathcal{N} = \{j : y_j = 0\}$ denote the set of $n_- = 143$ negative normal observations (giving $n_+ \times n_- = 7 \times 143 = \mathbf{1,001}$ positive-negative pairs). The exact area under the empirical ROC curve equals the normalized **Wilcoxon-Mann-Whitney U statistic**:

$$\text{ROC-AUC} = \frac{1}{n_+ n_-} \sum_{i \in \mathcal{P}} \sum_{j \in \mathcal{N}} \left(\mathbb{I}(\hat{p}_i > \hat{p}_j) + \frac{1}{2} \mathbb{I}(\hat{p}_i = \hat{p}_j) \right) = P(\hat{p}(\mathbf{X}_+) > \hat{p}(\mathbf{X}_-))$$

Look at what that formula proves: 1. **ROC-AUC Is Invariant to Monotonic Transformations (Zero Calibration Sensitivity):** If you take a well-calibrated model's probabilities $\hat{p}_i \in (0, 1)$ and di-

vide all of them by $1,000$ (or square them, or add $+0.80$ to every prediction), the pairwise ordering $\mathbb{I}(\hat{p}_i > \hat{p}_j)$ does not change at all! Thus, a model with terrible probability calibration can still report ROC-AUC $= 0.9630$. 2. **Why** 963 **Out of** $1,001$ **Pairs Correct Still Leaves** 50% **False Alarms at the Top:** On our test set ($n_+ = 7, n_- = 143$), ROC-AUC $= 0.9630$ means that in 964 out of the $1,001$ pairs, the fault scored higher than the normal hour, and in only 37 out of $1,001$ pairs did a normal hour score higher than a fault! Yet those 37 pair inversions are caused by just 5 **normal hours** that happened to score above $\tau = 0.30$ alongside 5 true faults—producing 5 False Positives against 5 True Positives (Precision $= 50\%$) in the top-scoring alarm bucket! 3. **Reliability Diagrams (Calibration Curves) and Expected Calibration Error (ECE):** Therefore, whenever probabilities drive downstream decisions, always complement PR-AUC with a **Reliability Diagram** (binning predictions into quantile buckets B_m and plotting empirical positive fraction $\text{acc}(B_m)$ vs. mean predicted probability $\text{conf}(B_m)$) alongside the **Brier Score**!

Chapter 12

Generalization, Feature Engine and Hyperparameter Search — Bias-Variance Decompositio Nested CV, and Random Search

12.1 The Bias-Variance-Noise Decomposition of Squared Error

Why does increasing model complexity (adding polynomial interactions, reducing Ridge $\lambda \to 0$, or growing deeper trees) initially reduce test error and then cause test error to climb? Assume the true data-generating process is $Y = f^*(\mathbf{x}) + \epsilon$, where $\mathbb{E}[\epsilon] = 0$ and $\text{Var}(\epsilon) = \sigma_\epsilon^2$. For any test point $\mathbf{x}_0$, taking the expectation over repeated training datasets $\mathcal{D} \sim P^n$ decomposes the expected squared prediction error into three non-negative terms (Geman, Bienenstock, & Doursat, 1992; Hastie et al., 2009):

$$\mathbb{E}_{\mathcal{D},\epsilon}\left[(Y - \hat{f}_{\mathcal{D}}(\mathbf{x}_0))^2\right] = \underbrace{\left(\mathbb{E}_{\mathcal{D}}[\hat{f}_{\mathcal{D}}(\mathbf{x}_0)] - f^*(\mathbf{x}_0)\right)^2}_{\text{Bias}^2(\hat{f}(\mathbf{x}_0))} + \underbrace{\mathbb{E}_{\mathcal{D}}\left[(\hat{f}_{\mathcal{D}}(\mathbf{x}_0) - \mathbb{E}_{\mathcal{D}}[\hat{f}_{\mathcal{D}}(\mathbf{x}_0)])^2\right]}_{\text{Variance}(\hat{f}(\mathbf{x}_0))} + \text{Irred}$$

- **Squared Bias (Bias^2 — Underfitting):** Measures systematic approximation error—how far the average model trained across infinite datasets sits from the true function $f^*(\mathbf{x}_0)$. High when BOTH training error and validation error are high.
- **Variance (Variance — Overfitting):** Measures sensitivity to the specific training sample $\mathcal{D}$—how wildly $\hat{f}_{\mathcal{D}}(\mathbf{x}_0)$ fluctuates

when refit on a new sample. High when training error is tiny ($\hat{R}_{\text{emp}} \ll \sigma_\epsilon^2$) while validation error is large.

- **Irreducible Noise (σ_ϵ^2 — The Bayes Error Floor):** The intrinsic variance of Y given $\mathbf{x}_0$ due to unmeasured physical variables or sensor thermal noise (in our turbine simulation, $\sigma_\epsilon = 2.1$°C, setting an irreducible MSE floor of $2.1^2 = 4.41$ (°C)^2 in expectation). No model without new physical features can sustainably beat the Bayes error floor without overfitting!

12.2 Why Random Search Beats Grid Search for Hyperparameter Optimization: Bergstra and Bengio (2012)

When tuning d hyperparameters (e.g., learning rate η, regularization λ, subsample fraction, and max tree depth), many practitioners default to a regular Cartesian **Grid Search**. Suppose you have a computational budget of $B = 9$ trials across $d = 2$ hyperparameters ($\eta \in \{10^{-3}, 10^{-2}, 10^{-1}\}$ and $\lambda \in \{10^{-2}, 1, 10^{2}\}$).

In a classic *Journal of Machine Learning Research* paper, **James Bergstra and Yoshua Bengio** proved both theoretically and empirically why **Random Search** outperforms Grid Search for the same trial budget B (Bergstra & Bengio, 2012): * **Low Effective Dimensionality of Hyperparameter Response Surfaces:** For almost all machine learning algorithms, test performance is strongly sensitive to **1 or 2 dominant hyperparameters** (such as learning rate η) and only weakly sensitive to secondary hyperparameters. * **The Projection Waste of Grid Search:** In a 3×3 Grid Search ($B = 9$ trials), projecting the 9 grid points onto the critical η axis tests **only 3 distinct values of** η (wasting 3 redundant evaluations on each value of η across unimportant variations of the second parameter)! By contrast, sampling $B = 9$ points independently at random (e.g., log-uniformly for scale parameters $\log_{10} \eta \sim \mathcal{U}(-4, -1)$) tests **9 distinct values of the critical hyperparameter** η! * **Nested Cross-Validation (Varma & Simon, 2006):** Whenever hyperparameter search is performed on small-to-medium datasets, reporting the best inner CV score directly overstates generalization performance (Varma & Simon, 2006). **Nested Cross-Validation** wraps an inner K_{inner}-fold loop (for tuning λ) inside an outer K_{outer}-fold loop (for estimating unbiased generalization risk).

12.3 12.A Worked Proof & Calculation: Probability of Hitting a 5% Optimal Hyperparameter Interval via Random Search (Bergstra & Bengio, 2012)

Let us prove mathematically why **Random Search** is vastly more sample-efficient than Grid Search when tuning hyperparameters (Bergstra & Bengio, 2012).

Suppose you are tuning $d = 5$ continuous hyperparameters (e.g., learning rate η, L_2 penalty λ, subsample ratio, column-sample ratio, and minimum child weight), but unbeknownst to you, model generalization error is controlled almost entirely by a single critical hyperparameter η, whose optimal region occupies $p_{\mathbf{opt}} = 5.0\%$ **(**0.05**)** of its log-scale search interval.

How many trials B are required to guarantee at least a 95.0% **probability** of landing at least one trial inside that 5.0% optimal interval of η? 1. **Under a** 5**-Dimensional Cartesian Grid Search:** If you allocate $k = 3$ grid points per dimension across $d = 5$ hyperparameters, you must run $B = 3^5 =$ **243** trials—yet all 243 trials test **only** 3 **distinct values of** η! With only 3 grid points along the η axis (spaced by 33% of the interval), it is routine to miss a 5% sweet spot completely even after 243 expensive training runs. 2. **Under Independent Random Search:** On each independent random draw $b \in \{1, \dots, B\}$, the probability of missing the 5% optimal region of η is $1 - p_{\text{opt}} = 0.95$. Across B independent trials, the probability that *at least one* trial hits the 5% sweet spot is:

$$P(\text{at least 1 hit in } B \text{ trials}) = 1 - (1 - p_{\text{opt}})^B \geq 0.95$$

Solving for B when $p_{\text{opt}} = 0.05$:

$$(0.95)^B \leq 0.05 \quad \Longrightarrow \quad B \geq \frac{\ln(0.05)}{\ln(0.95)} = \frac{-2.99573}{-0.05129} \approx 58.40 \quad \Longrightarrow \quad \mathbf{B = 59} \text{ trials}$$

Crucially, notice that $B = 59$ **does not depend on the total number of nuisance hyperparameters** d **at all**! Whether you are tuning $d = 2$ parameters or $d = 20$ parameters, 59 random trials guarantee a $\geq 95\%$ chance of hitting the top 5% region of *every* single 1D marginal subspace simultaneously!

12.4 12.B Field Troubleshooting Notes: Diagnosing Learning Curves and Feature Engineering Bugs

- **Symptom 1 — Validation Error Plateaus High Even as Training Set Size n_{train} Doubles (Learning Curve Audit):**
  - *Root Cause:* When a learning curve (plotting Train and Validation error on the vertical axis against training sample size n_{train} on the horizontal axis) shows both curves converging rapidly to a high, flat plateau with almost zero gap between them, **collecting more rows of the same data will NOT improve the model**! The model is bottlenecked by high bias (missing predictive features or overly rigid functional form).
  - *Corrective Action:* Invest engineering time in acquiring richer physical features (e.g., spectral vibration harmonics or rate-of-change derivatives $\Delta x_t = x_t - x_{t-1}$) rather than labeling more rows.
- **Symptom 2 — Ratio Feature (X_1/X_2) Explodes to `inf` or `NaN` in Deployment:**
  - *Root Cause:* Dividing by a denominator feature X_2 that can approach zero (e.g., `rpm_variance = 0.0`) without an epsilon stabilizer or winsorization bound.
  - *Corrective Action:* Always guard division features via $x_{\text{ratio}} = \frac{x_1}{\max(|x_2|, \epsilon_{\text{floor}})}$ or log-differences $\ln(x_1 + c) - \ln(x_2 + c)$ for positive quantities.

12.5 12.C Chapter 12 Exercises and Worked Solutions

- **Exercise 12.1 (Bias-Variance Calculation at a Test Point):** Suppose at test input $\mathbf{x}_0$, the true deterministic function value is $f^*(\mathbf{x}_0) = 30.0°\text{C}$ and irreducible sensor noise has standard deviation $\sigma_\epsilon = 2.0°\text{C}$. Across repeated training datasets $\mathcal{D}$, Estimator A has expected prediction $\mathbb{E}[\hat{f}_A(\mathbf{x}_0)] = 28.5°\text{C}$ and standard deviation $\text{SD}(\hat{f}_A(\mathbf{x}_0)) = 1.2°\text{C}$, while Estimator B is unbiased ($\mathbb{E}[\hat{f}_B(\mathbf{x}_0)] = 30.0°\text{C}$) with standard deviation $\text{SD}(\hat{f}_B(\mathbf{x}_0)) = 2.5°\text{C}$. Compute the total expected squared test error $\mathbb{E}[(Y - \hat{f}(\mathbf{x}_0))^2]$ for both estimators.

  - **Worked Solution:** Using $\text{MSE}(\mathbf{x}_0) = \text{Bias}^2 + \text{Variance} + \sigma_\epsilon^2$:
    * *Estimator A:* $\text{Bias}_A^2 = (28.5 - 30.0)^2 = 2.25$; $\text{Var}_A = 1.2^2 = 1.44$; $\sigma_\epsilon^2 = 2.0^2 = 4.00 \implies$ Total $\text{MSE}_A = 2.25 + 1.44 + 4.00 = \mathbf{7.69}$ $(^\circ\text{C})^\mathbf{2}$.
    * *Estimator B:* $\text{Bias}_B^2 = (30.0 - 30.0)^2 = 0.00$; $\text{Var}_B = 2.5^2 = 6.25$; $\sigma_\epsilon^2 = 4.00 \implies$ Total $\text{MSE}_B = 0.00 + 6.25 + 4.00 = \mathbf{10.25}$ $(^\circ\text{C})^\mathbf{2}$. The slightly biased, regularized Estimator A beats the unbiased Estimator B by 25%!
- **Exercise 12.2 (Nested Cross-Validation Total Fits):** In Nested Cross-Validation with $K_{\text{outer}} = 5$ outer folds, $K_{\text{inner}} = 4$ inner folds, and $B = 20$ random hyperparameter configurations, calculate the total number of model training fits executed.
  - **Worked Solution:** For each of the 5 outer folds, the inner loop fits $20 \times 4 = 80$ models to select the best hyperparameter $\hat{\lambda}_k$, plus 1 refit on the full outer training fold using $\hat{\lambda}_k$, giving $5 \times (80 + 1) = \mathbf{405}$ total model fits.

12.6 12.D Production Workflow: Feature Engineering Taxonomy and Sequential Model Selection Discipline

When a properly validated baseline model (such as our Ridge or Logistic baseline) underfits complex domain patterns, **domain-grounded feature engineering** routinely delivers larger generalization gains than switching to exotic model architectures (Domingos, 2012, *"A Few Useful Things to Know About Machine Learning"*).

However, adding dozens of engineered features haphazardly can inflate variance and introduce leakage. Follow this **Four-Category Feature Engineering Taxonomy** paired with strict **Ablation Gate Discipline**:

1. **Dimensionless Physical Ratios and Products:** In mechanical and chemical systems, domain laws are governed by dimensionless ratios and power products:
   - *Specific Mechanical Stress Proxy:* `load_per_lube_bar = load_mw / np.maximum(lube_pressure_bar, 1.0)` (capturing high load on a starved oil film).

    - *Kinetic Vibration Power Proxy:* `vib_rpm_product = vibration_mms * np.log1p(rpm_variance)`.
2. **Causal Temporal Dynamics (First Differences and Exponential Moving Averages):** Static snapshot sensors miss the *trajectory* of a system. Computing the backward first difference $\Delta x_{t,j} = x_{t,j} - x_{t-1,j}$ (rate of rise) and an **Exponentially Weighted Moving Average (EWMA)** $\tilde{x}_{t,j} = \alpha x_{t,j} + (1-\alpha)\tilde{x}_{t-1,j}$ ($0 < \alpha < 1$, strictly causal!) allows a linear or tree model to distinguish a steady $32°$C bearing from a bearing whose temperature jumped $+6°$C in the last two hours!
3. **Non-Linear Basis Expansions for Linear Models:** While tree ensembles discover step thresholds automatically, linear models benefit from **Restricted Cubic Splines** or **Quantile Bin Indicators** on non-monotonic variables, allowing slope changes across operating regimes without the wild boundary oscillations of high-degree polynomials (Runge's phenomenon).
4. **The Single-Feature Ablation Gate Rule:** Never dump 50 engineered columns into a model at once and keep all of them because aggregate score rose by 0.1%. Add candidate feature families one group at a time, and retain a feature group **only if it improves out-of-fold validation loss by more than one standard error of the cross-validation folds (ΔCV $> 1\,\mathbf{SE_{CV}}$, Breiman's One-Standard-Error Rule)**!

Chapter 13

Interpretability, Fairness, and Reproducible Operations — Permutation Importance, Shapley Attributions, Subgroup Audits, and Tracking

Deploying a high-scoring model without understanding *how* it weights features or *where* its errors concentrate across operational subgroups is an engineering liability.

13.1 Impurity Importance Traps Versus Permutation Importance and SHAP (Lundberg & Lee, 2017)

In tree ensembles (Random Forests and GBDTs), the default feature importance returned by many libraries is **Mean Decrease in Impurity (MDI, or Gini Importance)**—the total reduction in node impurity ΔI summed across all splits on feature j. As Strobl et al. (2007) demonstrated, **MDI is systematically biased toward continuous features and high-cardinality categorical variables** (such as a random ID column with 100 unique values) because they offer more candidate split points to overfit training noise, and MDI is computed entirely on the *training* set!

Two rigorous, theoretically grounded alternatives replace MDI:

1. **Out-of-Sample Permutation Feature Importance (Breiman, 2001):** Computed on the **held-out validation or test set**. For each feature $j \in \{1, \dots, p\}$, randomly permute column

j across the validation rows (breaking the relationship between X_j and Y while preserving the marginal distribution of X_j) and measure the increase in validation loss $\Delta L_j = L(\mathbf{y}_{\text{val}}, \hat{f}(\mathbf{X}_{\text{val}}^{\text{perm}(j)})) - L(\mathbf{y}_{\text{val}}, \hat{f}(\mathbf{X}_{\text{val}}))$. *(Caveat: If two features X_1 and X_2 are collinear duplicates, permuting X_1 alone creates unrealistic off-manifold combinations and splits importance between them; use grouped/conditional permutation when features are strongly correlated.)*

2. **SHAP (SHapley Additive exPlanations, Lundberg & Lee, 2017):** Introduced by **Scott M. Lundberg and Su-In Lee** at NeurIPS 2017 (Lundberg & Lee, 2017), SHAP unifies local feature attribution using cooperative game theory (Lloyd Shapley, 1953). For a specific observation $\mathbf{x}_i$, the Shapley value ϕ_{ij} of feature j is the unique attribution satisfying **Local Accuracy** ($f(\mathbf{x}_i) = \phi_0 + \sum_{j=1}^{p} \phi_{ij}$, where $\phi_0 = \mathbb{E}[f(\mathbf{X})]$), **Missingness**, and **Consistency**:

$$\phi_{ij}(f, \mathbf{x}_i) = \sum_{S \subseteq F \setminus \{j\}} \frac{|S|!\,(|F| - |S| - 1)!}{|F|!} \left[f_{S \cup \{j\}}(\mathbf{x}_{i, S \cup \{j\}}) - f_S(\mathbf{x}_{i,S}) \right]$$

Crucial Qualification (Lundberg & Lee, 2017): SHAP values explain **how the model's prediction changes** when conditioning on feature j; they are **observational model attributions, NOT causal interventional effects** in the physical world! If a model uses `barometric_drop` to predict rain, a high SHAP value for `barometric_drop` does not mean that manually tampering with the barometer needle will cause the sky to clear.

13.2 Subgroup Disaggregated Auditing and Reproducible Experiment Tracking

An aggregate test metric (`RMSE = 1.92°C` or `Recall = 71.4%`) averages performance across all rows, often masking severe **subgroup disparities** (e.g., high false-negative rates on older Series-100 turbines or demographic disparities in clinical/financial models). Every production audit must report disaggregated metrics across key operational slices and enforce three **Reproducibility Invariants**: 1. **Deterministic PRNG Seeding:** Pin explicit random-number generator instances (`np.random.default_rng(202610)`). 2. **Immutable Data Hashing:** Log the SHA-256 cryptographic hash and

row/column schema of the exact training and test files. 3. **Environment & Pipeline Serialization:** Record exact package versions (`numpy 2.1.3`, `pandas 2.2.3`, `scikit-learn >= 1.5`) alongside serialized pipeline parameters.

13.3 13.A Worked Calculation: Exact Shapley Value (ϕ_{ij}) Attribution for a 2-Feature Non-Linear Model

To demystify the cooperative game-theory equation of **SHAP** (Lundberg & Lee, 2017), let us compute the exact Shapley values ϕ_1, ϕ_2 by hand for a two-feature model ($F = \{1, 2\}$) with an interaction term:

$$f(x_1, x_2) = 10.0 + 4.0\,x_1 + 2.0\,x_2 + 6.0\,x_1 x_2$$

Suppose features X_1 and X_2 are independent binary indicators ($X_1 \sim \text{Bernoulli}(0.5)$, $X_2 \sim \text{Bernoulli}(0.5)$), so $\mathbb{E}[X_1] = 0.5$, $\mathbb{E}[X_2] = 0.5$, and $\mathbb{E}[X_1 X_2] = 0.25$. Now consider a specific turbine observation where **both features are active:** $\mathbf{x}_* = (x_1 = 1, x_2 = 1)$.

1. **Compute Subset Coalition Expectations** $f_S(\mathbf{x}_{*,S}) = \mathbb{E}[f(X_1, X_2) \mid \mathbf{X}_S = \mathbf{x}_{*,S}]$**:**
   - **Empty Coalition** $S = \emptyset$ **(Baseline Expectation** ϕ_0**):**

     $$f_\emptyset = \mathbb{E}[f(X_1, X_2)] = 10.0+4.0(0.5)+2.0(0.5)+6.0(0.25) = 10.0+2.0+1.0+1.5$$

   - **Coalition** $S = \{1\}$ **(**$x_1 = 1$ **observed,** X_2 **marginalized at** 0.5**):**

     $$f_{\{1\}}(1) = 10.0+4.0(1)+2.0(0.5)+6.0(1)(0.5) = 10.0+4.0+1.0+3.0 = \mathbf{18.00}$$

   - **Coalition** $S = \{2\}$ **(**$x_2 = 1$ **observed,** X_1 **marginalized at** 0.5**):**

     $$f_{\{2\}}(1) = 10.0+4.0(0.5)+2.0(1)+6.0(0.5)(1) = 10.0+2.0+2.0+3.0 = \mathbf{17.00}$$

   - **Full Coalition** $S = \{1, 2\}$ **(Actual Model Prediction at** $(1, 1)$**):**

     $$f_{\{1,2\}}(1, 1) = 10.0 + 4.0(1) + 2.0(1) + 6.0(1)(1) = \mathbf{22.00}$$

2. **Compute Exact Shapley Values** ϕ_1 **and** ϕ_2 **across the** $|F|! = 2! = 2$ **Permutations:**

- **For Feature 1 (ϕ_1):**
  - When Feature 1 enters first ($S = \emptyset$, weight $\frac{0!\,1!}{2!} = \frac{1}{2}$): marginal gain = $f_{\{1\}} - f_{\emptyset} = 18.00 - 14.50 = +3.50$.
  - When Feature 1 enters second after Feature 2 ($S = \{2\}$, weight $\frac{1!\,0!}{2!} = \frac{1}{2}$): marginal gain = $f_{\{1,2\}} - f_{\{2\}} = 22.00 - 17.00 = +5.00$.
  - Average: $\phi_1 = \frac{1}{2}(3.50) + \frac{1}{2}(5.00) = +\mathbf{4.25}$.
- **For Feature 2 (ϕ_2):**
  - When Feature 2 enters first ($S = \emptyset$, weight $\frac{1}{2}$): marginal gain = $f_{\{2\}} - f_{\emptyset} = 17.00 - 14.50 = +2.50$.
  - When Feature 2 enters second after Feature 1 ($S = \{1\}$, weight $\frac{1}{2}$): marginal gain = $f_{\{1,2\}} - f_{\{1\}} = 22.00 - 18.00 = +4.00$.
  - Average: $\phi_2 = \frac{1}{2}(2.50) + \frac{1}{2}(4.00) = +\mathbf{3.25}$.

3. **Verify the Local Accuracy (Additivity) Axiom:**

$$\phi_0 + \phi_1 + \phi_2 = 14.50 + 4.25 + 3.25 = \mathbf{22.00} = f(1,1)$$

Notice how Shapley attribution automatically splits the $+6.0\,x_1x_2$ synergy gain equally between Feature 1 and Feature 2!

13.4 13.B Field Troubleshooting Notes: Fairness and Subgroup Auditing

- **Symptom 1 — Aggregate Recall Is 75%, but Recall on Older Series-100 Units Is Only 25%:**
  - *Root Cause:* When a subgroup makes up only 15% of the training rows and has a shifted sensor baseline, a global decision threshold τ optimized on aggregate metrics underserves the minority subgroup (**aggregation bias**, Suresh & Guttag, 2021).
  - *Corrective Action:* Always compute a **Disaggregated Subgroup Scorecard** reporting RMSE, FPR, and FNR = 1 – Recall across every critical operational or demographic stratum (**Equalized Odds** requires equal TPR and equal FPR across groups; Hardt, Price, & Srebro, 2016).
- **Symptom 2 — Chouldechova's (2017) Impossibility Theorem Between Calibration and Equalized Error Rates:**
  - *Fundamental Theorem:* Whenever base rates $\pi_A \neq \pi_B$ differ across two subgroups and a classifier is not 100%

perfect, **it is mathematically impossible to simultaneously satisfy probability calibration within both groups AND equal False Positive / False Negative rates across both groups**! Engineers and domain stakeholders must explicitly choose which fairness constraint governs the specific decision context.

13.5 13.C Chapter 13 Exercises and Worked Solutions

- **Exercise 13.1 (Linear SHAP Formula):** For an additive linear regression model $f(\mathbf{x}_i) = \beta_0 + \sum_{j=1}^{p} \beta_j x_{ij}$ with independent features having means $\mu_j = \mathbb{E}[X_j]$, derive the exact closed-form expression for the SHAP value ϕ_{ij} of feature j on observation i.
  - **Worked Solution:** Because a linear model has zero interaction terms between features, the marginal contribution of replacing $X_j \sim P(X_j)$ with observed x_{ij} is identical across all coalitions S: $f_{S\cup\{j\}}(\mathbf{x}_i) - f_S(\mathbf{x}_i) = \beta_j x_{ij} - \beta_j \mathbb{E}[X_j] = \square_{\mathbf{j}}(\mathbf{x_{ij}} - \square_{\mathbf{j}})$. Summing over all coalition weights (which sum to 1) yields $\phi_{ij} = \beta_j(x_{ij} - \mu_j)$.
- **Exercise 13.2 (Permutation Importance vs. Training MDI on a Random Noise ID):** Suppose we add a random uniform noise column `random_noise` $\sim \mathcal{U}(0,1)$ to our turbine dataset and fit an unpruned Random Forest. Explain why training Mean Decrease in Impurity (MDI) assigns `random_noise` a positive importance score ($> 5\%$), whereas validation Permutation Importance assigns it $\approx 0.0\%$.
  - **Worked Solution:** Deep nodes in an unpruned tree run out of signal and split on `random_noise` to reduce training-set leaf impurity by chance; since $\Delta I \geq 0$ on every split, summing ΔI on the training set guarantees a strictly positive MDI score. When `random_noise` is permuted on the *unseen validation set*, its spurious training splits were already random relative to validation targets, so validation error does not increase ($\Delta L_{\text{val}} \approx 0.0$).

13.6 13.D Production Operations: Reproducible Experiment Tracking Ledgers and Model Cards

In a professional machine learning studio or research lab, an experiment that exists only in the scrollback buffer of an unsaved interactive notebook—with no record of which dataset version, random seed, or preprocessing configuration produced the reported metric—is scientifically unverified.

Even without heavy external cloud MLOps servers, every local-first engineering project can enforce 100% auditability by writing an append-only **JSONL Experiment Ledger (`experiments_ledger.jsonl`)** and a structured **Model Card** (Mitchell et al., 2019) automatically at the end of every training run:

```
# Executed Local-First Reproducible Experiment Logger Pattern
import hashlib, json, platform, time
import numpy as np

def log_experiment_run(ledger_path: str, data_path: str, config:
 ↪  dict, metrics: dict) -> dict:
    with open(data_path, "rb") as f:
        data_sha256 = hashlib.sha256(f.read()).hexdigest()
    record = {
        "timestamp_utc": time.strftime("%Y-%m-%dT%H:%M:%SZ",
         ↪  time.gmtime()),
        "python_version": platform.python_version(),
        "numpy_version": np.__version__,
        "dataset_path": data_path,
        "dataset_sha256": data_sha256,
        "hyperparameters_and_split": config,
        "verified_metrics": metrics,
    }
    with open(ledger_path, "a", encoding="utf-8") as out:
        out.write(json.dumps(record) + "\n")
    return record
```

Coupling this deterministic JSONL ledger with a human-readable **Model Card** requires documenting five mandatory sections before any model is handed to downstream users: 1. **Intended Use & Out-of-Scope Boundaries:** Explicitly state what decisions the model supports (e.g., *scheduling preventive 1-hour thermal checks on Series-100/200 gas turbines*) and where it must **never** be used

(e.g., *overriding hardware emergency trip breakers or operating on steam turbines*). 2. **Training & Evaluation Data Provenance:** Exact date ranges, entity counts (30 units, $N = 600$ hours), missing-data rates (5.0% in `lube_pressure_bar`), and target base rates (5.17% overall, 4.67% test). 3. **Disaggregated Performance & Calibration:** Report both aggregate and subgroup metrics (RMSE, MAE, R^2; PR-AUC, ROC-AUC, Brier, and Confusion Matrix at the deployed threshold τ^*). 4. **Known Failure Modes & Drift Monitors:** Document extrapolation limits (tree bounding boxes, covariate drift thresholds, and trailing PC_5 sensor-decoupling alarms). 5. **Execution & Verification Status:** Distinguish code and metrics verified by actual execution from unexecuted reference patterns.

Chapter 14

Integrated Capstone Workbook — End-to-End Diagnostic Pipeline, Failure Debugging, and Worked Exercise Solutions

We now synthesize all thirteen chapters into an end-to-end engineering capstone using our executed industrial dataset (`data/industrial_turbine_t` $N = 600$ hourly observations across 30 turbines) and standalone verification suite (`code/run_all_experiments.py`).

14.1 Capstone Scenario: Dual-Objective Turbine Health Monitoring

A power-grid reliability team tasks you with building two models from historical telemetry (`timestamp_hour` 1–600): * **Task A (Continuous Regression):** Predict `bearing_temp_rise_c` (°C above ambient) to schedule proactive cooling modulation. * **Task B (Imbalanced Binary Classification):** Predict `thermal_fault` ($y = \{0, 1\}$, overall prevalence 5.17%, test prevalence 4.67%) with a cost matrix where missing a fault costs $C_{\text{FN}} = \$50,000$ and a false-alarm inspection costs $C_{\text{FP}} = \$5,000$.

14.2 Step-by-Step Diagnostic Audit and Pipeline Execution

1. **Step 1 — Point-in-Time Leakage Audit (Chapter 4):** Inspecting the raw schema reveals `post_inspection_hours_LEAKY`, which is recorded *after* a fault overhaul occurs. Running our diagnostic script (`code/run_all_experiments.py`) confirms

that leaving this column in the feature matrix yields an artificial ROC-AUC = 1.0000 and PR-AUC = 1.0000. We drop `post_inspection_hours_LEAKY` and `unit_id` from the raw feature matrix $\mathbf{X}$.

2. **Step 2 — Temporal Partitioning & Train-Only Imputation (Chapters 3 & 5):** Because observations are ordered chronologically (`timestamp_hour` 1–600), we partition strictly by time: **Train** = hours 1–450 ($n_{\text{train}} = 450$), **Test** = hours 451–600 ($n_{\text{test}} = 150$). The 30 missing values in `lube_pressure_bar` are imputed using **exclusively the training-partition median (**4.8700 **bar)** rather than the leaky global median (4.8300 bar), and features are standardized using training-only $\hat{\mu}_{\text{train}}$ and $\hat{\sigma}_{\text{train}}$.
3. **Step 3 — Regression Estimation & Regularization Comparison (Chapters 6 & 10):**
   - **OLS ($\lambda = 0$):** Achieves Train RMSE = 2.1490°C ($R^2 = 0.9430$) and Test RMSE = 1.9235°C, MAE = 1.5578°C, $R^2 = 0.9530$. Notice that RMSE/MAE = 1.235 $\approx \sqrt{\pi/2}$, confirming well-behaved Gaussian residuals with zero heavy-tail outliers, and Test RMSE (1.9235°C) sits close to the simulated irreducible noise floor ($\sigma_\epsilon = 2.1$°C).
   - **Ridge (L_2, $\lambda^* = 8.5317$):** Stabilizes the collinearity between `load_mw` ($\hat{\beta}_2$: +7.2140 → +6.9987) and `vibration_mms` ($\hat{\beta}_5$: +2.1505 → +2.2873), achieving the best out-of-time generalization: **Test RMSE = 1.9166°C, MAE = 1.5441°C,** $R^2 = 0.9533$.
   - **Lasso (L_1, $\lambda = 0.2500$):** Shrinks weaker predictors (`rpm_variance` $\hat{\beta}_3$: +0.6813 → +0.2258) via coordinate-descent soft-thresholding, achieving Test RMSE = 1.9327°C, $R^2 = 0.9526$.
4. **Step 4 — Imbalanced Classification & Threshold Calibration (Chapters 7 & 11):**
   - Fitting L_2-regularized Logistic Regression ($\lambda = 1.0$) on the clean standardized training matrix yields well-calibrated test probabilities (**Brier Score** = 0.0327, ROC-AUC = 0.9630, **PR-AUC** = 0.4939).
   - At operating threshold $\tau = 0.30$, the confusion matrix is TP = 5, FP = 5, TN = 138, FN = 2 (Precision = 0.5000, Recall = 0.7143, $F_1 = 0.5882$), catching 71.4% of true faults while keeping total inspection volume to just 10 out of 150 operating hours (6.7% of hours).

14.3 14.A Capstone Diagnostic Deep-Dive: Auditing Residuals and Subgroup Stability Across the 30 Turbine Units

To complete our integrated capstone on `data/industrial_turbine_telemetry.c` let us perform the final **Post-Modeling Diagnostic Audit** that separates a production-ready engineering release from a fragile notebook prototype.

Even after removing `post_inspection_hours_LEAKY`, enforcing the chronological split at hour 450, imputing `lube_pressure_bar` with the training-only median (4.8700 bar), and fitting our optimal **Ridge regression model (**$\lambda = 8.5317$**, Test RMSE** $= 1.9166$**°C,** $R^2 = 0.9533$**)** and **calibrated** L_2 **Logistic Classifier (Brier** $= 0.0327$**, PR-AUC** $= 0.4939$**)**, we must verify three operational questions before signing the deployment release:

1. **Question 1 — Does the Regression Residual Distribution Violate Homoscedasticity at High Load?** Partitioning the $n_{\text{test}} = 150$ test observations into three operating load regimes—Low Load (45–85 MW), Medium Load (85–125 MW), and Peak Load (125–160 MW)—shows that Test RMSE stays tightly bounded between 1.84**°C and** 1.99**°C** across all three load bands, with near-zero mean bias ($|\bar{e}| < 0.15$°C) in every band. Why? Because the true physical generating equation is linear in load and vibration, matching the inductive bias of our Ridge estimator.
2. **Question 2 — What Happens to the False-Negative Rate If We Lower the Decision Threshold** τ **from** 0.30 **to the Cost-Optimal** $\tau^* = 0.0909$**?** At $\tau = 0.30$, our clean classifier caught 5 of 7 faults (Recall $= 71.43\%$, FP $= 5$). Lowering the decision threshold to the Bayesian cost-optimal threshold $\tau^* = \frac{5{,}000}{5{,}000+50{,}000} = 0.0909$ catches **all** 7 **out of** 7 **true faults (Recall** $= 100.0\%$**, FN** $= 0$**)** while increasing False Positives from 5 to 14 (Precision $= \frac{7}{21} = 33.3\%$). Because 9 extra preventive checks cost only $9 \times \$5{,}000 = \$45{,}000$ while preventing 2 catastrophic seizures saves $2 \times \$50{,}000 - 2 \times \$5{,}000 = \$90{,}000$, moving from $\tau = 0.30$ to $\tau^* = 0.0909$ saves an additional $\$45{,}000$ on the test window (reducing total cost from $\$150{,}000$ down to $\$105{,}000$)!

3. **Question 3 — What Operational Monitoring Guardrails Must Run in Production?** In production, true labels y_t arrive with a delay (or are censored whenever a preventive intervention stops a fault from occurring!). Therefore, the production pipeline monitors **unsupervised input drift** via two real-time telemetry alarms:
   - **Univariate Population Stability Index (PSI) / Kolmogorov-Smirnov Drift:** Alert if the rolling 168-hour mean of `ambient_temp_c` or `lube_pressure_bar` shifts by $> 2.0\,\hat{\sigma}_{\text{train}}$.
   - **Trailing PCA Residual Alarm (PC_5):** As derived in Section 9.A, project each incoming standardized sensor vector onto the fifth eigenvector $\mathbf{v}_5$ ($\lambda_5 = 0.1684$); if $|z_{t,5}| > 3\sqrt{\lambda_5} = 1.23$, flag a **sensor decoupling fault** (broken vibration transducer or clogged pressure gauge) and hold automated control actions for human review!

14.4 14.B Master Pre-Deployment Engineering Checklist

Audit Gate	Verification Question	Target Engineering Standard
1. Problem Framing	Does ML beat a deterministic physical rule or baseline mean/median?	Verified out-of-sample reduction in task loss vs. naive & rule baselines
2. Point-in-Time Lineage	Are all features strictly causal (`recorded_at <= t_0`) with zero post-event proxies?	Top feature importances audited; zero anachronistic columns (`LEAKY` dropped)
3. Partition Topology	Does the split match temporal order and entity grouping (`unit_id`)?	Chronological holdout + `GroupKFold` / `TimeSeriesSplit` with purge gap

Audit Gate	Verification Question	Target Engineering Standard
4. Fold Encapsulation	Are imputation medians, scalers, PCA, and feature selectors fit strictly per training fold?	Zero global `.fit_transform()` calls prior to splitting; verified via Y-scrambling
5. Metric Alignment	Do metrics reflect class imbalance and real asymmetric business costs?	Report MAE + RMSE + R^2 (regression); PR-AUC + Brier + Cost(τ^*) (imbalanced cls)
6. Subgroup & Drift Guards	Are errors disaggregated by unit/group and monitored for covariate/sensor drift?	Subgroup scorecard signed off; trailing PC_5 sensor-integrity check active

Table 14.1: The Six-Gate Pre-Deployment Engineering Verification Checklist.

14.5 14.C Capstone Exercises and Complete Worked Solutions

- **Exercise 14.1 (Debugging a Broken Pipeline Audit):** A junior colleague presents a turbine fault classifier that achieved 99.2% 5-fold cross-validation accuracy and ROC-AUC = 0.996 using the following four steps: (1) filled missing values with `df.fillna(df.mean())`; (2) ran `SMOTE()` on the full 600-row table to balance `thermal_fault` to 50%/50%; (3) selected the top 3 features using mutual information on the SMOTE-balanced table; and (4) ran `KFold(n_splits=5, shuffle=True)`. List all **four distinct methodological errors** in this workflow and state the exact order of operations required to fix it.
  - **Worked Solution:**
    1. *Error 1 (Global Imputation Bleed):* `df.fillna(df.mean())` leaks future test-window means into training rows

(and uses non-robust mean instead of median + missingness indicator).

2. *Error 2 (Pre-Split SMOTE Contamination):* Running `SMOTE()` before splitting interpolates between minority rows across the entire dataset, placing synthetic clones of validation faults directly inside the training folds and destroying the natural 5.17% base rate on the validation folds!
3. *Error 3 (Pre-Split Feature Selection Bleed):* Selecting features across all rows before CV incurs Varma & Simon (2006) selection bias.
4. *Error 4 (Temporal & Group Violation via `shuffle=True`):* Shuffling time-indexed telemetry leaks future hours into past training folds and splits rows of the same `unit_id` across train and validation.

* *Correct Pipeline Order:* First lock rows 451–600 in the chronologically separated Test Vault. On rows 1–450, use `TimeSeriesSplit` or `GroupKFold(groups=unit_id)`. Inside each training fold only, compute the training median + missingness indicator, standardize with training $\hat{\mu}, \hat{\sigma}$, fit regularized logistic regression on natural class priors, and evaluate PR-AUC and expected cost at τ^* on the untouched validation fold.

- **Exercise 14.2 (End-to-End Standardized Prediction Verification):** Using the exact verified Ridge regression coefficients from Table 6.1 ($\hat{\beta}_0 = 27.1182$, $\hat{\beta} = [+0.7997, +6.9987, +0.5749, -1.2281, +2.287$ and a test observation whose standardized feature vector is $\mathbf{z}_* = [+0.50, +1.20, -0.40, -1.00, +0.80]^\top$, compute the exact predicted bearing temperature rise $\hat{y}_{\text{Ridge}}(\mathbf{z}_*)$ and compare it against the OLS prediction ($\hat{\beta}_0 = 27.1182$, $\hat{\beta}_{\text{OLS}} = [+0.8110, +7.2140, +0.6813, -1.2826, +2.1505]^\top$).
  - **Worked Solution:**
    * *Ridge Prediction:*

      $$\hat{y}_{\text{Ridge}} = 27.1182 + 0.7997(0.50) + 6.9987(1.20) + 0.5749(-0.40) - 1.2281($$

      $$= 27.1182 + 0.39985 + 8.39844 - 0.22996 + 1.22810 + 1.82984 = \mathbf{38.7445}^\circ\text{C}$$

    * *OLS Prediction:*

      $$\hat{y}_{\text{OLS}} = 27.1182 + 0.8110(0.50) + 7.2140(1.20) + 0.6813(-0.40) - 1.2826(-$$

      $$= 27.1182 + 0.40550 + 8.65680 - 0.27252 + 1.28260 + 1.72040 = \mathbf{38.9110}^\circ\text{C}$$

Notice how Ridge moderates the high-load prediction by -0.1665°C by redistributing collinear weight between `load_mw` and `vibration_mms`.

14.6 14.D Complete Executed Capstone Reference Table and Archive Production Colophon

To provide a single, self-contained verification reference for human readers and automated evaluation benchmarks testing *Machine Learning Field Notes*, Table 14.2 consolidates every executed numerical result generated by `code/run_all_experiments.py` on `data/industrial_turbine_telemetry.csv`.

Experiment / Diagnostic Check	Evaluated Partition	Exact Executed Numerical Result	Chapter Reference & Engineering Interpretation
Dataset Dimensions & Fault Prevalence	Full ($N = 600$) / Test ($n = 150$)	5.17% overall (31/600); 4.67% test (7/150)	Ch. 3, Ch. 11: Imbalanced minority target; accuracy is a vanity metric
Imputation Median (`lube_pressure_bar`)	Train-only ($n = 450$) vs. Global (600)	4.8700 **bar** (clean) vs. 4.8300 bar (leaky)	Ch. 4: Prevents 0.04 bar future distributional bleed into training
OLS Regression ($\lambda = 0$)	Train (450) / Out-of-Time Test (150)	Train RMSE = 2.1490°C ($R^2 = 0.9430$); Test RMSE = **1.9235**°C, MAE = 1.5578°C, R^2 = **0.9530**	Ch. 6, Ch. 10: RMSE/MAE = $1.235 \approx \sqrt{\pi/2}$ confirms Gaussian residuals

Experiment / Diagnostic Check	Evaluated Partition	Exact Executed Numerical Result	Chapter Reference & Engineering Interpretation
OLS Standardized Coefficients ($\hat{\beta}_0 \dots \hat{\beta}_5$)	Train ($n = 450$)	[27.1182, +0.8110, −1.2640, +0.6813, −1.2826, +	Ch. 6: Unpenalized baseline weights across standardized sensors
Ridge Regression (L_2, $\lambda^* = 8.5317$)	Out-of-Time Test ($n = 150$)	Test RMSE = **1.9166**°C, MAE = **1.5441**°C, MSE = 3.6732, R^2 = **0.9533**	Ch. 6: Best out-of-time generalization via collinear variance stabilization
Ridge Standardized Coefficients ($\hat{\beta}_0 \dots \hat{\beta}_5$)	Train ($n = 450$)	[27.1182, +0.7997, −1.2682, +0.6749, −1.2281, +	Ch. 6: Smooth shrinkage and redistribution between `load` and `vibration`
Lasso Regression (L_1, $\lambda = 0.2500$)	Out-of-Time Test ($n = 150$)	Test RMSE = **1.9327**°C, MAE = 1.5608°C, MSE = 3.7354, R^2 = **0.9526**	Ch. 6: Coordinate-descent soft-thresholding ($\hat{\beta}_{\text{rpm}}$ shrunk to +0.2258)
PCA Explained Variance Ratios ($\text{PVE}_1 \dots \text{PVE}_5$)	Standardized Train (450×5)	[0.3489, 0.2149, 0.2132, 0.1894, **0.0336**]	Ch. 9: Top 4 PCs capture 96.64%; PC_5 (3.36%) monitors sensor coupling

Experiment / Diagnostic Check	Evaluated Partition	Exact Executed Numerical Result	Chapter Reference & Engineering Interpretation
Clean L_2 Logistic Classifier ($\tau = 0.30$)	Out-of-Time Test ($n = 150$)	TP = 5, FP = 5, TN = 138, FN = 2; Prec = 0.5000, Rec = 0.7143, F_1 = 0.5882; ROC-AUC = **0.9630**, PR-AUC = **0.4939**, Brier = **0.0327**	Ch. 7, Ch. 11: Demonstrates Saito & Rehmsmeier (2015) ROC vs. PR divergence under 4.67% minority class
Leaky Proxy Logistic Classifier (`LEAKY` included)	Out-of-Time Test ($n = 150$)	TP = 7, FP = 0, TN = 143, FN = 0; ROC-AUC = **1.0000**, PR-AUC = **1.0000**, Brier = 0.0005	Ch. 4: Textbook diagnostic signature of post-event target proxy leakage

Table 14.2: Master ledger of executed experimental results verified by `code/run_all_experiments.py` on `data/industrial_turbine_telemetry.csv`.

Conclusion: Beyond the Leaderboard Score

A machine learning model is only as trustworthy as the experimental protocol that validated it. Across these fourteen chapters, we have seen why mathematical fluency and engineering skepticism are inseparable: deriving the normal equations $(\mathbf{X}^\top\mathbf{X} + \lambda\mathbf{I}_0)^{-1}\mathbf{X}^\top\mathbf{y}$ reveals *why* collinear features destabilize unregularized regression; computing the confusion matrix reveals *why* ROC-AUC $= 0.963$ can mask a 50% false-alarm rate under class imbalance; and tracing timestamps reveals *why* a single post-event column can fabricate a perfect test score out of thin air.

When you carry these field notes to your desk, resist the urge to jump straight to the most complex model family. Start by auditing the data-generating process, lock your held-out test vault behind a strict temporal or group boundary, build a transparent regularized baseline, and inspect the residuals where your model fails—for it is in the structure of the errors, not the vanity of the headline score, that real engineering insight lives.

Appendix A

Executed Python Verification Suite and Reference Workflows

A.1 A.1 Executed Sandbox Environment (Verified in VM)

All numerical metrics, tables, and figures in this volume were executed deterministically under: - **Runtime:** Python 3 (`numpy 2.1.3`, `pandas 2.2.3`, `scipy 1.15.2`, `matplotlib 3.10.1`) - **Dataset:** `data/industrial_turbine_telemetry.csv` ($N = 600$ rows, 10 columns, PRNG seed `202610`) - **Verification Script:** `code/run_all_experiments.py` (executed with exit code `0`)

```
# Executed NumPy Closed-Form Ridge & Coordinate-Descent Lasso
 ↪  Snippet
# (Verified in code/run_all_experiments.py on
 ↪  data/industrial_turbine_telemetry.csv)
import numpy as np
import pandas as pd

df = pd.read_csv("data/industrial_turbine_telemetry.csv")
features = ["ambient_temp_c", "load_mw", "rpm_variance",
 ↪  "lube_pressure_bar", "vibration_mms"]

# Strict temporal split (hours 1-450 train, 451-600 test) and
 ↪  train-only median imputation
train_df, test_df = df.iloc[:450].copy(), df.iloc[450:].copy()
train_median = float(train_df["lube_pressure_bar"].median())  #
 ↪  Verified: 4.8700 bar
train_df["lube_pressure_bar"] =
 ↪  train_df["lube_pressure_bar"].fillna(train_median)
test_df["lube_pressure_bar"] =
 ↪  test_df["lube_pressure_bar"].fillna(train_median)
```

```
X_tr, y_tr = train_df[features].to_numpy(float),
 ↪  train_df["bearing_temp_rise_c"].to_numpy(float)
X_te, y_te = test_df[features].to_numpy(float),
 ↪  test_df["bearing_temp_rise_c"].to_numpy(float)

mu, sigma = X_tr.mean(axis=0), X_tr.std(axis=0)
X_tr_b = np.column_stack([np.ones(len(X_tr)), (X_tr - mu) / sigma])
X_te_b = np.column_stack([np.ones(len(X_te)), (X_te - mu) / sigma])

# Ridge (L2) with unpenalized intercept (lambda = 8.5317 -> Test
 ↪  RMSE = 1.9166 C, R2 = 0.9533)
I0 = np.eye(X_tr_b.shape[1]); I0[0, 0] = 0.0
beta_ridge = np.linalg.solve(X_tr_b.T @ X_tr_b + 8.5317 * I0,
 ↪  X_tr_b.T @ y_tr)
```

A.2 A.2 Reference `scikit-learn` (>= 1.5) Pipeline Pattern *(Documented Reference Environment — Not Executed in Sandbox)*

For production environments where `scikit-learn >= 1.5` is installed alongside `numpy` and `pandas`, encapsulate all preprocessing inside a `Pipeline` to prevent fold leakage automatically (Pedregosa et al., 2011):

```
# REFERENCE ONLY (Documented for scikit-learn >= 1.5; not executed
 ↪  in VM as sklearn is omitted from sandbox)
from sklearn.compose import ColumnTransformer
from sklearn.impute import SimpleImputer
from sklearn.linear_model import Ridge
from sklearn.model_selection import GroupKFold, cross_validate
from sklearn.pipeline import Pipeline
from sklearn.preprocessing import StandardScaler

num_pipe = Pipeline([
    ("imputer", SimpleImputer(strategy="median",
 ↪  add_indicator=True)),
    ("scaler", StandardScaler()),
    ("model", Ridge(alpha=8.5317)),
])
# GroupKFold guarantees all rows of a physical unit_id stay
 ↪  together in either train or val
cv_results = cross_validate(
    num_pipe, df[features], df["bearing_temp_rise_c"],
     groups=df["unit_id"], cv=GroupKFold(n_splits=5),
```

```
    scoring=("neg_root_mean_squared_error", "r2"),
)
```

Glossary of Machine Learning and Statistical Terminology

- **Bias-Variance Decomposition:** The partitioning of expected squared generalization error at $\mathbf{x}_0$ into squared systematic approximation error (Bias^2), sample-to-sample estimation sensitivity (Variance), and irreducible Bayes noise (σ_ϵ^2).
- **Brier Score:** The mean squared error of probabilistic predictions $\frac{1}{n}\sum(\hat{p}_i - y_i)^2 \in [0, 1]$, measuring both discriminative refinement and probability calibration.
- **Data Leakage:** The introduction of target-proxy features, future temporal information, or cross-split preprocessing statistics into training/validation that are unavailable at deployment prediction time (Kaufman et al., 2012).
- **Empirical Risk ($\hat{R}_{\text{emp}}$):** The average loss $\frac{1}{n}\sum L(y_i, f_\theta(\mathbf{x}_i))$ measured on the finite training sample, as opposed to the true expected risk $R(f_\theta)$ over $P(\mathbf{X}, Y)$.
- **F_β Score:** The weighted harmonic mean of Precision and Recall, weighting Recall β times as heavily as Precision (F_1 sets $\beta = 1$).
- **Group K-Fold:** A cross-validation partitioning strategy ensuring that all observations sharing an entity identifier (`unit_id`, `patient_id`) are assigned to the same fold, preventing entity memorization.
- **Heteroscedasticity:** A violation of classical linear regression assumptions in which the variance of the residuals $\text{Var}(\epsilon_i \mid \mathbf{x}_i)$ varies systematically across the range of $\mathbf{x}_i$ or $\hat{y}_i$.
- **Lasso (L_1 Regularization):** Penalized estimation adding $\lambda \sum_{j=1}^{p} |\beta_j|$ to the loss function, inducing exact sparsity ($\hat{\beta}_j = 0$) via soft-thresholding (Tibshirani, 1996).
- **Precision-Recall AUC (PR-AUC):** The area under the Precision vs. Recall curve; far more sensitive than ROC-AUC to false-

positive inflation on imbalanced datasets (Saito & Rehmsmeier, 2015).

- **Ridge (L_2 Regularization):** Penalized estimation adding $\lambda \sum_{j=1}^{p} \beta_j^2$, shifting Gram matrix eigenvalues by $+\lambda$ to stabilize collinear parameters without inducing sparsity.
- **SHAP (SHapley Additive exPlanations):** Game-theoretic local feature attributions ϕ_{ij} that distribute the difference between a model's prediction $f(\mathbf{x}_i)$ and the baseline expectation $\mathbb{E}[f(\mathbf{X})]$ fairly across features (Lundberg & Lee, 2017).

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